

ETHNOGRAPHIC SURVEY OF AFRICA

EDITED BY DARYLL FORDE

EAST CENTRAL AFRICA

PART XVII

THE PEOPLES OF
GREATER UNYAMWEZI,
TANZANIA

(Nyamwezi, Sukuma, Sumbwa, Kimbu, Konongo)

BY

R. G. ABRAHAMS

LONDON

INTERNATIONAL AFRICAN INSTITUTE

1967

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FOREWORD

The preparation and publication of the Ethnographic Survey of Africa began in 1945. Proposals for a survey of this kind had been considered by the Council of the Institute before the war and a memorandum setting out the contributions that an authoritative series of concise and comprehensive ethnographic studies could make in connection with the prospects for development, education and research in Africa was presented on behalf of the Institute to the British Colonial Office in 1944. Grants from the British Colonial Development and Welfare Fund allocated on the recommendation of the British Colonial Social Science Research Council in 1945 made it possible to initiate this work. A committee set up under the Chairmanship of Professor Radcliffe-Brown considered the detailed proposals for its scope and organization which had been prepared by the Director who undertook to direct and edit the Survey. It endorsed the main objective, namely to provide in readily comprehensible form an outline of available knowledge concerning the peoples of Africa in a series of short systematic studies of the location, environment, economy, crafts, social systems, political organization and religious beliefs of each people or group of related peoples. Publication was planned in a continuing series of separate Parts to be grouped within broad regions, each of which would conform to a general scheme of coverage envisaged for the Survey as a whole and would include a comprehensive bibliography and an ethnographic map. The generous collaboration of a number of research institutions and of officials in Europe and in Africa was secured as well as the services of senior anthropologists who were good enough to supervise and amplify the drafts.

While the available published sources have usually provided the basis for the Survey, authors have in many cases been able to use unpublished reports and records in government files and in the archives of missionary societies as well as field notes and special communications from anthropologists and others which have been generously made available. Increasingly, as the work of the Survey has progressed, it has been possible to obtain contributions from field workers who have been recently engaged in research among the peoples concerned. Such volumes have accordingly provided a first short account of the results of new studies.

In addition to the initial British grants, which have been subsequently continued by the Department of Technical Co-operation and the Ministry of Overseas Development, contributions towards the preparation and publication of volumes relating to Francophone Africa were generously made by the governments of *Afrique Occidentale Française*, the Cameroons and *Afrique Equatoriale Française*, through the good offices of the *Ministère de la France d'Outre Mer* and the *Institut Française de l'Afrique Noire*. The late Professor M. Griaule, Professor Th. Monod, Mme. G. Dieterlen and Professor H. Deschamps have greatly assisted the survey in securing the services and guiding the work of the French ethnologists who have contributed these volumes.

The Commission d'Ethnologie of the *Institut Royal Colonial Belge* and the *Institut pour la Recherche Scientifique en Afrique Centrale*, which were established after the war, co-operated in the preparation of the earlier Parts relating to the Congo at the Centre de Documentation of the *Musée du Congo Belge*, under the direction of Professor Olbrechts and Mlle. Boone. The Institute is indebted to the Museum for its continued collaboration in the publication of further Parts in association with their series of *Monographies Ethnographiques*.

Over fifty Parts of the Survey have so far been published, but considerable areas and a number of important peoples remain to be covered. Meanwhile the first editions of the earlier Parts have in many cases gone out of print. Since it has often been

difficult to arrange for revised editions which would incorporate more recent research, they have sometimes been reprinted without change, with the addition of supplementary bibliographies, as a record of the earlier ethnographic information on the people described and provide a background for subsequent studies.

This Part, *The Peoples of Greater Unyamwezi, Tanzania*, by Dr. R. G. Abrahams, is the third in a series relating to Tanzania. The first two Parts, *The Fipa and Related Peoples of South-West Tanzania and North-East Zambia*, by Roy G. Willis, *The Matrilineal Peoples of Eastern Tanzania*, by T. O. Beidelman, have already been published, and further Parts on the Hehe, Bena and Gogo of Tanzania are in preparation. The authors of all these have recently carried out field research in the areas of their studies, and have been able not only to present the results of their own research but also to make critical evaluations and more effective use of earlier writings on the peoples concerned.

A list of Parts already published will be found on pp. 92-4.

DARYLL FORDE,
Director,
International African Institute.

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INTRODUCTION

The present work summarizes the available ethnographic material on the Nyamwezi, Sukuma, Sumbwa, Kimbu and Konongo peoples of west-central Tanzania. It is based partly upon the existing literature and partly upon my own field research which I carried out among the Nyamwezi between 1957 and 1960 as a Junior Research Fellow of the East African Institute of Social Research, Makerere. Access to unpublished manuscripts on the region, written by H. Meinhard and H. Cory, and in the possession of the International African Institute, has been of great help in the course of writing.

With few exceptions, information on the region refers to the period before the independence of Tanganyika in 1961. This has raised some difficult problems in the choice of tenses in the present work. At first sight the simplest solution would appear to be the casting of the main part of the text in the past tense, but this is not without its difficulties. Apart from the consideration that many of the features described are not likely to have changed significantly, the absence of near-past and distant-past tenses in English, in contrast to Nyamwezi, means that a distinction between different periods of the past is often hard to draw without regular and unduly cumbersome specification of the exact period referred to. I have therefore chosen to use the present tense as an "ethnographic present" describing the situation which, as far as I can tell, was still obtaining in the region at the time of my fieldwork. The main difficulty of this approach lies in the fact that important changes are known to have taken place in the region in the field of local political organization since 1961, although little is yet known in detail about these. These changes have been referred to briefly in the section on History, and their implications for the material presented have been specially noted in the section on Chiefdom Organization. It remains only to affirm here that my use of the present tense in this and other contexts involves no element of disrespect for more recent developments within the region.

The most detailed information on most topics is available for the Nyamwezi and Sukuma. The situation with regard to the Sumbwa is unclear on several points, and the material upon the Kimbu and Konongo is extremely thin. Scarcely anything has in fact been written about the Konongo, but they have been included in the present work mainly because it seems likely that much of the material presented on the Nyamwezi will be applicable to them.

NOMENCLATURE

For convenience of description, I use the term "greater Unyamwezi" in the course of this work to refer to the total region under discussion, i.e. that part of west-central Tanganyika which comprises the countries of the Kimbu, Konongo, Nyamwezi, Sukuma and Sumbwa distinguished on modern maps. As will be seen below, this usage is essentially the same as that of certain other writers on the region such as Blohm. I shall use the term "Unyamwezi proper" to refer to the modern Nyamwezi subdivision of this wider area, and the other tribal areas in the region will be referred to as Ukimbu, Ukonongo, Usukuma and Usumbwa.

In the literature, the name Nyamwezi has been given both narrower and wider connotations which largely correspond with contextual variations and historical changes in indigenous usage.¹ Writing in 1845, Macqueen quotes a native informant who uses the term to include Ha country.² Burton's usage is, however, narrower and much closer to that of more recent writers.³ Blohm, employing data collected between 1897 and 1916, counts the Kimbu and Konongo as the southern, and the Sukuma and Sumbwa as the northern, major subdivisions of the Nyamwezi, with a central Nyamwezi area roughly equivalent to that which I call Unyamwezi proper lying between them.⁴ Bösch has a fundamentally similar, though more detailed, classification.⁵ Both he and Blohm consider, though for different reasons, that the name originally had a directional meaning, serving the inhabitants of the east coast as a general term for a number of peoples who came from the west to trade.⁶ This broad usage has to some extent been perpetuated by a tendency of various peoples of the region to describe themselves as Nyamwezi when seeking employment in coastal areas, since the name is well-known and respected there.⁷

On the other hand, the name Nyamwezi is often used by the peoples of the region to refer specifically to the Central Nyamwezi as opposed to the Kimbu, Konongo, Sukuma and Sumbwa. This more specific usage is followed in the Official Censuses of 1948 and 1957 where all five groups are listed as separate tribes.

Various attempts have been made to discover the original meaning of the name Nyamwezi. A common conjecture is that the name means "of the moon", since *mwezi* is the word for moon in both Nyamwezi and Swahili.⁸ According to Livingstone, the name was attached to the people because they wore crescent-shaped pendants around their necks.⁹ Baumann considers that the name involves a reference to Ptolemy's "Mountains of the Moon".¹⁰ Bösch argues that the moon is associated in people's minds with the west, and that the name thus denotes the western direction from which the Nyamwezi came to the east coast for trade.¹¹ Blohm comes to a similar conclusion for a different reason. He considers that the root *mwezi* in the name was originally a Swahili version of the Nyamwezi word *mweli*, which means "west", and he mentions in this context the Nyamwezi use of the term *nyamweli* to refer to westerners.¹² My own data on this point are inconclusive. One Sumbwa chief, however, told me that some southern Sumbwa use the word *mwezi* to mean "west",

¹ Various spellings, e.g. Manmoise, Mono-moezi, Uniamese, Nyamouezi, are found, particularly in earlier sources. In this study I have used the spellings of tribal names used in the official census of 1957.

² Macqueen (1845, 371-4).

³ Burton (1860, vol. II, 1-2).

⁴ Blohm (1931, 9-11).

⁵ Bösch (1930a, 10).

⁶ Blohm (1931, 8), Bösch (1930a, 8).

⁷ Blohm (1931, 6), Cory (private communication).

⁸ Cf. Baumann (1894, 227), Bösch (1930a, 1, 8), Burton (1860, vol. II, 3-4), Dahl (1915, sub "Vunamwezi"), Livingstone (1874, vol. II, 180).

⁹ Livingstone (1874, vol. II, 180).

¹⁰ Baumann (1894, 227).

¹¹ Bösch (1930a, 8).

¹² Blohm (1931, 8).

having another word, *kwezi*, for the moon.¹³ Among such people, irrespective of the influence of Swahili, the name Nyamwezi would mean "of the west".

With the exception of Sukuma, little or nothing is known about the other tribal names mentioned so far. One source claims that Sumbwa means "conquered", and attributes its use to former Tusi domination of the Sumbwa area.¹⁴ There is no doubt that the name Sukuma is directional in origin. As Burton and Speke recognized, *sukuma* means "north" in this region, and Speke tells us that the Sukuma are consequently "northmen", or northern Nyamwezi.¹⁵ Another name for the Sukuma is said to be Gwi or Gwe.¹⁶

Although Sukuma is now firmly established as a tribal name by which the people designate themselves, it is also still used as a general term for northerners. Thus people living in Kahama District, who call themselves Nyamwezi, are commonly referred to as Sukuma by the people to their south around Tabora. Used in this way, the name Sukuma is simply one of a set of four directional names.¹⁷ Of the others, the term *nyamweli* used for westerners has already been mentioned. This term is particularly applied to people of the Sumbwa area.¹⁸ The word for south and southerners is *dakama* or *takama*.¹⁹ *Nakiya*, from the word *kiya* meaning "east", is used for easterners.²⁰ People from outlying areas sometimes describe themselves in these directional terms.

It appears from my own informants' statements that at least one of these directional names is occasionally used as a joking nickname. Thus I was told that a person from eastern Kahama District may call a person from the Sumbwa area "Nyamweli" in a jokingly deprecating way. The Sumbwa do not apparently use the word *nakiya* in reply. Rather, they are said to use the term *ilwana*, which, I was informed, means "difficult to understand".²¹ Dahl mentions the name Pokomo as a joking nickname of the southern Nyamwezi.²²

It remains to point out that people also commonly describe themselves and others by reference to their chiefdoms or their membership of a particular ruling descent group.

LOCATION

Although some of their members may be found in various parts of Tanganyika and beyond, each of the tribal groups under discussion is associated with a particular locality or home area in which it constitutes the largest single element in the population. These home areas together form a continuous block of country, i.e. greater Unyamwezi, about 200 miles across at its widest point, and stretching from Lake Rukwa in the south to Lake Victoria in the north, a distance of about 380 miles.

The map shows the situation of these tribal areas.²³ The Nyamwezi, distinguished as a separate unit from the other groups, as in the 1957 Census, are seen as mainly occupying the Administrative Districts of Nzega and Tabora and the eastern portion of Kahama District in the Western Province. The main Sumbwa area is the western portion of Kahama District. To the north of the Nyamwezi, the Sukuma occupy Kwimba, Maswa, Mwanza and Shinyanga Districts and much of the Geita

¹³ Cf. Dahl (1915, sub "kwezi").

¹⁴ Ankermann (1929, 5).

¹⁵ Burton (1860, vol. II, 5), Speke (1864, 271). Cf. Malcolm (1953, 10).

¹⁶ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 3), Cunningham (1905, 301), Cory (1951, 2).

¹⁷ Cf. Burton (1860, vol. II, 5), Blohm (1931, 7), Bösch (1930a, 8).

¹⁸ Own fieldwork. Cf. Bryan (1959, 119), Dahl (1915, Introduction).

¹⁹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 7), Bösch (1930a, 8), Burton (1860, vol. II, 5), Dahl (1915, sub "dakama").

²⁰ Cf. Blohm (1931, 7), Bösch (1930a, 8), Burton (1860, vol. II, 5).

²¹ For another interpretation of this word, see Dahl (1915, Introduction). Bösch (1930a, 10) talks of a subdivision of Nyamwezi country of this name, but my own informants said that it was not a term which people used to describe themselves. See also section on language below.

²² Dahl (1915, Introduction).

²³ The boundaries of the tribal territories on the map are based on information from the 1957 census. Cf. the Tribal and Ethnographic Map of Tanganyika of 1955 which appears in the Atlas of Tanganyika, 3rd edition, and also in the Handbook of Tanganyika (1958). Cf. also Gulliver (1959).

District in the Lake Province. To the south of the Nyamwezi, across the Ugalla river, the Konongo inhabit the north-west corner of Mpanda District in the Western Province. To the south-west and west of the Konongo, and to the south and south-east of the Nyamwezi, lie the Kimbu. Their country falls partly in Chunya District in the Southern Highlands Province, and partly in Manyoni District in the Central Province.

Starting in the north, and listed clockwise, the people bordering on this tribal cluster are as follows. Due north of the Sukuma, across Speke Gulf, are the Kerewe. To the north-east lie the Shashi, Ikizu and Ikoma. The eastern and south-eastern neighbours of the Sukuma are the Masai, Kindiga (Hadza) and Isanzu. The Iramba and Nyaturu are the eastern neighbours of the Nyamwezi. To the east of the Kimbu are the Gogo. To the south-west of the Kimbu, across Lake Rukwa, are the Wanda, Nyika and Fipa. To the south of the Konongo lie the Rungwa, to the south-west and west the Pimbwe and Bende, and to the north-west the Tongwe. The western neighbours of the Nyamwezi are the Vinza and the Ha. The Ha are also western neighbours of the Sumbwa, whose north-western neighbours are the Subi. To the north of the Sumbwa, and to the west and north-west of the Sukuma, are the Zinza.

TERRITORIAL GROUPINGS

Some of the points touched on in this section will be dealt with in more detail under other headings such as Demography, History, and Political Organization.

All the peoples under discussion are multi-chiefdom tribes. Although some chiefdoms temporarily fell under the influence of others in the nineteenth century, the individual chiefdoms have in general always been the most inclusive indigenous political units.²⁴ Frequently, the ruling families of a number of chiefdoms claim common descent with one another as members of what can be called a "dynasty".²⁵ The chiefdoms of a single dynasty in many cases form a territorial cluster, but these wider groupings are mainly of ritual significance. Under British rule, various federations of chiefdoms within the Administrative Districts and Provinces were created.²⁶ Like the District and Provincial boundaries themselves, these federations often cut across dynastic affiliations. This has happened more by accident than by design and is, on the whole, politically and ritually unimportant.

The number of chiefdoms has varied considerably from one period to another. From earliest times until the middle of the nineteen-twenties, when a counter-trend was started by the British, a variety of factors caused the number to increase.²⁷ Bösch, writing near the end of this long period of increase, speaks of as many as 150 mutually independent chiefdoms in the region.²⁸ The following table shows, however, the situation reached by 1948, the first year for which recent and comparatively detailed information has been published. Since then, the number of chiefdoms has been relatively stable.

Greater Unyamwezi, 1948. Number of chiefdoms and
approx. size of tribal areas.

<i>Tribe</i>	<i>Number of chiefdoms</i>	<i>Approx. size of tribal area</i>
Kimbu	4	10,000 sq. miles
Konongo	9	7,500 " "
Nyamwezi	33	35,000 " "
Sukuma	43	16,000 " "
Sumbwa	8	3,500 " "
Greater Unyamwezi	97	72,000 " "

²⁴ Cf. section on history.

²⁵ Cf. Abrahams (1966) (1967a, Ch. II). See also Cory (1951, Ch. I).

²⁶ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. III), Hailey (1950, 232-3, 246-7, 260, 271), Malcolm (1953, Ch. V, and 146-9).

²⁷ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II) for further details of this process of proliferation in Unyamwezi proper.

²⁸ Bösch (1930a, 17, 493).

The table shows the number of chiefdoms in which each tribe formed the largest single element in the population in 1948, and it includes an estimate of the area of the tribal territories thus defined.²⁹ In a few cases, chiefdoms could be differently classified according to other criteria. Thus, three of the chiefdoms classed here as Nyamwezi are administratively in the south of the Lake Region and form part of the Sukumaland Federation. The figures given for the size of tribal territories should be read with caution, since there are important differences between the population densities of different areas.³⁰

Within most of the individual tribal territories, some chiefdoms have much larger areas than others. The greatest differences in this respect are found in Unyamwezi proper. There, the area of the largest chiefdom, Unyanyembe in Tabora District, is about 10,000 square miles, while that of the smallest, Ibili, also in Tabora District, is about 60 square miles. As with the tribal territories themselves, however, differences between the areas of chiefdoms in a territory by no means always closely correspond with differences between the sizes of their populations. Thus to take another Nyamwezi example, this time from Nzega District, Mwangoye chiefdom with an area of about 140 square miles had a population of 14,176 in 1957, whereas Unyambiyu, with an area of about 750 square miles, had only 8,964 inhabitants.

There is considerable tribal mixture in the population of the chiefdoms, and in my experience this situation is found right down to the village level. Thus, in one Kahama District village where I worked, the tribal membership of homestead heads was as follows: Nyamwezi 27; Sumbwa 6; Sukuma 4; Tusi 2; Total: 39.

Citizenship of a chiefdom, with the rights and duties this implies, is a territorial concept in which tribal affiliation is largely irrelevant.³¹ On the village level, neighbours normally co-operate with each other irrespective of their tribe. There is also considerable intermarriage between members of most of the different tribes. In general, the Tusi appear to be the least well-integrated element in the population. They are predominantly pastoral in their interests and some of them do not engage at all in cultivation. They have a bad reputation as cattle thieves. They rarely intermarry with other tribes and they sometimes prefer to live in small communities on the outskirts of villages rather than in the main area of settlement. Until fairly recently there was in many chiefdoms a special representative of the Tusi population who served as an intermediary between them and the chief. It should be noted, however, that at least within the period for which contemporary records are available, the Tusi have not formed a politically dominant caste or class in Greater Unyamwezi.³²

DEMOGRAPHY

THE MAIN TRIBES, AND THE POPULATION OF THEIR TRIBAL AREAS IN 1957³³

Figures for the 1957 population of the five tribal groups under discussion are given in the following table, which also includes details of how many members of each tribe were resident in their tribal area at that time. The tribal areas are again defined in terms of chiefdoms in which a given tribe formed the largest single element of the population. Alterations in the extent of tribal areas since 1948 will be discussed with other population changes in the next sub-section.

²⁹ The main sources for this table are Hailey (1950); the official census of Tanganyika (1948); and District Maps of the relevant areas published by the Department of Lands and Surveys, Dar es Salaam.

³⁰ Cf. the section on demography.

³¹ Cf. Abrahams (1967b) for more detailed discussion of this question in Unyamwezi proper.

³² Liebenow (1960, 233-5, 259), following Cory, speaks of Hima and Tusi founding dynasties in Usukuma. Cf. Cory (1951, 1). This point is discussed further in the section on history.

³³ Except where stated, the data in this section are drawn from the official census of Tanganyika of 1957.

<i>Tribe</i>	<i>Total</i>	<i>Number in tribal area</i>	<i>% in tribal area</i>
Kimbu	31,149	8,216	23%
Konongo	20,479	5,212	25%
Nyamwezi	363,258	264,023*	73%
Sukuma	1,093,767	957,668†	88%
Sumbwa	76,435	17,428	23%

* Excludes Kahama and Tabora Towns.

† Excludes Mwanza and Shinyanga Towns, Alimasi Ltd. (Shinyanga) and Williamson Diamonds (Shinyanga).

It is clear from these figures that the Sukuma and Nyamwezi are much the largest of the five tribes. They are in fact the first and second largest tribes in Tanganyika as a whole. It is also apparent from the table that these two tribes are much more concentrated in their respective tribal areas than are the other three. It should be pointed out, however, that a large majority of the members of all the tribes live, if not in their tribal territory itself, at least in areas which are more or less adjacent to it, so that each tribe tends to occupy a zone which centres on its tribal territory and overlaps to some extent with other similar zones.

The following table shows the number of tribesmen living in these wider areas in 1957.

<i>Tribe</i>	<i>Total</i>	<i>Number in tribal territory and surrounding area including urban and industrial centres</i>	<i>% of total</i>	<i>Definition of wider area</i>
Kimbu	31,149	28,879	93%	Manyoni, Chunya, Tabora, Nzega, Mpanda, Singida, Dodoma, Iringa and Mbeya Districts
Konongo	20,479	19,145	93%	Mpanda, Chunya, Manyoni and Tabora Districts
Nyamwezi	363,258	315,000	87%	Kahama, Nzega, Tabora, Mpanda, Geita, Shinyanga, Chunya, Manyoni and Singida Districts
Sukuma	1,093,767	1,065,137	97%	Geita, Kwimba, Maswa, Mwanza, Musoma, Shinyanga, Kahama, Nzega and Tabora Districts
Sumbwa	76,435	71,609	94%	Kahama, Nzega, Tabora, Biharamulo, Shinyanga and Geita Districts

For over a hundred years, the peoples of greater Unyamwezi have regularly travelled to the coast, at first on trading expeditions and later also for labour.³⁴ Most go only for a year or so, but a considerable number are more or less permanently settled there. The following table shows the numbers resident in Tanganyika's coastal areas at the time of the 1957 census. There is no record of the numbers to be found in Zanzibar and Pemba at this time, but 8,253 Nyamwezi were recorded there in 1948.

³⁴ Cf. the sections on history, trade, and labour migration.

	<i>Eastern Province</i>	<i>Tanga Province</i>
Kimbu	197	209
Konongo	Unlisted	Unlisted
Nyamwezi	11,782	10,606
Sukuma	2,752	5,062
Sumbwa	295	750

It is probable that the relatively large numbers of Nyamwezi shown in this table, and the absence of a separate figure for Konongo, are partly due to a tendency of many of the peoples of the region to call themselves Nyamwezi when on the coast.

A large majority of greater Unyamwezi emigrants are men, and this, of course, should be reflected in the sex ratios of the population of the tribal areas themselves. The following table shows the situation according to the 1957 census. The sex ratios are expressed in terms of the number of males found per hundred females.

	<i>S.R. for whole tribe</i>	<i>S.R. of tribe in some "home" Administrative districts</i>
Kimbu	88.5	87 (Chunya and Manyoni)*
Konongo	83	86 (Mpanda)
Nyamwezi	93.5	86 (Nzega)
Sukuma	93	91 (Kwimba)
Sumbwa	87	81 (Kahama)

* The figures for the individual Districts differ rather widely, i.e. 90 for Manyoni District (higher than for total tribe) and 83 for Chunya District.

The figures for the Konongo are at variance with the general pattern. Why this should be so is unclear, but re-classification of Konongo male migrants may be involved. It seems unlikely that more women than men of this tribe actually migrate out of their home area.

The total 1957 population of the separate tribal territories, as opposed to wider zones, was as follows.

<i>Tribal area</i>	<i>Total African population excluding urban and industrial centres</i>	<i>% of total who were members of the main tribe in the area</i>
Ukimbu	26,928	31%
Ukonongo	7,851	66%
Unyamwezi proper	488,077	54%
Usukuma	1,143,379	85%
Usumbwa	36,591	48%

It is clear from these figures that the tribal areas differ considerably in the extent of tribal intermixture within them. Available census data do not permit the description of each tribal area as a whole in this respect, but the following tables show the tribal composition of one or more reasonably representative chiefdoms in each area in 1957.

<i>Tribal area</i>	<i>Chiefdom</i>	<i>Administrative District</i>	<i>Population</i>	
Ukimbu	Itumba	Manyoni	Kimbu	778
			Sangu	148
			Gogo	146
			Hehe	142
			All others	484

Ukimbu	Ukimbu	Chunya	Kimbu	3,997
			Konongo	1,042
			Wungu	1,018
			Fipa	499
			Rungwa	382
			Sangu	276
			Nyika	247
			All others	1,130
			Total	7,591
Ukonongo	Inyonga*	Mpanda	Konongo	4,235
			Nyamwezi	601
			Rungwa	587
			Pimbwe	324
			Kimbu	122
			Fipa	114
			All others	287
			Total	6,270
Unyamwezi proper	Sikonge	Tabora (southern)	Nyamwezi	8,241
			Sangu	345
			Tusi	270
			Wungu	256
			Sukuma	245
			Rungwa	212
			Manyema	184
			Fipa	168
			Kimbu	167
			Gogo	127
			Yao	107
			Others†	104
			All others	1,177
			Total	11,603
Unyamwezi proper	Usagari	Tabora (northern)	Nyamwezi	843
			Sumbwa	119
			Sukuma	117
			Tusi	109
			All others	134
			Total	1,322
Unyamwezi proper	Busangi	Kahama	Nyamwezi	2,359
			Sukuma	1,080
			Sumbwa	973
			Rongo	119
			Tusi	106
			All others	74
			Total	4,711

* In this case the census area was a number of small chiefdoms.

† Others and All others were listed as separate categories in the census.

Unyamwezi proper	Ussongo	Nzega (north-eastern)	Nyamwezi	34,764
			Sukuma	28,160
			Iramba	5,123
			Sumbwa	1,439
			Tusi	449
			Taturu	348
			Turu	235
			All others	1,032
			Total	71,551
Unyamwezi proper	Puge	Nzega (south-western)	Nyamwezi	7,546
			Sukuma	860
			Sumbwa	517
			Tusi	500
			Kimbu	188
			Iramba	115
			All others	465
			Total	10,141
Usukuma	Nera	Kwimba	Sukuma	84,264
			Nyamwezi	462
			Rongo	208
			All others	1,102
			Total	86,036
Usukuma	Mwagalla	Maswa	Sukuma	58,533
			Iramba	1,790
			Nyamwezi	1,379
			Rongo	140
			Taturu	129
			All others	432
			Total	62,403
Usukuma	Bunegeji	Mwanza	Sukuma	6,247
			Jita	218
			Zinza	149
			Kerewe	103
			All others	296
			Total	7,013
Usumbwa	Ulewe	Kahama	Sumbwa	1,986
			Ha	817
			Nyamwezi	578
			Rongo	109
			All others	259
			Total	3,749

Usukuma	Usambiro	Geita	Sukuma	25,560
			Rongo	9,713
			Nyamwezi	6,118
			Sumbwa	2,612
			Zinza	878
			Subi	476
			Ha	357
			Tusi	348
			Kerewe	184
			All others	980
Total				47,226

Most of the "outside" tribes found in the different tribal territories come from more or less adjacent areas. The Manyema and some of the Tusi are the chief exceptions. The Manyema, who originally came from beyond Lake Tanganyika in the Congo, are mainly descendants of carriers and slaves brought into the region during the last century. They are mainly settled in Tabora District. Many of the Tusi come from Ha country, but some of them have come into the region from more distant Interlacustrine areas to the north-west.³⁵ In the Sumbwa area of Kahama District, there is also a small enclave of Ngoni.³⁶ These came into Usumbwa in the nineteenth century, and they seem to be losing their tribal identity. In the 1957 census they numbered 610 as compared with 1,068 in the 1931 census. Of the tribes from nearby areas, the Rongo, who come from Uzinza, deserve special mention since they are the main iron-working specialists in the northern parts of the region. Also of particular interest are a small group of Hadza or Kindiga hunters and food-gatherers, locally called Bahi, who live in south-western Usukuma.

Overall figures of population density in each of the tribal areas in 1957 are as follows.

<i>Tribal area</i>	<i>Approximate density of population</i>
Ukimbu	3 per square mile
Ukonongo	1 " " "
Unyamwezi proper	14 " " "
Usukuma	64 " " "
Usumbwa	9 " " "

These figures show important differences between the different areas. They are, however, to some extent misleading, since the population of each area is not evenly distributed throughout it. The following tables, for example, show some differences between the population densities of different parts of Unyamwezi proper and of Usukuma.

<i>Tribal area</i>	<i>Sub-area</i>	<i>Approx. % of tribal area†</i>	<i>Approx. population density</i>
<i>Unyamwezi proper</i>	Tabora District*	69%	6 per sq. mile
	Nzega District	16%	39 " " "
	Kahama District†	10%	23 " " "
<i>Usukuma</i>	Kwimba District	10%	130 per sq. mile
	Maswa District	49%	33 " " "
	Mwanza Rural District	7%	144 " " "
	Shinyanga District	19%	65 " " "
	Geita District§	15%	78 " " "

* Excludes Tabora Town and 2 non-Nyamwezi chiefdoms.

† Excludes Kahama Town and non-Nyamwezi chiefdoms in west.

‡ The omission of chiefdoms outside these Districts means that the %s do not total to 100.

|| Excluding Lohumbo chiefdom (Nyamwezi), Shinyanga Town, Williamson Diamonds and

Alimasi Ltd.

§ Sukuma chiefdoms only.

³⁵ Own information.

³⁶ Cf. Barnes (1954, 8, 22, 122).

In addition, in Ukimbu, Ukonongo, much of Usumbwa, and the south and western parts of Unyamwezi proper (mainly in Tabora District), most of the population is concentrated in a relatively small number of centres, largely owing to Government re-settlement schemes aimed at reducing the effects of tsetse fly. In these areas, tsetse apparently began to carry sleeping sickness on a large scale only in the present century.³⁷ Even in the past, however, some areas of the region were considerably less densely populated than others owing to such factors as poor quality of land and shortage of ground water supplies.

POPULATION TRENDS AND CHANGES³⁸

For most parts of greater Unyamwezi, reasonably accurate census information is not available for years before 1948. A rough estimate of the 1906-7 population of most of the region and some neighbouring north-eastern areas is recorded by Meyer.³⁹ He gives figures of 1,000,000 for the German Tabora Division (approximately the modern Tabora, Kahama, Nzega and Shinyanga Districts), and 500,000 for the Mwanza Division (roughly the modern Geita, Kwimba, Maswa, Mwanza, Musoma and North Mara Districts). An official census was taken in 1931, but its general accuracy has been questioned. The returns for Tabora District were declared to be quite unreliable at the time of the census, and an approximation was substituted.⁴⁰ Rough estimates of the population of the various Administrative Districts of the region were published in 1945.⁴¹ These estimates differ markedly in many cases from the figures collected in the official census of 1948.

The figures before 1948 appear to indicate that the population of Tabora, Kahama and Nzega Districts had drastically declined between 1906 and 1945. The figures for 1931 are roughly 50% lower than those for 1906-7, and the 1945 figures show a further drop of over 25%.

	1931	1945
Tabora District (including modern Mpanda District)	211,434*	120,000
Kahama and Nzega Districts	192,316	170,000
Total	<u>403,750</u>	<u>290,000</u>

* Approximated figure only.

There is some evidence that the population of parts of Usumbwa was decreasing between 1908 and 1913, and it is known that the First World War, and particularly the Tabora Campaign, caused considerable disruption in the Nyamwezi area.⁴² Influenza epidemics hit the area between 1917 and 1920, and sleeping sickness caused some thousands of deaths in Kahama and Tabora Districts in the late nineteen-twenties.⁴³ Modern figures seem to show that the Nyamwezi proper have increased rather less than the other main tribes of the region during recent years. Thus it is possible that some decline in population was experienced in Unyamwezi proper and Usumbwa during the period under discussion, though it was probably much less serious and regular than available figures suggest. In attempting an assessment of the situation, however, it is difficult to estimate how much the figures are affected by such factors as local movement, temporary absences due to labour migration and war service, the possible

³⁷ Cf. Hailey (1950, 243-5, 256, 268); *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 92, 111, 116, 240, 268, 272). Cf. also Malcolm (1953, 13) and Steudel (1928).

³⁸ The main sources for this section are the official censuses of Tanganyika for 1931, 1948 and 1957.

³⁹ Meyer (1909, vol. I, 80-1).

⁴⁰ 1931 Census Report (1932, 4).

⁴¹ *Agriculture in Tanganyika* (1945, 20, 24-5).

⁴² Cf. Van der Burgt (1913-14) and also Bösch (1930a, 540) on Usumbwa. Own information on Unyamwezi proper but cf. also the account of the Tabora Campaign in Hordern (1941).

⁴³ Cf. Introduction to 1931 census (1932; 4) and *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 91).

recording of some portions of the population under differing tribal names in different years, and sheer inaccuracy in enumeration.

In contrast, the overall population of Usukuma appears to have risen during the same period.

	1931	1945
Shinyanga District	144,536	186,000
Kwimba District	200,062	200,000
Maswa District	230,126	199,000
Mwanza District (inc. Geita District)	254,448	320,000
Total	<u>829,172</u>	<u>905,000</u>

Although these figures should be treated with some caution, the general trend they show is probably correct. Malcolm's figures for 1934, 1944 and 1947 also reveal an overall increase, although they differ considerably in some details from the figures quoted here.⁴⁴ More recent figures indicate a somewhat higher rate of population growth in the area.

Detailed figures for the Kimbu and Konongo areas are not available before 1948. The population of both areas, however, is said to have declined sharply in the nineteenth century.⁴⁵

The following table gives the 1931, 1948 and 1957 census figures for the five main tribes of the region.

	1931	1948	1957	Increase 1948-57*
Kimbu	23,323	14,873	31,149	109.4%
Konongo	Unlisted	18,639	20,479	9.9%
Nyamwezi	349,484†	362,829	363,258	0.1%
Sukuma	598,220	888,800	1,093,767	23.1%
Sumbwa	53,806	63,954	76,435	19.5%

* The overall 1948-57 increase for the African population of Tanganyika as a whole was 16.9%.

† This figure apparently includes Konongo. There is no indication in the census whether the figure represents actual census returns or an approximation like the figure for overall population of Tabora District.

The report on the 1957 census warns against placing undue weight upon comparison of 1948 and 1957 tribal figures, and especially in the case of smaller tribes.⁴⁶ This applies *a fortiori* to comparison with the 1931 figures. Keeping this caveat in mind, the first thing to be noted from these figures is that, despite the estimates for 1945, both the Nyamwezi and the Sumbwa showed an increase between 1931 and 1948.

The figures for the Kimbu show remarkable fluctuations which are almost certainly largely due to changes of classification for census purposes. In 1931, for instance, the Kimbu were described as living mainly in Tabora District, whereas in the 1948 figures for that District they were not even listed as an individual tribe. In 1957, however, 9,697 of them were reported in the District and they formed the fourth largest tribal group there. As a result of the large "increase" in the numbers of the Kimbu since 1948, their tribal area in 1957 contained no less than seven chiefdoms, including Kiwere in the far south of Tabora District. This chiefdom fell within the Nyamwezi tribal area in 1948.

⁴⁴ Malcolm (1953, 9-10).

⁴⁵ Struck (1910, 105).

⁴⁶ Report on 1957 census (1963, 41-3).

The Sukuma tribal area also increased between 1948 and 1957, but real territorial expansion was undoubtedly involved here. The main Sukuma "gains" were in the Geita District, where they became the main tribe in two previously Zinza chiefdoms and in one previously Subi chiefdom. The total population of Geita District rose from 139,028 in 1948 to 268,846 in 1957, an increase of 93.4%. The number of Sukuma in the District rose almost 200% from about 41,000 in 1948 to 120,506 in 1957. In Kahama District, the number of Sukuma also rose from 4,902 in 1948 to 13,380 in 1957. Almost all of this increase was absorbed by the Nyamwezi chiefdoms bordering on Geita and Shinyanga Districts, although none of them became "Sukuma" chiefdoms. In 1948, Tinde chiefdom in south-west Shinyanga District was part of the Nyamwezi tribal area, but the Sukuma were the main tribe there in 1957.

The Sumbwa tribal area gained at least three chiefdoms in the 1957 census, and lost one in Geita District to the Rongo. Two of the new Sumbwa chiefdoms had been in the far west of the Nyamwezi area in 1948. In the third chiefdom, in Biharamulo District, the Ha had formerly been the main tribe. It is hard to say how much these changes in the Sumbwa tribal area were due to a re-classification of the population in the chiefdoms concerned.

In 1957, the Nyamwezi tribal area was a little smaller than it was in 1948. Losses to Ukimbu, Usukuma and Usumbwa, which have been discussed, were partly balanced by the inclusion in the area of two small chiefdoms in Mpanda District. One of these was not listed in the census of 1948, but the other, Uluwira, had been a Konongo chiefdom in that year. Once again, it is not clear whether any real population changes had occurred in these two chiefdoms. With the exception of Uluwira, the extent of the Konongo area appears to have been the same in 1948 and 1957.

URBAN AND INDUSTRIAL CENTRES⁴⁷

The region contains a number of gazetted towns and smaller urban settlements, the largest being Mwanza and Tabora. All of them are commercial centres, and many of them are Administrative District headquarters. In addition, Mwanza and Tabora are Provincial headquarters. The population of the towns is mainly African, but important numbers of Europeans and Asians were also to be found in 1957. Even in the smaller towns, the African population tends to be more mixed than that of rural areas, and the social organization of the towns is in general rather different from that of the country districts. Swahili is regularly used in urban centres, and a considerable proportion of the population claim to be Muslims. There are also a comparatively large number of independent women house-owners there. Men commonly outnumber women, and they also tend to come from greater distances. Although there is a considerable body of permanent residents in the towns, many people only live there temporarily.⁴⁸ In 1957, the populations of Mwanza and Tabora was as follows.

<i>Mwanza Town</i>	
Europeans	366
Indians and Pakistanis	3,886
Arabs	231
Other non-Africans	153
Africans*	15,241
Total	19,877

* Includes Sukuma 4,396, Nyamwezi 1,570, Luo 900 and also Haya, Kerewe, Manyema, Ha Jita, Zinza, Ganda, Zaramo, Ngoni, Fipa, Bemba, Ruanda, Nyakyusa and many others. The African population contained 9,138 males and 6,103 females.

⁴⁷ Figures in this section are taken from the 1957 census.

⁴⁸ Cf. Abrahams (1961).

Tabora Town

European	340
Indian and Pakistani	2,333
Arab	307
Other non-Africans	376
Africans*	12,005

Total 15,361

* Includes Nyamwezi, 3,660, Manyema 2,016, Sukuma 526, and also Zaramo, Bemba, Tusi, Nyasa, Ngoni, Fipa, Yao, Sumbwa, Ganda, Ha, Nyakyusa, Bondei, Hehe and many others. The African population contained 6,329 males and 5,676 females.

There are also a few industrial centres in the region, the most important of these being the Williamson Diamond mine at Mwadui in Shinyanga District and the Geita gold mine. Here again one finds a rather mixed African population, but with a heavier preponderance of men than in the towns. There are no details of the non-African population of these centres. The following shows the 1957 African populations at the Williamson Diamond mine and at the Geita gold mine.

Williamson Diamond Mine

Sukuma	1,060
Iramba	368
Nyamwezi	281
Luo	272
Ha	258
Nguruimi	178
Shashi	140
Kuria	135
All others	941

Total 3,633 (made up of 2,885 males and 748 females)

Geita Gold Mine

Turu	654
Sibi	196
Sumbwa	190
Luo	153
Kuria	121
Ha	119
All others	548

Total 1,981 (made up of 1,564 males and 417 females)

NON-AFRICAN POPULATION

The following table shows the numbers of non-Africans recorded in the various Administrative Districts of the region in the 1957 census.

<i>District</i>	<i>Euro- pean</i>	<i>Indian</i>	<i>Pakis- tani</i>	<i>Goan</i>	<i>Arab</i>	<i>Somali</i>	<i>Coloured</i>	<i>Other</i>	<i>Total</i>
Geita	252	584	34	1	323	102	40	15	1,351
Kwimba	94	571	19	—	90	10	9	1	794
Maswa	36	362	8	—	373	1	39	—	819
Mwanza									
Rural	171	426	42	5	454	1	17	4	1,120
Shinyanga	631	681	32	44	1,385	89	45	2	2,910
Kahama	58	335	22	—	316	6	101	1	839
Nzega	115	361	8	14	953	11	77	5	1,544

<i>District</i>	<i>Euro- pean</i>	<i>Indian</i>	<i>Pakis- tani</i>	<i>Goan</i>	<i>Arab</i>	<i>Somali</i>	<i>Coloured</i>	<i>Other</i>	<i>Total</i>
Tabora	594	2,287	240	118	847	128	263	46	4,523
Mpanda	205	112	10	1	160	15	34	—	537
Chunya	79	107	8	—	21	7	21	2	245
Manyoni	35	133	12	2	222	12	6	3	425

The large majority of Europeans in the region are employed as Government officers, missionaries, or specialists at industrial centres, while most Asians are in business. Many of the Somali are cattle-traders. The non-African population tends to be mainly concentrated in the various urban centres of the region, though this is less true of the Arabs, many of whom have shops in rural areas.⁴⁹ The following table gives a rough picture of the degree of urbanization of the non-African population. Taken from the 1957 census, it shows the percentages of the different groups living in gazetted townships in the Western and Lake Province. The percentage figures for most of the non-African groups would be considerably higher if smaller urban centres were included.

<i>Admin. Region</i>	<i>Euro- pean</i>	<i>Indian</i>	<i>Pakis- tani</i>	<i>Goan</i>	<i>Arab</i>	<i>Somali</i>	<i>Coloured</i>	<i>Others</i>	<i>Total non- can African</i>	<i>Afri- can</i>
Lake	24.9	65.4	76.7	73.6	9.4	45.9	27.4	29.9	45.8	1.2
Western	32.9	77.6	68.6	82.6	17.3	71.9	23.0	83.6	48.9	2.7

PHYSICAL TYPE⁵⁰

With the main exception of some of the Tusi and Taturu pastoralists of the area, who tend to have distinctive features associated with Erythriote (Eastern Hamitic) stock, most of the African population of the region falls within the Zingian group of African peoples, being generally of medium stature and of somewhat lighter complexion than such groups as Sudanians (e.g. Wolof, Hausa) and Nilotes (e.g. Nuer, Dinka).

HISTORY⁵¹

It is impossible to state how long the greater Unyamwezi peoples have inhabited their present country. In a rather confused passage, Burton tells us that the name of Unyamwezi was first heard by the Portuguese in about 1589, but an examination of this passage reveals that the name they heard was Monemugi.⁵² The connection of this name with the word Nyamwezi is obscure. In maps and writings dating from the middle of the seventeenth century onwards, the name Nimeamaie is commonly found in conjunction with that of Monemugi, but once again the connection with the present Unyamwezi is by no means clear.⁵³ It is in fact only in the first half of the nineteenth century that clearly recognizable forms of the name Nyamwezi are to be found in the literature.⁵⁴

It would appear from traditions of the people themselves that most parts of greater Unyamwezi were uninhabited about three hundred years ago, and that the ancestors of many of the present ruling families began to move into the area about that time. According to these stories, most tribal areas within the region have always been divided among a number of distinct ruling dynasties, each claiming separate origins and entry into the country.⁵⁵ Thus one Nyamwezi dynasty claims to have

⁴⁹ Own information. Cf. *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 301-2) and Tanganyika Report (1958, 8).

⁵⁰ The information on this topic is taken from Trevor (1959).

⁵¹ For a general picture of the history of the region cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II especially), Cory (1954, passim), Oliver and Mathew (1963, Chs. VI, VIII, XII), Shorter (1966).

⁵² Burton (1860, vol. II, 2).

⁵³ Cf. Langenmaier (1918, sub "Munamugi").

⁵⁴ E.g. in Macqueen (1845) and Pickering (1849), 194-7).

⁵⁵ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Cory (1954, 2-3), Shorter (1966). Burton (1860, vol. II, 4) writes of the previous existence of a united Nyamwezi empire, but was probably mistaking the territory of a single dynasty for the whole country.

come from Uganda, another from Kenya, a third from the Sagara area of eastern Tanganyika, and a fourth from the region of Lake Tanganyika to the west. In addition, some Nyamwezi dynasties claim to be of Kimbu origin, and another talks of Nilo-hamitic Taturu ancestors.

Bösch writes of a Tusi origin for many dynasties of Unyamwezi proper, but I found no evidence to support this in the field.⁵⁶ It is, however, commonly believed that most parts of Usumbwa were at one time under the control of Karagwe.⁵⁷ A number of writers on Usukuma also assign Tusi or Huma origins to the ruling families of the area. Thus Malcolm writes of an early period of small settlements of Nyamwezi hunters, followed by the entry of "Hamitic" Huma pastoralists who were accepted as impartial arbitrators and chiefs.⁵⁸ The identification of Tusi and Huma as "Hamites" is, however, problematical, and the view that they provided ruling dynasties in the area has recently been questioned.⁵⁹

At least in Unyamwezi proper, and in parts of Usukuma and Usumbwa, the founders of the present ruling dynasties are said by their descendants to have come into the area as hunters.⁶⁰ Mostly they appear to have found the country uninhabited, but occasionally they are said to have taken the territory of similar immigrant groups already settled there. In such cases, the newcomers sometimes allowed the dispossessed to retain a portion of their former territory. In the case of most dynasties, a division of their territory is said to have taken place after an initial period of settlement and expansion.⁶¹ In addition, members of a dynasty are sometimes said to have moved away to found new chiefdoms. These often, but not always, bordered on the area originally settled by the dynasty. Succession to the chiefship is said to have been matrilineal in some dynasties and patrilineal in others.⁶² In both systems, sons of chiefs, and also founders of new settlements, appear to have been recognized as subordinate authorities within the chiefdoms.⁶³

Although some of the peoples of the region may have made some trading expeditions to the coast and other areas, such as those to the south of Lake Tanganyika, before the first half of the nineteenth century, the frequency and scale of such expeditions seems to have increased considerably about this time.⁶⁴ During this period also, Indian and Arab traders first reached greater Unyamwezi from the coast.⁶⁵ Tabora was established as an Arab settlement, probably in the eighteenth-forties, and Arab traders also pushed on to Ujiji and the Congo in the west, and to Uganda in the north.⁶⁶ Speke and Burton were the first Europeans to reach the area, arriving at Tabora in 1857.⁶⁷ In 1858, Speke visited Lake Victoria, and three years later passed once more through greater Unyamwezi on his celebrated journey to Uganda.⁶⁸ During the next thirty years foreign traders and others, including explorers and missionaries, frequently visited the region, and local traders continued to make regular journeys to the coast and elsewhere. The main goods exported from the region were ivory and slaves, and the goods imported included cloth and, later, guns.⁶⁹

⁵⁶ Bösch (1930a, 7).

⁵⁷ Own information. Cf. also Bösch (1930a, 7). A similar statement is made in an anonymous ms. on the Sumbwa in the library of the East African Institute of Social Research, Makerere.

⁵⁸ Malcolm (1953, 21-2). Cf. also Cory (1954, 2) and Liebenow (1960, 234-5, 259).

⁵⁹ Oliver (1963, 194-5).

⁶⁰ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II).

⁶¹ Abrahams (1966, 128; 1967, Ch. II), Liebenow (1960, 233-4), Shorter (1966).

⁶² Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Cory (1954, 4), Shorter (1966).

⁶³ Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Bösch (1930a, 504), Malcolm (1953, 22, 30).

⁶⁴ For the data leading me to this conclusion cf. Baumann (1894, 234), Gray (1957, 245-6 and *passim*), Krapf (1860, 420-1), Smith (1963, 265), Speke (1864, 268, 350-1), and the text to footnote 54.

⁶⁵ Cf. Burton (1860, vol. II, 224), Smith (1959, 7).

⁶⁶ Cf. Baumann (1894, 234), Burton (1860, vol. I, 327; vol. II, 57), Speke (1864, 259).

⁶⁷ Cf. Burton (1860), *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 42), Speke (1864).

⁶⁸ Cf. Speke (1863 and 1864).

⁶⁹ Cf. Cameron (1877, vol. I, Chs. IX and X especially), Dawson (1887, 218-82), Decle (1898, 315-55), Herrmann (1893), Stanley (1872, 213-360; 1878, vol. I, 133-55), Whiteley (1959 *passim*).

All this considerably influenced the political and economic organization of greater Unyamwezi, and particularly the south and central areas of the region. Ukimbu and Ukonongo were much disrupted by slave-raiding, and in these and other areas the nature of the chiefship was apparently affected.⁷⁰ Prior to the nineteenth century, chiefship seems to have been a largely ritual office. Its secular aspects now began to develop strongly, however, and chiefs took a very active interest in the organization of trade. They and their subordinate authorities also gained considerable wealth through the collection of tolls, *mahongo*, from passing caravans. Apparently connected with these developments was a change from matrilineal to patrilineal succession to the chiefship in some chiefdoms.⁷¹ In addition, the Arabs started to play an important role in local politics around Tabora, and for a period they virtually controlled the chiefship of the large chiefdom of Unyanyembe.⁷² They also engaged in a struggle for power against the famous Nyamwezi chief, Mirambo, who was described by Stanley as the Napoleon of Central Africa.

Mirambo was by far the most outstanding of the new-style chiefs of the region.⁷³ His political career began when, probably in the early eighteen-sixties, he succeeded his father as chief of the chiefdom of Uyowa in the west of present-day Tabora District. Early in his rise to power he gained control over the neighbouring chiefdoms of Uyan-kulu and Busagari, and these with Uyowa formed the territorial base for his activities. Many neighbouring chiefs joined him as allies and some of them owed their chiefship to his support. Chiefdoms which refused to join him were regularly raided and pillaged by his followers.

Mirambo's career is only understandable in terms of his opposition to the Arabs. He became involved in war against them in 1871, and although peace terms were agreed upon some four years later, his relations with them remained tense. His alliances and his attacks on other chiefdoms were partly a direct product of this war, since he needed men, guns, gunpowder and food. But his interests appear to have been wider than the mere conquest of the Arabs of Tabora. He began to envisage the possibility of a great expansion of trade in the region, and he was keen that he and not the Arabs should control this trade. Hence, the extension of his influence must also be seen as an attempt to command trade routes which converged upon Tabora.

Mirambo died in 1884 of natural causes.⁷⁴ In the twenty years before his death he established a sphere of influence which extended well into Usukuma. It should be noted, however, that he was more the acknowledged leader of a loose confederacy of chiefdoms than the ruler of a centralized Nyamwezi empire. After his death, this confederacy did not survive, and when the Germans took over the area, it once more consisted of a number of small chiefdoms acting independently of one another.

The colony of German East Africa, consisting of Tanganyika and Ruanda-Urundi, was formally established by the Anglo-German Agreement of 1890.⁷⁵ In greater Unyamwezi, as elsewhere, the first problem was to pacify the country. This was achieved by 1893, the only serious opposition being met in Unyanyembe where the chief, Isike, fought an eight months' war against them.

Contrary to their general policy in East Africa, the Germans adopted a form of indirect rule in the region. Many indigenous chiefs were recognized, the formal mark of recognition being the distribution of account books to them. In a number of cases, however, such books were also given to people, including more important headmen in some chiefdoms, who had not been independent rulers in the indigenous system.

⁷⁰ Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Struck (1910, 105).

⁷¹ Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II).

⁷² Cf. Speke (1863, 77-112), also Coupland (1939, 67-8 and *passim*).

⁷³ There are accounts of Mirambo in Broyon-Mirambo (1878), Cameron (1877, vol. I, 491-3 and *passim*), Stanley (1872, 267-70; 1878, Vol. I, 491-3 and *passim*), Whiteley (1959, 125-43) and other sources noted by Bennett (1963). For more recent discussions, see Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Bennett (1963), Coupland (1939, 256-61, 263-5 and *passim*), Harvey (1950), Smith (1959, 16-9).

⁷⁴ For a discussion of this much debated point, see Bennett (1963, 29).

⁷⁵ For discussions of the German period, cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. II), Eberlie (1960), *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, Ch. III).

Such actions considerably increased the number of chiefdoms in the region. In addition, patrilineal succession to the chiefship now became the rule in many chiefdoms of Unyamwezi proper in which matrilineal succession had formerly been followed.

Under the Germans, then, the chiefs became administrative agents of the Central Government, and their holding office was dependent upon Government support. This support was given if they carried out their duties of maintaining order and collecting taxes satisfactorily. If they failed to do so, they were liable to be dismissed.

The British officially took over the administration of the area in 1919, three years after the expulsion of the Germans from Tabora. Shortage of funds and manpower made it impossible to administer Tanganyika directly, and a series of ordinances, culminating in the Native Courts Ordinance of 1929, established "Indirect Rule" in the Territory.⁷⁶ This legislation gave greater Unyamwezi chiefdoms and their rulers a recognized administrative role. Chiefs and headmen, as in German times, were empowered to keep law and order and to collect taxes. Native Treasuries were established and the work of chiefs and headmen was paid for from the funds of these.

It was noted earlier that the number of greater Unyamwezi chiefdoms had increased considerably during German times. Further increases apparently took place during and immediately after the First World War.⁷⁷ The British, however, soon decided that a smaller number would be more convenient for administrative purposes, and by 1925 the total was reduced by something like one third. After 1925, further reductions were more or less counterbalanced by successful claims for the re-establishment of previously independent units. The internal organization of the chiefdoms was also considerably modified during this period. New offices, such as those of court-clerk and chief's deputy, were established, and, more recently, commoners were given a greater say in chiefdom affairs.

In addition, a number of wider groupings of chiefdoms were created under British rule.⁷⁸ The largest of these were the Nyamwezi Federal Council and the Sukumaland Federation. Smaller federations, mostly on a District level, were also set up. The various federations, and particularly the District ones, were given important legislative, judicial and fiscal powers, but they were all essentially groupings in which chiefs participated as equals. Most of the legislation passed by them was strongly influenced by Central Government, the bulk of it concerning the regulation of agriculture, animal husbandry, marketing, tree-cutting and hunting. The federations had their own staff to enforce such regulations, and these worked throughout the period in close collaboration with the staff of the appropriate Central Government Departments. Towards the end of the period of British rule, commoners were elected to serve with the chiefs on the various federation councils and committees.

In addition to modifications in chiefdom organization, the British were also responsible for other changes and developments in the region. Among the most important of these was the movement of considerable numbers of the population away from sleeping-sickness areas.⁷⁹ Many of these areas were later made into forest reserves. Markets for agricultural produce and livestock were also established in many parts of the region, and various cash-crops, such as cotton, were developed. Cattle-dipping schemes were introduced in certain areas to combat East-coast fever. The communications system of the region also developed considerably during this period. All-weather roads were constructed between many of the District Headquarters, and the railway connection between Mwanza and Tabora was built, the Germans having already completed the line between Tabora and the coast.⁸⁰

The movement for Tanganyika's Independence gathered force in the region about

⁷⁶ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. III), *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 100-2).

⁷⁷ Rodger (1954, 9).

⁷⁸ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. III), Hailey (1950, 225-6, 230-3, 246-9, 260, 271), Liebenow (1960, 240), Malcolm (1953, 146-9).

⁷⁹ Cf. *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 111, 116, 240, 272).

⁸⁰ On the history of the railway, cf. Gillman (1942).

1958, and in that year the first elected members were sent from the region to the Legislative Council. At first relations between the British Administration and those demanding Independence in the region were somewhat strained, and chiefs found themselves in a particularly difficult position as intermediaries between the people and the Central Government.⁸¹ The situation appeared to ease somewhat by 1960 when it had become clear to all parties that Independence would soon be achieved. The position of the chiefs remained precarious, however, since a number of them were resentfully regarded as colonial lackeys by their subjects.

Tanganyika became independent in 1961 and in 1964 it joined with Zanzibar to form the United Republic of Tanzania. In 1962 and 1963 legislation was passed abolishing most features of the chieftdom system and apparently establishing a framework of elected local councils and nominated executive officers to carry out the former administrative functions of the chiefs and their subordinate rulers.⁸² Details are not available upon the exact form of these new institutions in the greater Unyamwezi area.

LANGUAGE AND LITERATURE

Various detailed studies and a number of classifications of the languages of greater Unyamwezi have been published.⁸³ The main tribes of the region are all Bantu-speaking peoples, and their languages appear to form a fairly distinct cluster in this wider grouping. Bryan classifies Sukuma, Nyamwezi and Kimbu as distinct languages within this cluster, but she remarks that Nyamwezi and Sukuma might be classified as dialects of a single language if they were not considered separate by their speakers. She includes Mweri (Sumbwa) and Konongo, along with Takama and Nyanyembe, as dialects of Nyamwezi, and she recognizes a Kiya (eastern) dialect of Sukuma. Takama, sometimes also known as Galaganza, is spoken in south-west and west Tabora District, and Nyanyembe is spoken in the regions round Tabora District.⁸⁴ Unlike Bryan, Guthrie distinguishes between Mweri, as a western dialect of Nyamwezi, and Sumbwa, which he lists as a separate language in the cluster.⁸⁵ In my own experience, Sumbwa differs considerably from Nyamwezi, and appears to have fairly close links with "Interlacustrine" languages like Ha and Zinza. It should be pointed out, however, that the different languages and dialects tend to merge into one another on the borders of the different areas. A number of writers have also referred to a Nyamwezi dialect called Irwana, which is said to be spoken in the north and central regions of Unyamwezi proper.⁸⁶ The name appears to be little used these days. Many of my informants had no knowledge of it, and others said it was a term of joking disrespect used to indicate that a dialect was different from one's own and difficult to understand.⁸⁷

Guthrie includes the languages of the region within his Zone F.⁸⁸ Among the major characteristics of most of the languages of this zone, and of all the greater Unyamwezi languages, are a seven-vowel system, the lexical and grammatical use of tone, the existence of true negative tenses, the use of class prefixes to indicate size, and the use of double prefixes only in determined situations.

Differences of language pose few problems for communication in the region. Different dialects and languages are in many cases mutually intelligible, and the people seem to experience little difficulty in learning to speak another Bantu language tolerably well. In the nineteenth century, a mixed dialect of Nyamwezi is said to have developed among the military regiments of such chieftdoms as Urambo. Like the regiments themselves, the dialect was known as *Rugaruga*.⁸⁹ In addition to a dialect of their

⁸¹ Cf. Abrahams (1965, 184-5), (1967a, Chs. VII and VIII), Liebenow (1960, 255).

⁸² Cf. Cole and Denison (1964, 85) and Warrell-Browning (1963).

⁸³ Cf. items marked with * in Bibliography.

⁸⁴ Bryan (1959, 119).

⁸⁵ Guthrie (1948, 46).

⁸⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 17; 1930b), Struck (1910, 104).

⁸⁷ Cf. Section on Nomenclature.

⁸⁸ Guthrie (1948, 46-7).

⁸⁹ Cf. Spellig (1927b, 202), Struck (1910, 107).

local language, most men and some women in the region can speak good or reasonable Swahili. This is the language of the coast and of the Central Government, and it is also spoken regularly in the towns. Nyamwezi and Swahili are used more or less interchangeably in the country areas around Tabora, but the local language is predominant in other rural areas and Swahili is rarely used there except for communication with Asian traders and the representatives of Central Government. Only a small and relatively highly educated portion of the population can speak English.

Literature in local languages has largely been confined to translations of the Bible. Blohm and Augustiny have also published a variety of Nyamwezi and Sukuma texts.⁹⁰ In the nineteen-fifties, there was a flourishing Sukuma newspaper called *Lumuli*, i.e. "Light", but newspapers published in Unyamwezi proper were almost wholly written in Swahili.

Detailed figures for literacy in the region have not been published. In a village survey conducted in Tabora District in 1958-59, I found that, in a total sample of 118 men, women and children over 6 years of age, 16% of men over 16 and 6% of women of that age-group claimed to have had some form of schooling, almost wholly at the primary level (Standards I-IV). This compared with figures of 22.8% and 7.5% for Tanganyika as a whole, and 12.2% and 2% for Western Province as a whole, according to the 1957 census. The number of women claiming to be literate was identical to that of those who claimed to have had schooling, but the number of men was considerably higher, namely 44%. This figure is suspiciously high, but it is clear from questioning in this and other areas that at least some men have learned to read and write as adults, while on the coast or in the course of military service. The figures for children of the 6-15 age group undergoing primary education were 54% for boys and 18% for girls. One child only, not included in the figures, was recorded as away at Middle School (Standards V-VIII). The figures for primary education are much larger than those for the Western Province as a whole, namely 16.3% and 7.7% for boys and girls respectively according to the 1957 census. The difference is probably due largely to the existence of a school in the village itself. In a village in Kahama District which had no school hard by, the proportion of children receiving schooling was almost negligible at this time. It may be mentioned here that one young man from the Tabora District village under discussion was away at University. This was rather atypical, since the number of children going on to secondary (Standards IX-XII) and higher education from the area was very small.

PHYSICAL ENVIRONMENT⁹¹

CLIMATE, SOIL AND VEGETATION

Greater Unyamwezi is a large and undulating tableland, most of which lies at an altitude of between 3,800 and 4,200 feet above sea level. There are, however, some rocky hills and ridges which in a few cases rise as much as 1,000 feet above the general level of the country. Lower but occasionally spectacular outcrops of bare granite rocks are fairly common, and the greater part of the country is in fact underlain with granite. There are a number of rivers in the region, but they do not flow during the drier months. The most important of them are the Igombe in western Tabora District, the Ugalla and the Rungwa in the south-west, the Manonga and the Isanga in northern Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma, the Wembere on the eastern borders of Nzega District, and the Moyowosi on the western borders of Kahama and Tabora Districts.

In all parts of the country, the year falls into two broad divisions, a rainy season and a dry season. In most areas the main precipitation is experienced from November until April. Very little rain falls in the dry season and in many parts there is no rain at all during the height of the season in July and August. In some years a short drought also occurs in late January and early February and this may seriously affect part of the crops. In the lake-shore area of northern Usukuma, near Mwanza, the

⁹⁰ Cf. Anon (1901), Augustiny (1924), Blohm (1933b), Huggins (1936).

⁹¹ Blohm (1931, 1-41) gives the fullest account of this subject. Malcolm (1953, Ch. I and *passim*) gives good information on Usukuma. Cf. also *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958) sub relevant tribes and Administrative Districts.

distinction between rainy and dry seasons is not quite as clearly marked as it is elsewhere in the region. Thus, according to Blohm's data, roughly 25% of Mwanza's total rainfall is experienced from May to October, figures for individual months being May 7%, June 3%, July 0.5%, August 2.5%, September 4% and October 7.5%. His figures for Tabora show that only slightly under 4% of total annual rainfall is experienced during these months, with no rain in July and August and with hardly any in June and September.⁹²

The average annual rainfall for most of Usukuma is about 30 inches, while the corresponding figure for the rest of greater Unyamwezi is roughly 35 inches. Some more detailed figures are contained in the following table.⁹³

<i>District H.Q.</i>	<i>Average</i>	<i>1950</i>	<i>1951</i>	<i>1952</i>	<i>1953</i>	<i>1954</i>	<i>1955</i>	<i>1956</i>
Maswa (Usukuma)	30.8 (29 yrs.)	30.3	46.0	34.7	26.5	27.1	21.5	30.8
Mwanza ,,	39.2 (31 yrs.)	36.8	58.5	37.0	34.1	38.0	34.3	37.7
Shinyanga ,,	30.9 (26 yrs.)	30.8	48.9	38.2	24.9	21.1	24.4	38.6
Kahama (Unyam. Pr.)	40.6 (34 yrs.)	55.9	58.8	50.4	62.9	42.2	50.8	no record
Nzega ,,	31.3 (32 yrs.)	32.8	43.2	25.3	32.7	26.1	26.6	32.5
Tabora ,,	34.4 (48 yrs.)	34.2	51.1	29.8	29.3	28.6	29.0	31.7
Mpanda (Ukonongo)	37.1 (19 yrs.)	28.1	57.4	38.0	31.6	28.5	37.2	37.0

These figures show considerable variation from place to place and year to year. Much local variation is also found within a single area, so that even in one chiefdom some parts may get good rains while others suffer from comparative drought. In addition, it should be observed that even when the total rainfall is high in an area, it may be poorly distributed over the rainy months and this may be disastrous for cultivation. All in all, the relative unpredictability of rainfall tends to make agriculture a somewhat precarious occupation in the region and famines have been fairly frequent in the past.⁹⁴

In most parts of the country, a regular sequence of vegetation zones, with more or less corresponding differences in elevation and soil type, is found. Some zones, are, however, more extensive and more frequently encountered in particular areas. In general, the lowest levels of terrain consist of open grass steppe which is locally known as *mbuga*. In some parts of the region, however, and particularly in the far west of the country, the lowest lying ground contains papyrus swamp. After the open grass steppe, thorn-bush acacia steppe is found. This type of land merges in places into acacia forest and is also often called *mbuga*. Thorn-bush steppe and forest is followed by park steppe, which consists of grassland interspersed with clusters of trees and various shrubs. Among the trees found in this zone are baobabs, euphorbias, figs and tamarinds. The baobab is a particularly common feature of this zone in parts of Usukuma, though it is also found elsewhere. Lastly, on the upper levels of the tableland, there is dry woodland and forest, typified by trees of the *Brachystegia-Isobertlinia* association. Such woodland and forest is often referred to in the literature as *miombo* country, from the native name for some of its characteristic trees.

Much of the soil in the *miombo* forest areas does not yield groundwater, and this type of country is in this and certain other respects rather unfavourable for settlement and cultivation. The soil is somewhat poor in quality and insect pests, including tsetse, exist in abundance. Hence dry forest tracts, particularly when extensive and

⁹² Blohm (1931, 16).

⁹³ *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 184, 267).

⁹⁴ Cf. Cory (1951, 53-4, 61-2), Malcolm (1953, 12, 108), Speke (1863, 91).

unmixed with other types of country, are often largely uninhabited. Nonetheless, marginal areas of this zone are commonly exploited.⁹⁵

Although the various *mbuga* areas are different in their soil types from *miombo* country, they too are mostly lacking in groundwater at the height of the dry season. Partly for this reason, and partly owing to the dangers of flooding during the rains, these areas are also largely uninhabited, though parts of them are used for pasture. Marginal grass steppe *mbuga* areas, however, near which a permanent water supply exists, are highly profitable for cultivation and are being increasingly exploited for this purpose in Usukuma.⁹⁶

In general, the most attractive conditions for settlement and agriculture are found in the park steppe areas, and these are relatively thickly populated. The park steppe soils are sandier than those of the forest zone and they are better suited to the maintenance of groundwater supplies.

Much of the Kimbu and Konongo areas consist of uninhabited *miombo* woodland. There are also very large tracts of this type of country in Tabora District, in Usumbwa and in south Kahama District, and again in south and west Nzega District.⁹⁷ On the other hand, *miombo* woodland is comparatively rare in Usukuma and adjoining areas of Unyamwezi proper. *Mbuga* and park steppe predominate in most parts of this northern region.⁹⁸

Too static a picture of the vegetation zones within the region should, however, be avoided, since settlement may more or less efface the original formation character of an area. In the more densely populated districts of the region, e.g. in parts of Usukuma, tracts of almost treeless country may be found where the original woodland has been cleared.⁹⁹ Again, in areas where settlement has been abandoned, perhaps owing to exhaustion of the soil, secondary bush springs up, and this in turn may be cleared at a later time. In addition, it may be mentioned here that during the rainy season the region as a whole has a very different appearance from that which it presents during the drier months. The rivers, for example, in the course of the dry season, either simply disappear or remain only as series of disconnected stretches of water. During the rainy season, however, many of them carry considerable masses of water and flood the lower-lying land which borders on them. Certain areas, such as the Wembere steppe on the eastern borders of Unyamwezi proper, become impassable during this period.

WILDLIFE¹⁰⁰

Wildlife is important to the peoples of the region as a source of profit, mainly in the form of meat and formerly of ivory, and also as a source of danger to themselves, their livestock and their crops.

It appears that game and other animals were abundant in many districts of the region in the last century. This is less true today. In some cases the game has been indigenously hunted out or driven out, particularly in the more densely populated regions.¹⁰¹ In other cases, it has been systematically shot out by Government staff in experiments aimed at the eradication of tsetse, e.g. in parts of northern Kahama District.¹⁰² Even today, however, some of the more remote plains and forest areas are still well stocked with game animals. Elephant, lion, and occasionally leopard are found, and these may sometimes trouble settled areas. Hippopotamus are also found near rivers. A large variety of hoofed game exists, including buffalo, bushbuck, dik-dik, duiker, gazelle, gnu, hartebeeste, kudu, roan and sable antelope, topi and

⁹⁵ Cf. sources cited in footnote 91 and also Rounce (1949a) for discussion of different zones and their soils.

⁹⁶ Own information. Cf. also Malcolm (1953, 47, 183-6).

⁹⁷ Own information. Cf. also *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 240, 267, 272).

⁹⁸ Cf. Malcolm (1953, Ch. I).

⁹⁹ Malcolm (1953, 6).

¹⁰⁰ For general accounts see Blohm (1931, 41-64) and *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 410-52, 458-9, 462-4, 469-89).

¹⁰¹ Especially in parts of Usukuma. Cf. Malcolm (1953, 2, 12).

¹⁰² Cf. Rodger (1954, 49).

zebra. Of these, dik-dik and duiker are those most commonly found in settled areas. Baboon and wild pig are the most frequent animal pests attacking crops. Wild cats, wild dogs, hyenas and jackals sometimes attack domestic stock.

Game birds of many sorts, including bustard, wild duck, francolin, guinea fowl and ostrich, are found. Flocks of smaller birds often cause considerable damage in the fields. Kites and hawks sometimes attack domestic fowl.

Numerous varieties of snakes exist in the region and many of them are poisonous.¹⁰³ They include mambas, cobras, puff-adders and pythons. Insects and analogous pests are very common, the most notable of those attacking man and cattle being mosquitos, ticks and tsetse. Scorpions and poisonous spiders and centipedes are found. There are various insect pests which damage crops.¹⁰⁴

ECONOMY

AGRICULTURE

With the exception of some Tusi and other pastoral immigrants, and also a small number of Sukuma with large herds of cattle, the inhabitants of greater Unyamwezi are primarily farmers, whose most regular and continuous occupation is the cultivation of their fields during the rainy season. The normal implement of cultivation is the hand hoe, but the use of ox-ploughs is increasing in areas of suitable terrain.¹⁰⁵

A wide variety of crops are grown, though not all of them are popular or viable in all parts of the country. Sorghum, bulrush millet and maize are the most important subsistence cereals, while rice, mainly for sale, is cultivated in increasing quantities. Sweet potatoes and cassava are the major root crops, and groundnuts, beans of various sorts and chickpeas are the main legumes. Bananas are most common among the Sumbwa but they are also found occasionally in other parts of the region. Sugar cane, onions, pepper plants, tomatoes and various fruits are also sometimes found. Gourds are fairly common. Hemp is said to have been frequently planted in the past, but little seems to be grown today.¹⁰⁶ In addition, large quantities of cotton are produced in Usukuma and a considerable amount of tobacco is grown, mainly by tenant farmers on the estates of the Overseas Food Corporation at Urambo to the west of Tabora.¹⁰⁷ Some sunflower is also grown in many areas.

Cultivation methods vary largely in accordance with the crop and with the nature of the land involved. Rice and cotton are the most important crops grown as single stands. Otherwise, it is usual to interplant a number of crops of different characteristics, soil type being a major factor in the choice of mixture. For the most part, no fixed system of crop rotation is employed, nor is there a customary long-term cycle of cultivation with a period of bush-fallow. Grass-fallowing is, however, common, the period of fallow varying with population pressure on the land.¹⁰⁸

Fertilization of the soil by the use of manure is little practised. Difficulties of organization, and especially transport of manure from byre to field, seem to be a greater obstacle here than ignorance, since the people are in general well aware of the value of manure.¹⁰⁹ This has been amply demonstrated to them both by Government instruction and by their own experience of the cultivation of old cattle byres and comparable sites. Cultivation of low-lying, *mbuga*, areas is normally carried out in unridged fields, in contrast to the common use of ridged fields upon higher ground. The use of ridges, *mande* (sing. *lyande*), is traditional, but the tie-ridge is introduced

¹⁰³ Cf. Blohm (1931, 60), Bösch (1930a, 191-3).

¹⁰⁴ Cf. Blohm (1931, 61-4), Rodger (1954, 17-9).

¹⁰⁵ There are good accounts of agriculture in the region in Blohm (1931, 116-26), Malcolm (1953, *passim*), Reichard (1892, 371-86), Rodger (1954, 17-31), Rounce (1949a, *passim*). On large-scale Sukuma pastoralists see Malcolm (1953, 71). *Re* the use of ox-ploughs in the region, cf. Malcolm (1953, 72), Rodger (1954, 19).

¹⁰⁶ Cf. Blohm (1931, 136).

¹⁰⁷ Cf. Rodger (1954, 29-31), Rounce (1949a, 71-6).

¹⁰⁸ Own information. Cf. Malcolm (1953, 55-7).

¹⁰⁹ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 79-81, 130-1 and *passim*), Rodger (1954, 21-3), Rounce (1949a, 25-38).

and not much liked. Unlike other crops, rice is often cultivated in small flat plots of lower-lying ground with low soil walls around them to retain rainwater.¹¹⁰ Sometimes irrigation based on dams is also found. Bananas, tomatoes and onions are often planted around natural depressions which hold water.

Work on the fields begins with the first rains, though some men are reluctant to give up the pleasures of dry season life. For the laying out of a new ridged field, long strips of sod are pared off and stacked along the grooves they leave. These sods serve as bases for the ridges and as fertilizing matter for them. In old fields the ridges are re-used or are re-dug to fill the spaces which lay previously between them. Subsistence grain crops are planted on the top of the ridges with legumes such as beans and groundnuts on the slopes. Root crops are sometimes but not always planted in separate fields. Harvesting begins towards the end of the rains and is completed by July in Usukuma and by September in the south. Sorghum and bulrush millet are threshed, the former often with flails with racket-shaped heads, the latter with long sticks.¹¹¹

After the harvesting and threshing is completed, little attention is paid to agricultural work until the following rainy season. During this agricultural lull, people take the opportunity to travel for labour or to visit relatives and friends. Some food-gathering and hunting expeditions are also made. House-building and repairs are also carried out during this period, and dancing and beer-drinking are at their most intensive at this time.

COLLECTION OF WILD PRODUCE¹¹²

Women gather mushrooms, of which there are many varieties, in the bush near their village. They also gather the leaves of various wild plants. This work is mainly a rainy season activity, and the plants are often dried for later use. Termites and other insects are also collected. Termites are especially liked.

Particularly in the western areas of the region and also in Ukimbu and in Ukonongo, people embark on dry-season expeditions into the bush to collect honey and beeswax.¹¹³ Between twenty and thirty men may go on such a trip together. The expeditions which may last several days or even weeks often take the 'honey-hunters' into tsetse-infested country where a considerable number of them contract sleeping-sickness. The dangers of the work do not serve as a sufficient deterrent, however, since the profits from a successful expedition can be very high. Rodger reports that a man may obtain as many as 100 tins of honey in a good season and these alone may fetch as much as £200 in addition to the proceeds from the beeswax which is also collected on the trip.¹¹⁴ Some men also have a number of hives in the bush nearer home. The hives are cylindrical structures of bark and wood and are hung high in the trees.

Gum arabic is also sometimes collected in some *mbuga* areas, but it is by no means as profitable an occupation as honey and beeswax collection, and people are reluctant to embark upon it in good agricultural years.¹¹⁵

CATTLE¹¹⁶

Cattle in the area are typically of the short-horned, humped variety. The Tusi have, however, introduced some of their characteristic long-horned breed.

Cattle are very unevenly distributed throughout the region, tsetse fly and shortage of water being mainly responsible for this. The main areas of cattle owning are

¹¹⁰ Rodger (1954, 20-1), Rounce (1949a, 56-62).

¹¹¹ Cf. Abrahams (1965, 174-7), Blohm (1931, 125), Grant (1864, 86), Speke (1863, illustration facing p. 115).

¹¹² Cf. Blohm (1931, 93-6), Malcolm (1953, 53) and Rodger (1954, 25-8) for general accounts of this topic.

¹¹³ Cf. *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 240, 272), Rodger (1954, 25-7).

¹¹⁴ Rodger (1954, 26).

¹¹⁵ Malcolm (1953, 53), Rodger (1954, 27-8).

¹¹⁶ Malcolm (1953, 62-82 and *passim*) and Rodger (1954, 31-40) give the best general accounts of this topic.

Usukuma and the northern parts of Unyamwezi proper, especially north and north-east Nzega District. Parts of these areas are over-grazed and annual cattle culls have been introduced. Cory reports the number of cattle in Usukuma as 2,110,000 in the late 1950s and he estimates that the cattle population had doubled over the preceding 30 years. This fits well with Malcolm's figures for 1934 and later years.¹¹⁷ In Unyamwezi proper there were approximately 700,000 cattle in 1958, and slightly under 450,000 of these were in Nzega District.¹¹⁸ Here again the number has greatly increased over relatively recent years. Although exact figures are not available, it appears that cattle are most evenly distributed among the population of those areas where they are plentiful. In Usukuma over 50% of household heads apparently own cattle, and in the better stocked areas of Unyamwezi proper the proportion is roughly 50%.¹¹⁹ Elsewhere relatively few people own cattle. The transfer of cattle through bridewealth, sale, or exchange for foodstuffs influences their distribution over time, since many people have obtained or lost their cattle in this way.

It is extremely difficult to estimate how many cattle belong to a single owner. This is mainly due to the custom in many parts of the country of farming out cattle to Tusi or other herdsmen.¹²⁰ It appears, however, that most individual herds contain between ten and thirty head of cattle, although some Sukuma are reported to own over 1,000 head.¹²¹

Generally, the tending of cattle is the work of men and boys, though exceptions are found in parts of Usukuma.¹²² The cattle are usually sent out to graze during the day and are returned to the byre in the evening. Sometimes they are brought back for a time during the day. In some areas, a number of owners may co-operate in tending cattle. This may involve care of a common kraal or simply a sharing of herding duties, each household in turn providing a herdsman of the day for the common herd.¹²³

As noted above, cattle are used in bridewealth transactions and may be sold or exchanged. Traditionally they were also used in the payment of fines and other customary dues.¹²⁴ Nowadays a court of village neighbours may still exact a bull for a more serious offence.¹²⁵ Even in the last century, cattle were marketed, being brought down from Usukuma and northern Unyamwezi proper for sale in Tabora and even farther afield.¹²⁶ Nowadays a well-organized system of local markets exists, but some owners still prefer to drive their cattle to other areas where higher prices are obtainable than those offered at their local market. In recent years a developing butter industry has been established in the better stocked areas. There is also a considerable trade in hides. Cattle are sometimes slaughtered in important sacrifices to the ancestors, but they are rarely killed simply for their meat. Slaughter for meat is, however, said to be increasing in Usukuma.¹²⁷ Whatever the occasion, slaughter of bulls is very much preferred to that of cows. A cow is reckoned to be worth two bulls in bride-wealth and other customary payments.¹²⁸ Milk and ghee are commonly used for food, the former particularly for children.

Cattle are on the whole the most important heritable property in the region. In many areas the amount of cattle owned are taken into account for taxation purposes. Cattle may be usefully considered in this region as a profitable form of capital investment. It is often pointed out by the people that cattle, unlike cash, can reproduce

¹¹⁷ Cory (ms.), Malcolm (1953, 62-3).

¹¹⁸ Own information supplied by Veterinary Department officials.

¹¹⁹ Cory (ms.). Cory (1953a, 5) estimates the figure for that time at 50%. Cf. also Lang and Lang (1962, 87).

¹²⁰ Own information. Cf. Malcolm (1953, 72-3 133).

¹²¹ Malcolm (1953, 71).

¹²² Blohm (1931, 111).

¹²³ Own information. Cf. Malcolm (1953, 79).

¹²⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 358, 505-9), Malcolm (1953, Ch. IV and *passim*).

¹²⁵ Abrahams (1965, 179).

¹²⁶ Cf. Herrmann (1893, 82), Speke (1864, 268).

¹²⁷ Malcolm (1953, 81).

¹²⁸ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 358), Cory (1953a, 16).

themselves.¹²⁹ Veterinary officials estimate that a 15% increase is not uncommon in good years.¹³⁰ Reluctance to sell or slaughter is explicable in these terms rather than in terms of ritual attachment to a herd.

The main cattle diseases in the region are tripanosomiasis, East Coast fever, and rinderpest. Tsetse clearance, cattle dips, and the use of anti-rinderpest inoculation have, however, done much to combat these in recent years.

SMALL STOCK AND OTHER DOMESTICATED ANIMALS

Goats and sheep are on the whole more evenly distributed than cattle. They are often herded in and around the village by small boys and girls, but sometimes they are tended together with cattle. Their chief economic value lies in their meat and skins. Their milk is not favoured.¹³¹ They are also used in bridewealth transactions and in the payment of neighbourhood court fines. In traditional reckoning, five goats or five sheep are equivalent to a bull.¹³² Goats are often used as sacrificial victims in the ancestral cult, sheep only being used for special types of sacrifice.¹³³ In the late nineteen-fifties there were, according to Cory, about 1,850,000 sheep and goats in Usukuma.¹³⁴ In Unyamwezi proper, the figure was about 400,000.¹³⁵ Roughly equal numbers of both animals are found.

Chickens are kept almost universally. Domestic pigeons, ducks and guinea-fowl are occasionally found.¹³⁶ Chickens are very often used for divinatory purposes.¹³⁷

Dogs are used for hunting and for guarding homesteads. Cats are relatively rare. Donkeys are sometimes kept as pack animals, particularly in Usukuma and in Nzega District. According to Cory, there were about 29,000 donkeys in Usukuma in the late nineteen-fifties.¹³⁸ There were slightly under 5,000 in Nzega District at that time.¹³⁹

HUNTING

Hunting was formerly carried out in a wide variety of forms, and in the last century elephant hunting was a particularly highly organized and profitable occupation.¹⁴⁰ Nowadays, however, it is considerably restricted by game laws and by a paucity of game in areas such as the more densely populated districts of Usukuma. Nevertheless, some forms of hunting are still practised.

Firstly, hunting is carried out by members of a society or guild known as *badandu* (sing. *mdandu*).¹⁴¹ These men are the professional hunters of the region and are believed to possess powerful hunting medicines. A man gains these through apprenticeship to an established hunter. *Badandu* hunt individually or in small groups. They always hunt with guns, mostly smooth-bore muzzle-loaders. Many of them are skilled blacksmiths also. *Badandu* normally hunt for profit rather than to supply their own needs for meat. Sometimes they are hired by a local cultivator to hunt wild pig. Some of them make extended expeditions outside greater Unyamwezi, and they occasionally hunt for ivory and rhinoceros-horn, as well as for meat which they can sell. The more successful of them can make considerable profits over a long period of hunting.

There are also local hunting societies which organize collective hunts for smaller

¹²⁹ Own information. Cf. also Malcolm (1953, 72).

¹³⁰ Own information.

¹³¹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 113-4).

¹³² Cf. Abrahams (1965, 179), Bösch (1930a, 358), Cory (1953a, 13-21; 1954, 85).

¹³³ Own information. Cf. also Bösch (1930a, 128-9), Malcolm (1953, 68).

¹³⁴ Cory (ms.).

¹³⁵ Own information supplied by Veterinary Department officials.

¹³⁶ Cf. Blohm (1931, 114-5).

¹³⁷ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 217-22), Cory (1960, 18-26).

¹³⁸ Cory (ms.).

¹³⁹ Own information supplied by Veterinary Department officials.

¹⁴⁰ Blohm (1931, 97-107; 1933a, 109). Cf. also Reichard (1892, 422-48) and Whiteley (1959, *passim*). The account of the modern situation which follows is based upon my own material, though references are made to some earlier literature.

¹⁴¹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 97-9).

game, especially smaller antelope. These societies also theoretically hunt for profit, though they often obtain only enough meat to feed themselves. Their method of hunting is to drive the game into a line of nets where the animals are disposed of by any available weapons, such as clubs or spears.¹⁴² Similar hunting is also carried out on a village or an inter-village level, though the main aim in such cases is usually the eradication of wild pigs or baboons which are damaging the growing crops. Commonly the members of the net-hunting societies, and occasionally *badandu* also, take a leading part in such communal drives, since they are recognized as experts who possess the skills, equipment and medicines necessary for a successful hunt. These men take a major share of any proceeds from such a drive.

In addition, there is hunting of both small and medium sized game with traps of various sorts, e.g. bird lime, tube-shaped net traps, leg-traps, snares for throttling game, wooden cage traps and pitfalls. Traditionally, before the use of guns was common in the region, elephants used to be hunted with a special sort of trap consisting of a heavily weighted spear which dropped down on the animal from above.¹⁴³

Finally, brief mention may be made here of the hunting of porcupines by a specialist society called *banunguli*. This hunting is, however, largely carried out for ritual ends.¹⁴⁴

Although hunting plays only a comparatively minor part in the economy of the region, the Nyamwezi at least place a very high value on it. With some notable exceptions, chiefs and subjects tend to oppose or ignore governmental restrictions upon hunting. Desire for meat and profit are important factors here, but not the only ones. For hunting is to some extent considered as the archetype of manly pursuits, even though few men are in fact skilled hunters.

FISHING¹⁴⁵

Although a small amount goes on elsewhere in the region, fishing is carried out extensively only in northern Usukuma and in south-west and western Unyamwezi proper. Comparatively little information is available about modern developments in these areas. Cory estimates the value of the total catch in Mwanza District in 1958 at £100,000. The fish is either sold fresh or else it is preserved by drying. Sometimes preservation is carried out by the fishermen themselves, sometimes by middlemen traders. The use of hooks, poison, weir baskets and nets is reported in the early literature.¹⁴⁶ The use of nets is said to have been found only in Usukuma at the beginning of the century.¹⁴⁷

CRAFTS¹⁴⁸

In most cases the practice of a craft is a part-time occupation in addition to agriculture and is not hereditary. Formal apprenticeship is not customary. Ironwork, discussed below, is something of an exception to these general rules. Craft products are usually marketed within a fairly narrow territorial zone.

Craftsmen often specialize in certain products, e.g. drums, bedsteads, ladles and spoons, stools and so on. Particularly in urban areas, but not exclusively, craftsmen in European-style furniture such as chairs and tables, and also specialists in house-building are found. Bows, arrows and spears are often made by blacksmiths. Craftsmen in bark make cylindrical storage boxes for grain and other goods, and in the past some bark-cloth was produced.¹⁴⁹ Wood and bark work is done by men, as is most basket work also. Some small basketry vessels are, however, made by Tusi

¹⁴² Cf. Blohm (1931, 105-7).

¹⁴³ Cf. Blohm (1931, 102-5).

¹⁴⁴ Cf. Blohm (1931, 101-2), Spellig (1927a, 63-4).

¹⁴⁵ The main sources for modern practices are Cory (ms.) and Rodger (1954, 23-5).

¹⁴⁶ Blohm (1931, 107-10).

¹⁴⁷ Blohm (1931, 108).

¹⁴⁸ The best general account in the literature is in Blohm (1931, 137-66). Much of his information still applies today.

¹⁴⁹ *Re bark work* cf. Blohm (1931, 145-8).

women. Weaving from native grown cotton was at one time commonly practised but has been more or less completely ousted by imported cloth.¹⁵⁰ Pot making and the quarrying of clay for this is the prerogative of women. Soap-stone, mainly found in Usumbwa, is made into pipe-bowls.¹⁵¹ A number of articles such as horns for signalling and also small snuffboxes are made out of horn.

In the past, the limited availability of iron ore led to the establishment of localized settlements of iron-workers whose products were traded over wide areas. Such settlements were found in northern Usumbwa, in northern Unyamwezi proper, and in the south-west near the Rungwa river.¹⁵² Sometimes no agriculture was practised in such settlements. In the north the Rongo were, and are, the main iron-workers, while Konongo smiths were found in the south-west.¹⁵³ Hoes were at one time extremely valuable and were used for bridewealth and in payment of fines.¹⁵⁴

Nowadays, imported hoes and axes have replaced those made by native craftsmen, and smiths no longer work from local ore, preferring to re-forge scrap-iron. Smithing often runs in families and is a craft surrounded by considerable ritual. The main work of smiths in modern times is the production of bows, arrows, spears and various small tools. They also forge axe-heads for stool makers since imported axe-blades are too short for some parts of this work. Some smiths also repair guns. Smiths are mentioned as having held a privileged position in the past, but this is not the case today in my experience.¹⁵⁵

With the exception of some specialists in European-style carpentry and some house-builders, rural craftsmen do not generally appear to gain much income from their skills.

ARTS

Drums are the main musical instruments of the region. They are almost all of the strung variety found also in the interlacustrine area. Gourd rattles also exist. Some individuals in the region play nail-pianos, and a few play musical bows with gourd soundingboxes.¹⁵⁶ Guitars are rare in the rural areas.

Drums are chiefly used as an accompaniment for dancing. Secret societies in the region all have their special rhythms and dance forms. There are also a number of more secular local dance teams formed by younger people. These teams specialize in one or other of a number of current indigenous dance types and are usually named accordingly. The most widespread in Unyamwezi proper are the male teams of *puba* dancers, also commonly called *beni*.¹⁵⁷ Female and mixed dance teams, with distinctive dances, are also found but they seem to be less common and to dance less frequently than male teams. Besides their dancing activities, some male dance groups also hire themselves out as cultivation teams.¹⁵⁸ In addition, there are particular types of dances associated with weddings, and dancing to the royal drums, e.g. at installation ceremonies, has its own characteristic forms.

A variety of traditional songs also accompany most forms of dancing. In addition, in Unyamwezi proper and probably elsewhere, certain members of some of the dance teams fairly regularly produce new songs, which are often about contemporary local events, though some are simply composed in praise of the singer or in derogation of his rivals. The composers of these songs are typically leading figures in their dance groups and are called *malenga*.

Representational art is relatively poorly developed in the region and serves mainly ritual functions. Cory reports the use of figurines, mostly apparently of clay,

¹⁵⁰ Cf. Blohm (1931, 152-4), Speke (1863, 85).

¹⁵¹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 154-8).

¹⁵² Blohm (1931, 162-4), Stern (1910).

¹⁵³ Cf. Blohm (1931, 164), Diesing (1909, 327-8), de Rosemond (1943).

¹⁵⁴ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 114-5), Blohm (1931, 168), Bösch (1930a, 358), Cory (1955a, 1), Malcolm (1953, 69).

¹⁵⁵ Cf. Stuhlmann (1910, 73).

¹⁵⁶ For some illustrations cf. Blohm (1933a, Table X).

¹⁵⁷ This appears to be related to the Kalela dance of Zambia described by Mitchell (1956).

¹⁵⁸ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 41-3).

at wedding ceremonies in western Unyamwezi proper; at initiation into secret societies in Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma; at rituals following the birth of a first child in Unyamwezi proper and Usumbwa, and at other unspecified rituals in these last two areas.¹⁵⁹ Wall paintings are also used in some secret society initiation rituals.¹⁶⁰ Clay models of cattle, and sometimes motor cars, are made for children to play with.¹⁶¹

TRADE

The Nineteenth Century

During the nineteenth century and perhaps even earlier, the Nyamwezi and other peoples in the region engaged in trading with the coastal areas of East Africa.¹⁶² There is also evidence of early trading with Karagwe and other countries to the north-west and north, and with regions to the south-west and west such as Katanga.¹⁶³ Like most non-agricultural activities, trading was predominantly a dry-season occupation. Much of this external trade was in indigenous hands, existing independently of, and to some extent in competition with, the contemporaneous trading activities of Arabs and other outsiders. Chiefs and other political authorities were sometimes involved in the organization of trading expeditions.¹⁶⁴ Before organizing a caravan journey to the coast, the traders would make inland trips to amass supplies of elephant tusks, hippopotamus teeth, and other commodities.¹⁶⁵ As an example of the amount of goods conveyed to the coast in a single journey, Herrmann describes a large caravan which set out in 1891 from Usukuma with six hundred elephant tusks, 2,000 head of cattle and 2,000 small stock.¹⁶⁶ During this period, a single coastal caravan might contain several hundred or, according to Krapf, as many as three or four thousand people.¹⁶⁷ Goods imported from the coast included cotton cloth, metal wire, beads, guns, powder and percussion caps. Tolls often had to be paid *en route*.¹⁶⁸

Some mention of internal trade at this time has already been made in passing in the section upon crafts. Cloth, salt, honey, livestock and slaves were also traded internally.¹⁶⁹ There were, however, no formally organized indigenous markets in the region. The Sumbwa are mentioned particularly as slave traders and as middlemen in Arab slaving activities.¹⁷⁰

Modern Developments

The development of rail and inland water communications in the first decades of the twentieth century gradually saw the end of the caravan trade in the region. By this time, moreover, the organization of the trade was largely in the hands of Indians.¹⁷¹ Greater Unyamwezi, however, still exports considerable quantities of goods outside its borders. As mentioned earlier, some cattle are still driven to be sold outside the country; and cattle sold in the markets are often transported by their purchasers to the coast and other areas. Cash-cropping is developing, with cotton, groundnuts, rice and tobacco the main crops involved.¹⁷² A flourishing system of Co-operatives for handling trade in local products such as cotton has been established in Usukuma.¹⁷³ Elsewhere in the region, Co-operatives are less well developed.

¹⁵⁹ Cory (1956, 10, 17-8). Blohm (1933a, Table XII), illustrates some wooden figurines.

¹⁶⁰ Cf. Cory (1953b).

¹⁶¹ For illustrations of some earlier children's toys, see Blohm (1933a, Table X).

¹⁶² Cf. section on history and references cited for footnote 64.

¹⁶³ Cf. Smith (1863, 265, 278), Speke (1864, 350, 356).

¹⁶⁴ Cf. Bennett (1963, 3 and *passim*), Speke (1864, 350, 356).

¹⁶⁵ Cf. Blohm (1931, 168-9).

¹⁶⁶ Herrmann (1893, 82).

¹⁶⁷ Burton (1860, vol. I, 341-2), Krapf (1860, 420-1).

¹⁶⁸ Cf. Speke (1863, 58, 61, 63, 69-70 and *passim*).

¹⁶⁹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 168).

¹⁷⁰ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 423), Dahl (1915, Introduction).

¹⁷¹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 167-8), Ford (1955, Chs. II and III), Gillman (1942), Henderson 1965, 154 and *passim*), Raum (1965, 169, 191).

¹⁷² Cf. *Handbook of Tanganyika* (1958, 192, 194-5), Rodger (1954, 20-1, 29-31).

¹⁷³ Cf. Lang and Lang (1962, 86 and *passim*).

Internal trade in craft goods, grain and livestock still takes place, and throughout the region beer is brewed for local sale. At least in parts of Unyamwezi proper, some meat is sold from time to time by part-time butchers who buy one or two cattle specially for the purpose. In addition, Arab and, to a lesser extent, Indian shopkeepers have penetrated to all parts of the region.¹⁷⁴ The number of African shopkeepers is, however, increasing. Every chiefdom has at least one set of shops. Among the goods most commonly sold in rural shops, according to my own information, are bicycle spares, cloth and clothing, hoes, matches, oils of various kinds and soap. Cheaper medicines such as Aspro and Sloan's Linament are also often bought for treating a variety of aches and fevers. A small trade in cheap cigarettes is carried on. People tend to buy their bicycles from urban shops.

STANDARDS OF LIVING

In my own experience among the Nyamwezi, it is difficult to reach an accurate assessment of the wealth of individuals. Reasonably enough, their replies to enquiries about their money are generally polite but uninformative or unreliable, and the custom of loaning out cattle, as was noted earlier, makes it difficult to discover the exact size of a person's herd.

The following statements on the general standard of living refer particularly to Unyamwezi proper. Bicycles are common and most men have a little western-type clothing such as shorts and shirts. Houses are made of mud and wattle or mud brick. Most of them are thatched, corrugated iron roofs being highly valued and rare. Doors are commonly made from millet stalks. Food supplies are generally adequate these days, though relatively little meat is eaten and localized shortages of grain crops, particularly maize and sorghum, occur towards the end of the dry season in places where the rainfall has been poor. Chiefs on the whole enjoy a higher standard of living than their subjects. They mostly have good quality houses built from Native Treasury funds and a number of them own cars and European rifles and shotguns.

The above picture is probably reasonably representative of other areas in the region with the exception of Usukuma, which is rather more prosperous. This is mainly due to the abundance of cattle and the successful development of cotton-growing in the area.

MIGRATORY LABOUR

The peoples of greater Unyamwezi have long been famous as travellers and workers outside their own country.¹⁷⁵ During the period of caravan trading, large numbers of people from the region were employed as porters. Towards the end of the nineteenth century, between 100,000 and 200,000 Nyamwezi men went annually to Bagamoyo on the coast to enlist for work as porters.¹⁷⁶ Spellig met a number of older people who had made the march to the coast on more than twenty occasions.¹⁷⁷ Travelling was valued as a sign of manliness, an attitude which still often survives today.

As the caravan trade declined, the European-owned sisal and, for a period, rubber plantations opened up new opportunities for contract labour. Mining and railway building also provided work.¹⁷⁸ The peoples of this region have long supplied a large contingent of the labour for such enterprises. Though many of them only went away for work during the dry months, many others also stayed away for one or more whole years, and a considerable number have permanently settled in the coastal areas.¹⁷⁹

More recently, work on the sisal estates, which was once a favourite occupation, has become less popular with the peoples of the region and has started to be replaced

¹⁷⁴ See the section on non-African population.

¹⁷⁵ Cf. Blohm (1931, 8, 166-72), Burton (1860, vol. I, 341-2 and *passim*), Speke (1863, 84 and *passim*).

¹⁷⁶ Meyer (1909, 391-2).

¹⁷⁷ Spellig (1927b, 209).

¹⁷⁸ Cf. Raum (1965, 191), *Report on Tanganyika* (1921, 29).

¹⁷⁹ Own information, but cf. also Spellig (1927b, 202, 210-11) and the Census Reports for 1931, 1948 and 1957.

by other more profitable and, at the same time, more congenial work. This includes work on the clove estates in Pemba and Zanzibar and also, more recently, work as hired labourers for Sukuma cotton-growers. This last work is especially convenient inasmuch as it involves comparatively easy journeys and is carried out for people whose way of life is basically similar to that of the labourers themselves. In general, the development of cash crops in the region has tended to make labour migration a less attractive proposition than it has been in the past.¹⁸⁰

CURRENCY AND MEASURES OF VALUE

Before the use of money became widespread, hoes and livestock formed generally accepted currencies. The hoe was especially the currency unit among the Sumbwa, where a conventional value of a fifth of a rupee was attached to it. Elsewhere hoes seem to have had a higher value.¹⁸¹ In those parts of Unyamwezi proper where hoes were mostly imported from considerable distances, valuations of one half and even one and a half rupees are recorded. Also imported cotton cloth, in standard lengths, and certain types of beads were accepted as currency.¹⁸² Salt was used in this way in small-scale transactions among women.¹⁸³ A spear-head currency is reported for the Rungwa area in the south-west, but is not recorded for other parts of the country.¹⁸⁴ Cowries had no currency functions in this region.¹⁸⁵

In Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma a scale of values with three main fixed grades was employed. First, there was *kimo*, or one unit, which was equivalent to one goat or one sheep or one rupee. Secondly, there was *kitano*, or five units, equivalent to a bull or five rupees. Thirdly, there was *ikumi*, or ten units, which was equivalent to one cow or ten rupees.¹⁸⁶ A similar scale, with increased monetary equivalents, is still commonly used in reckoning certain traditional payments such as bridewealth.

Nowadays, the East African shilling, which is subdivided into 100 cents, is universally accepted currency in economic transactions, and it is quite often used in bridewealth payments, especially in the Tabora area. Fractions of it, however, such as ten or fifty cents, are still described in terms of early coinages such as rupees and Maria Theresa dollars, both of which were used at different times during the period of German administration. Thus fifty cents is commonly known by the Swahili name *thumuni*, which literally means one eighth, i.e. of one dollar which was reckoned as worth two German rupees. Similarly ten cents is commonly referred to as *hela tano*, i.e. five heller, the heller having been one hundredth of the German rupee which for these purposes is reckoned as having been the equivalent of two shillings. It should perhaps be mentioned that the German coinage itself is no longer used.

Side by side with the use of money, a certain amount of exchange of goods also takes place. Thus cattle and other livestock are sometimes exchanged for grain, and maize cobs are used in some parts for the purchase of snuff.¹⁸⁷ Analogously, labour is sometimes paid for in cash and sometimes in food or beer.

In the field of weights and measures, the coastal unit of the *frasila*, about 35 pounds, was traditionally used for ivory and other heavy goods.¹⁸⁸ Later the kilogram was introduced by the Germans and is still often used in shops alongside the English system of pounds and ounces. Many goods such as beer are measured for sale in certain conventional containers, e.g. the *debe* or four-gallon oil tin, and the *kimbo*, a much smaller tin used for packing a commercial cooking fat of that name.

¹⁸⁰ Own information.

¹⁸¹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 168), Bösch (1930a, 358), Kollmann (1899, 111).

¹⁸² Cf. Blohm (1931, 168), Spellig (1927b, 221).

¹⁸³ Blohm (1931, 168).

¹⁸⁴ Diesing (1909, 327-8).

¹⁸⁵ Blohm (1931, 168).

¹⁸⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 358).

¹⁸⁷ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 71).

¹⁸⁸ Cf. Burton (1860, vol. II, 388-91) for a full discussion of this and other nineteenth-century measures.

SETTLEMENT PATTERNS

In general, the peoples of greater Unyamwezi do not live in compact settlements, but there is good evidence that they did so in the nineteenth century. Speke, Stanley and others have described the settlements of this period, and their descriptions tally well with those of present-day informants.¹⁸⁹ These settlements were typically large, compact and fortified, and they were often built in relatively inaccessible and rocky places. Commonly, they were fortified with strong wooden stockades, but occasionally stone ramparts were employed. They were usually inhabited by a chief or headman and some hundreds, and in certain cases thousands, of his followers. Sometimes, smaller ancillary hamlets would be found situated within easy reach of the main settlement. The stockaded settlement itself was known in Kinyamwezi as *limbuda*.¹⁹⁰

After the imposition of peace on the region by the Germans, the need for such defensive units was no longer felt. At least in Unyamwezi proper, however, the present pattern of scattered settlement did not immediately emerge. It was preceded by a period in which people still continued to live close together, but in rather smaller numbers. The heads of these new, smaller settlements were commonly the men who founded them. These were known as *mzenga kaya* (literally "the builder of the homestead"), a title nowadays used of the lowest rank of village headman in some areas. Such a settlement might contain as many as a dozen household heads and their dependants. These household heads were sometimes, but by no means always, related to each other and the settlement head. The settlement was often surrounded by a fence or hedge, beyond which lay the members' fields.¹⁹¹

Such larger settlements are only rarely found these days. Throughout greater Unyamwezi the prevailing pattern nowadays appears to be one of relatively scattered settlements in which each homestead head has a set of fields within which he builds his homestead. Settlement is almost completely confined to areas of higher ground which do not flood during the rainy season. These areas are under the authority of headmen, and the area under the lowest grade of headman may conveniently be called a "village". The number of homesteads in a village varies considerably, even within a single chiefdom. Villages containing as few as half a dozen or as many as 100 homesteads can be found.¹⁹² In most parts of Unyamwezi proper and Usumbwa, and apparently also in Ukimbu, the homesteads of a village tend to form a number of loose clusters separated from each other by 100 to 400 yards of open fields.¹⁹³ In the more open country of north-eastern Nzega District and in parts of Usukuma, the homesteads seem to be more widely and more evenly dispersed.¹⁹⁴ On the other hand, homesteads in Usukuma are rather larger on average than their counterparts in Unyamwezi proper. The following figures are given by Rounce.¹⁹⁵

<i>District</i>	<i>Average number of homestead members</i>
Maswa	8.1
Mwanza	6.8
Shinyanga	5.5
Kwimba	7.1
Nzega	3.5
Tabora	3.9

Homesteads consist of one or more houses, sometimes surrounded by a hedge. In areas on the borders of thick bush, more substantial fences may be built. Usually there is a small cleared space between the huts, where household work is done and

¹⁸⁹ Cf. Diesing (1909, 327-8), Malcolm (1953, 12), Schachtzabel (1911, 29), Speke (1864, 278-9), Stanley (1890, vol. II, 397-400).

¹⁹⁰ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 324).

¹⁹¹ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. I), Malcolm (1953, 12).

¹⁹² Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Chs. I and IV), Malcolm (1953, Ch. III).

¹⁹³ Own information. Cf. Shorter (1966) on Ukimbu.

¹⁹⁴ Own information. Cf. plate opposite p. 65 in Malcolm (1953).

¹⁹⁵ Rounce (1949a, 2). Cf. also the table in Rounce (1949a, 5).

food is eaten. Cattle byres, often fenced with thorns or stakes, are built next to the huts. A hut is sometimes reserved for calves and small stock, but these are also kept occasionally in larger houses in which people sleep.¹⁹⁶

House styles vary considerably, even within a single homestead.¹⁹⁷ The traditional house in most of the region is a round hut called *msonge* (plural *misonge*). These houses have a low outside wall topped with a conical grass roof. The larger *misonge* have an inner circular room in which grain and small stock are kept. In such houses, the outer circle is divided up into a number of rooms.

Rectangular houses with varying roof styles are extremely common nowadays. The flat roofed rectangular house, *itembe*, is mainly found in southern and eastern parts of the region and is said to have been copied from the Gogo and Iramba.¹⁹⁸ Elsewhere, rectangular houses usually have one of a number of styles of thatched gable roof. The traditional mud and wattle construction is still common for most sorts of house, but the use of mud-bricks is increasing.

Other house types in the region are the small grass beehive hut, called *nzu*, which is often built by Tusi, and a conical makeshift Kimbu hut called *idindiga*, which is made up of logs and grass.¹⁹⁹ Kimbu build these huts in temporary hunting camps and also in new settlements where they are later replaced by more permanent rectangular houses.

In the past, settlements in the region often had a special hut, commonly called *ibanza*, for young men and also a hut, called *maji*, *mazi* or *ndalo*, for unmarried girls. At least in Unyamwezi proper such huts have become extremely rare, but the available evidence suggests that they may still be found in parts of Usukuma.²⁰⁰

In the past, chiefs' and important headmen's houses were for the most part simply larger versions of those lived in by the subject-body. Mirambo, however, had a large Arab-style mud-brick house built for him, and at a later time the Chiefs of Unyanyembe and Uyui had two-storey houses.²⁰¹ More recently chiefs' houses have been built from Native Treasury funds. They are usually very solid bungalow-type structures, built to last much longer than the ordinary houses of the region, and they commonly have iron roofs.

Homesteads are fairly regularly moved from one part to another of the owner's fields. This is due to the advantages of cultivating former house-sites and to the fact that houses rarely last for more than ten to fifteen years. Larger settlements were similarly shifted in the past.

Movement of individuals from one village or one chiefdom to another is quite common. This may take place owing to a shortage of good land, or owing to more personal reasons such as a quarrel and the fear of sorcery.²⁰² Whole villages may also sometimes be abandoned. This is liable to happen if there is much disease in a village or if the village starts to be attacked by lions. Such misfortunes are commonly believed to spring from conflict within ruling families, and land abandoned for such reasons is unlikely to attract new settlers.²⁰³

SOCIAL ORGANIZATION AND POLITICAL STRUCTURE

INTRODUCTORY

Social organization in this region is not based upon a single dominant principle of relationship. Rather, there are a number of important and distinct sets of relationships by which persons are linked with one another. The relationships in each case

¹⁹⁶ Cf. Abrahams (1967a, Ch. I), Senior (1940).

¹⁹⁷ Cf. Blohm (1931, 65-84), Bösch (1930a, 324-8), Senior (1940).

¹⁹⁸ Own information. Cf. Baumann (1894, 230), Reichard (1890, 263-4), Blohm (1931, 78), however, suggests a south-western origin for large-scale *itembe* constructions.

¹⁹⁹ Cf. Blohm (1931, 77), Shorter (1966).

²⁰⁰ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 64-5), Blohm (1931, 90), Bösch (1930a, 334, 478), Cory (1953a, 39-40).

²⁰¹ Cf. Blohm (1933a, plate 3).

²⁰² Cf. Malcolm (1953, 47-50), Shorter (1966).

²⁰³ For a case of this, see Abrahams (1967a, Ch. VII). Cf. also Bösch (1930a, 504, 241-5).

have their own particular nature, and although there is some overlap between the different sets, both in their personnel and in the functions which they serve, a failure to treat them separately can only lead to distortion and confusion.²⁰⁴ Among the most important of these sets of ties are those of kinship and affinity, domestic grouping, neighbourhood, chiefdom citizenship, and secret societies. Relationships of friendship between individuals and joking relationships between groups are also found. Almost all social life takes place within the framework of these different sets of relationships, and it is meaningful to talk of the social personality of an individual as the sum total of the different roles which he derives from his participation in them.

KINSHIP AND AFFINITY

There is considerable local and inter-tribal variation in the kinship organization. The following account, based mainly upon my own field research, refers primarily to the general situation found in Unyamwezi proper. Important variations from this pattern which have been recorded for this or for other areas will be referred to in the course of the discussion. It should be noted that accounts of this subject in the literature are often over-formalized, and are at times somewhat confused.²⁰⁵

The only politically important kinship groups in the region are those vested with specialized political office, and the members of these mostly form only a small proportion of the population in the areas they rule. The structure of these groups, in which unilineal descent plays an important part, and the nature of relationships between them, is discussed in the section on chiefdom organization. Unilineal descent groups, in the form of clans or lineages, are not a general feature of the kinship organization of commoners. For the commoners of a chiefdom, kinship and affinity are important mainly on the level of inter-personal relationships, and each person is the centre of an ego-centred group of cognates.

A person's kinsfolk are often spread over a wide area, and villages are not normally kinship units.²⁰⁶ Sons fairly commonly move away from their father's homestead during his lifetime, and, even when this does not happen, brothers often separate after their father's death and frequently reside in different villages or even chiefdoms. People tend to take their spouses from outside the village. Normally, the network of kinship ties within a village is very large meshed, and few homestead heads within a village have such ties with more than two others. Members of the ruling family of a village are the main exceptions here. As many as fifty per cent of homestead heads in a village may be without kinsfolk in other homesteads of the same village.

Kinship relations are, in fact, considered by the people to be quite distinct from those of neighbourhood. They contrast them by saying that "debt" exists in neighbourhood relationships but not in kinship. By this they mean that a person who has received help from a neighbour should give an equivalent return (see section on neighbourhood below), whereas kinsfolk simply help each other when and how they can. Where the same people are both each other's kinsfolk and each other's neighbours, or where kinship obligations are in competition with those of neighbourhood, rules exist to define the relative importance of the two ties in particular situations.

Kinsfolk and affines co-operate in a number of important ways. They participate in each other's ancestor sacrifices and rituals of birth, marriage and death, and they may also help each other from time to time in such activities as agriculture and house-building. It is especially from them that a person will seek seed for planting if he has run short, and they normally do all they can to help a man beset by some sudden disaster, such as the destruction or damage by fire of his house and property. In addition, children are dependent on their senior kinsfolk for their upbringing and

²⁰⁴ Cf. Abrahams (1965) for further discussion and illustration of this point for Unyamwezi proper.

²⁰⁵ This is especially true of much of the material on this topic in Bösch (1930a) and Cory (1955a).

²⁰⁶ Ukimbu is a probable exception to this according to material in Shorter (1966).

education, and, usually, for the wherewithal of their transition into adult married status.

A person's status *vis-à-vis* his kinsfolk, and particularly the status of a minor, is to a considerable extent determined by the form of marriage of his parents. A large variety of marriage types have been recorded for the region, but, with the possible exception of Ukimbu and Ukonongo for which adequate data are lacking, these fall into two main categories, one with the payment of bridewealth and the other without.²⁰⁷ It is important to note that both main types of union are recognized as forms of marriage in most parts of the region. The same general word *kutola* (to marry a woman) is used in discussion of them, and in both cases the wife is known as *nke*.

To marry with bridewealth, as opposed to marriage in general, is commonly known as *kukwa*, and the term denoting bridewealth is *nsabo*, which is the ordinary word for wealth. Negotiations over the amount of bridewealth to be paid are usually conducted by two agents, *bakombe*, of each party. These agents are usually neighbours of the party which they represent. The husband in a bridewealth marriage obtains both uxorial and genetricial rights over his wife, and the children of such a marriage normally inherit their father's property. The father has the right to receive any bridewealth which may be paid upon the marriage of his daughters, and he also has the obligation to provide for at least the first marriage of his sons if he has available resources, though other relatives may help in this. Should his wife commit adultery, the husband of a bridewealth union has the right to take the case to the chief's court. The male adulterer is fined and also has to pay the husband compensation. The wife is also fined these days, but this was not so in the past.²⁰⁸

The form of bridewealth varies somewhat from one area to another, a major factor in the situation being cattle distribution in the region. Payment in cash is the general rule in the Tabora area, and it also seems to be common in Usumbwa. It is less popular in northern Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma where payment in cattle, or their equivalent in goats and sheep, is on the whole preferred. Hoes were frequently used for bridewealth in the past, and payment in cloth, beads, guns and even slaves is also recorded.²⁰⁹

The amount of bridewealth is not fixed. It depends partly on the social and economic status of the parties to the marriage and partly on the skill of the *bakombe* as negotiators. In recent years, payments of between 60 and 400 shillings have been common in the Tabora area of Unyamwezi proper, and payments of between 8 and 15 cattle, or their equivalent, are often made in the Kahama area. Malcolm cites 10 cattle as the average bridewealth paid in Usukuma, but this is almost certainly too low a figure for the nineteen-fifties.²¹⁰ Recent data are not available for other areas. A considerable proportion of the bridewealth is usually transferred at the beginning of the marriage, but the arrears are not always fully paid up later.

To marry without bridewealth is described by various terms, the most common being *kubola* and *kulehya*.²¹¹ Non-bridewealth unions were traditionally initiated by an elopement of the couple at night. Such elopement is still common today, but there is a growing tendency for non-bridewealth marriages to be arranged with the consent of the father or other guardian of the girl, particularly if she has been previously married. In non-bridewealth marriage, the husband has no genetricial rights and only limited uxorial ones over his wife. The children of such a marriage may be taken by right to live with their mother's people when they are about eight years of age, and rights and obligations with respect to bridewealth for their marriages devolve upon the mother's brother or other matrilineal relative responsible for their upbringing.

²⁰⁷ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 90-6), Bösch (1930a, 348-427), Cory (1955a, 15-23), Malcolm (1953, 44-5).

²⁰⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 326), Cory (1955a, 25). According to Cory (1953a, 63), the fining of the wife was abolished in Usukuma in 1949.

²⁰⁹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 114-5), Bösch (1930a, 358), Cory (1953a, 16-7; 1955a, 1).

²¹⁰ Malcolm (1953, 44). Cf. also Ankermann (1929, 114-5), Cory (1953a, 16-8; 1955a, 1), Kollmann (1899, 172), Malcolm (1953, 44).

²¹¹ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 400-7), Cory (1953a, 53-5; 1955a, 17), Malcolm (1953, 44).

ing. Such children have a somewhat inferior status to those born of bridewealth unions. They do not normally inherit from their father, and they have no right to a major share of their mother's brother's property if he has children of a bridewealth marriage of his own. If the wife of a non-bridewealth marriage commits adultery, the husband is entitled to bring the case before the chieftom court, as in a bridewealth union. The adulterers will be fined by the court, but no compensation is payable to the husband.²¹²

Non-bridewealth unions can normally be converted into bridewealth ones at a later date.²¹³ In addition, the people recognize the right of the father or another patrilineal kinsman of the children of a non-bridewealth union to redeem them at any time by making certain payments for them to their mother's people. These payments vary according to the sex of the child in question, more being given for a daughter, and they include a sum called *lulelelo* (literally "rearing for someone") to serve as recompense and recognition for the upbringing of the child.

Young men often marry for the first time in their early twenties, and young women at about sixteen to eighteen years of age. Earlier marriage ages for women are recorded in the older literature.²¹⁴ Nowadays residence on marriage is almost universally virilocal, but uxorilocal residence, at least for a year or two, appears to have been fairly common in the past.²¹⁵ Polygyny is permitted, theoretically without limit, but few men have more than two wives and many have only one. Marriage to two related women is in general forbidden.

Bridewealth marriage is strongly preferred for a man or woman's first marriage, but is not always possible. Later marriages may sometimes be contracted without bridewealth even when funds are available, though this occasionally leads to strain between the spouses. Choice of spouse is normally left, at least initially, to the individuals concerned, but a proposed marriage may be successfully opposed by the kinsfolk of a young couple for a variety of reasons.²¹⁶ These include a bad reputation of one of the families, and also the existence of kinship ties between the parties.

It is theoretically forbidden for known kinsfolk of any degree to marry or to sleep with one another in Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma.²¹⁷ The situation elsewhere is unclear. According to Bösch, marriage with the mother's brother's daughter is permitted in Ukimbu, and according to Ankermann's informant for that area any distant cousin can be married there. Bösch also mentions marriage with distant matrilineal kinsfolk in Usumbwa but his account is unclear.²¹⁸ At least in Unyamwezi proper, breaches of the rules are sometimes condoned when the relationship is neither genealogically nor socially close. Genealogical and social distance by no means always coincide in the area. Some of a person's closest ties of mutual help and interaction may be with local kinsmen to whom direct genealogical links cannot be traced, whereas his relationship with some of his genealogically close kinsmen may be strained or simply dormant. Living within easy visiting distance of each other is an important aid to regular interaction and co-operation between kinsfolk but is not sufficient to ensure it. Although the range within which kinship is recognized is not limited by fixed rule, there are various ways in which the number of known kinsfolk comes to be restricted. Relationships between spatially distant kin often lose their force, and they may ultimately be forgotten with the passing of generations. Older persons in fact tend to give only an abridged version of their own knowledge when teaching children about their kinsfolk. This is done, they say, "in order to let the child remember more easily". The knowledge of an individual is, moreover, strongly influenced by the categories

²¹² Cf. Bösch (1930a, 404, 406, 508), Cory (1953a, 54), Kohler (1902, 31), Malcolm (1953, 44). Cory (1955a) is confused on the question of adultery in such marriages.

²¹³ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 404-5, 409), Cory (1953a, 54; 1955a, 17).

²¹⁴ Ankermann (1929, 83), Bösch (1930a, 350).

²¹⁵ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 124-5), Blohm (1933a, 94-5), Bösch (1930a, 309-1), Spellig (1927b, 215).

²¹⁶ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 81, 94), Bösch (1930a, 350, 410, 417), Cory (1953a, 50; 1955a, 17).

²¹⁷ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 72), Blohm (1933a, 96), Bösch (1930a, 354), Cory (1953a, 55; 1955a, 22).

²¹⁸ Ankermann (1929, 72), Bösch (1930a, 355, 419).

of kinsfolk who were his instructors. A child brought up by his mother's people, for example, commonly possesses a scant knowledge of his patrilineal kin, and instruction by a particular grandparent is often cited as the reason for a person's especially detailed knowledge of one area of his genealogy.

Divorce is common in both types of marriage, though non-bridewealth unions are in general more freely entered into and more freely severed than are those involving bridewealth. A large majority of persons have experienced at least one divorce, and often more, by the time they are fifty years of age. In the case of non-bridewealth unions, divorce is normally accomplished simply by separation at the will of either party, although kinsfolk and neighbours may try to reconcile the couple. In bridewealth unions, however, the matter often goes before the chieftdom court which usually first tries to bring about a reconciliation. If either party is adamant, then the divorce will ultimately be granted simply upon a claim of incompatibility, but the court also recognizes certain reasons as automatically justifying a demand for divorce. These reasons are on the whole weighted in favour of the husband. Reasons why a man may justifiably claim a divorce are adultery by his wife; desertion by his wife; being struck by his wife; refusal of his wife to sleep with him; failure of his wife to carry out her household duties; the procuring of an abortion by his wife; and visits by her to native doctors without his permission. Cory also mentions infertility of the wife as a sufficient reason for divorce in Usukuma. A wife may justifiably claim a divorce if her husband deserts her for a period of years without supporting her; if her husband seriously injures her by, for example, breaking a limb, but not simply if he beats her; if her husband is impotent or given to perversion; or if her husband generally fails to maintain her and her children properly.²¹⁹

Divorce entails return of bridewealth paid, but deductions are made according to the number and sex of the children born from the union. Thus in Unyamwezi proper, one cow and one bull, or their equivalent, is retained for every son, and two cows and one bull for every daughter of the marriage. If the bridewealth is not returned, the husband has the right to bring adultery charges against any man living or sleeping with the wife. Should she bear any children outside the marriage before the return of bridewealth, he also, until recently, possessed the right to claim these if he wished to do so.²²⁰

Widow inheritance was apparently customary in the past in bridewealth marriages, although a widow could not be inherited against her will. Nowadays it is considerably less common. Inheritance by a younger brother appears to have been usual but sons, though not those of the widow herself, grandsons, and sister's sons are all eligible.²²¹ According to some of my own informants, inheritance of a widow by her husband's sister's son was particularly favoured in the past. If a widow is not inherited, her husband's kinsfolk have the right to demand the return of bridewealth paid for her, but this right is not always exercised. If a wife for whom bridewealth has been paid dies, her husband may demand that he be given another wife, usually a younger sister or a brother's daughter of the deceased. If his request is granted, he has to make a supplementary payment to the woman's kinsfolk. This custom was apparently commonly observed in the past, but it is very rare today.²²² If no further wife is provided for a bereaved husband, bridewealth less the customary deduction is refundable. Bereaved husbands fairly often forgo the return of bridewealth, however, and particularly if the marriage has been a long and successful one.

Behaviour patterns between kinsfolk and affines are largely determined by their generational status *vis-à-vis* each other. Among kinsfolk, alternate generations are

²¹⁹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 137-40, 146-7), Blohm (1933a, 96-9, 114-7), Bösch (1930a, 428-32), Cory (1953a, 58-86; 1955a, 24-36), Spellig (1927b, 215-6).

²²⁰ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 138-9), Blohm (1933a, 97-8), Bösch (1930a, 412-3, 431), Cory (1953a, 84-5; 1955a, 10-11, 35).

²²¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 128-31, 134), Blohm (1933a, 104-5), Bösch (1930a, 411-5), Cory (1953a, 48-9; 1955a, 18).

²²² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 134-7), Blohm (1933a, 105), Bösch (1930a, 415-6), Cory (1953a, 49; 1955a, 18).

considered to be similar to one another, and relations between their members are typically relaxed and informal, with much joking on both sides. In contrast, relations between kinsfolk of proximal generations are characterized by restraint and mutual respect. Unless the link is very distant, any member of the senior generation normally possesses some authority over the junior person in such a relationship, although certain rights over children are, as has been mentioned, held exclusively by either patrilineal or matrilineal kin. There is no joking relationship with the mother's brother, even if the father has paid bridewealth for the mother. There appears to be a stronger emotional tie to the mother than to the father, and adult sons not infrequently go with their mother if she is divorced. Relations between persons of the same generation do not conform to a single pattern. In the case of full or half-siblings, seniority tends to be important and to confer superior status and authority, whereas behaviour between more distantly linked persons approximates more closely to the informality and joking found between the members of alternate generations.

Affines of the same or of alternate generations usually joke with one another. In certain cases, however, a spouse's elder siblings will be treated with respect, particularly if the spouse has no close, living relatives of the senior proximal generation. Parents in law and children in law treat each other with great respect, and there is avoidance between those of the opposite sex. As in the parent-child relationship itself, the senior party has superior status. Except in the case of a sister's son and his mother's brother's wife, and also in the case of a girl and her father's sister's husband, where there is a joking relationship, relations with the spouses of a person's senior kinsfolk follow the normal generational rules.

The kinship terminology in Uyamwezi proper reflects some of the features which have been described (see diagrams). Kin of proximal and alternate generations are described by different sets of terms. Moreover, kin of alternate ascending generations to that of grandparents are called "grandfather" and "grandmother", and the grandparents of kin of the parental generation are described by the terms used for that generation. Similar rules apply to the terms used for junior kin. Different terms are, however, employed for grandparents and grandchildren. Between alternate generations, no distinctions are made by or between patrilineal and matrilineal kinsfolk. On the level of proximal and their alternate generations, however, such distinctions are made. Thus there are no "fathers" or "father's sisters" among matrilineal kin, and no "mothers" or "mother's brothers" among patrilineal kin. This seems consistent with the fact that it is relations between proximal generations which particularly involve authority, and this is differentially distributed between paternal and maternal kin. Patrilineal kinsfolk are described collectively as *ba buta* or "bow-people", and the corresponding term for matrilin is *ba migongo* or "back-people". At least in Uyamwezi proper and in Usukuma, the left hand, in which the bow is held, is associated with the father's side, and the right hand with the mother's side.²²³

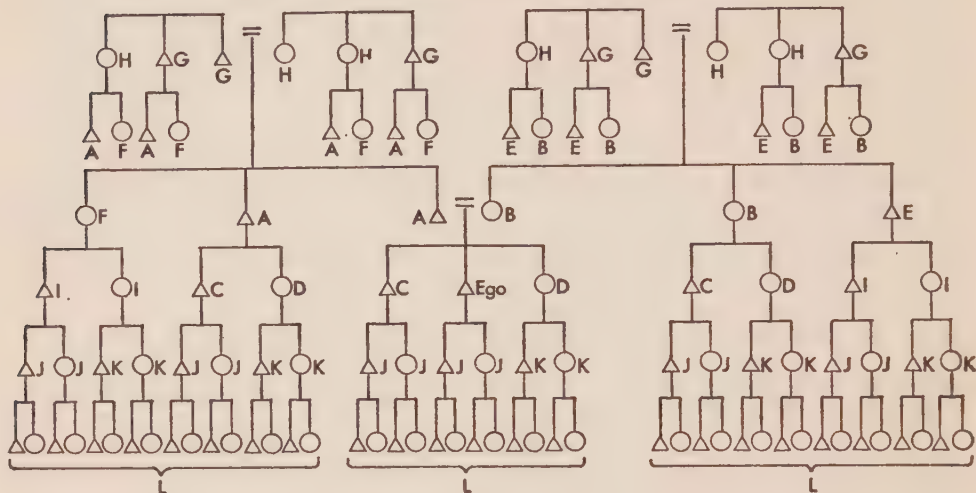
The above discussion applies mainly to the reference terminology. Terms of address are much less numerous than those of reference, and closely follow generational positions. They also tend to be employed reciprocally. Thus grandfather and grandson usually address each other as "grandfather", as do males of the same generation, and father and son commonly address each other as "father". Mother's brother and sister's son usually call each other "mother's brother" in address, though they also sometimes call each other "father". At first sight, it might seem strange to find reciprocal terms used in clearly asymmetrical relationships. The asymmetry is maintained, however, in the actual sequence of greeting, since the junior person ought to greet the senior person first.

Kinship terminology among the Kimbu and the Sumbwa appears to be fundamentally similar to that of the Uyamwezi.²²⁴ The Sukuma system differs in its ter-

²²³ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 68-9).

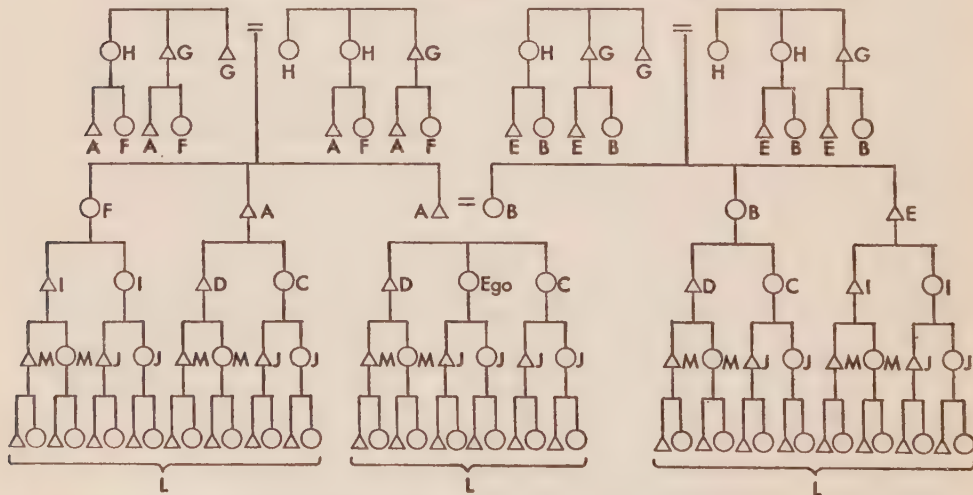
²²⁴ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 67).

1

Nyamwezi Kinship Terminology (Reference Terms, *Male ego*).

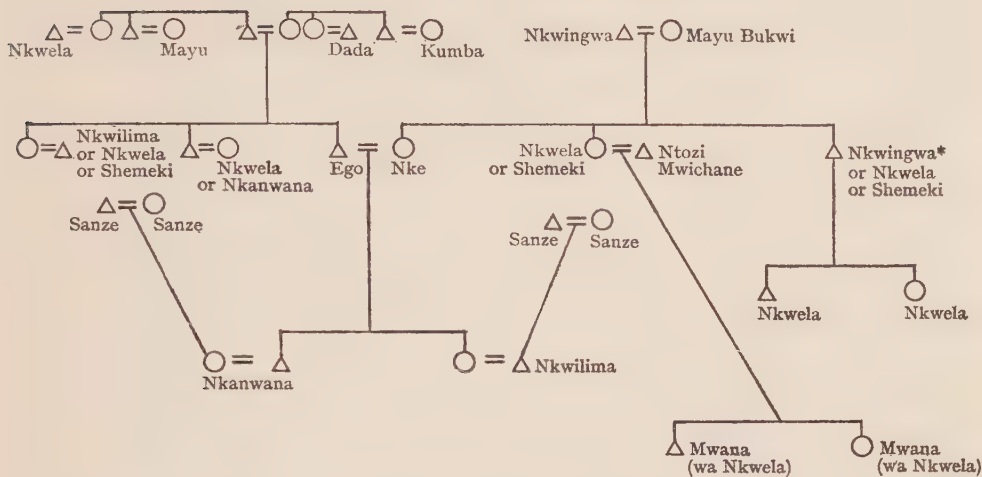
- A. Dada (Uso=your father, Ise=his or her father).
 B. Mayu (Noko=your mother, Nina=his or her mother).
 C. Nkulu if senior, Nzuna if junior to ego.
 D. Ilumbu.
 E. Mami.
 F. Sengi.
 G. Guku.
 H. Mama.
 I. Myala (sibling terms are sometimes used).
 J. Mwana.
 K. Mwipwa.
 L. Mwizukulu.

2

Nyamwezi Kinship Terminology (Reference Terms, *Female ego*).

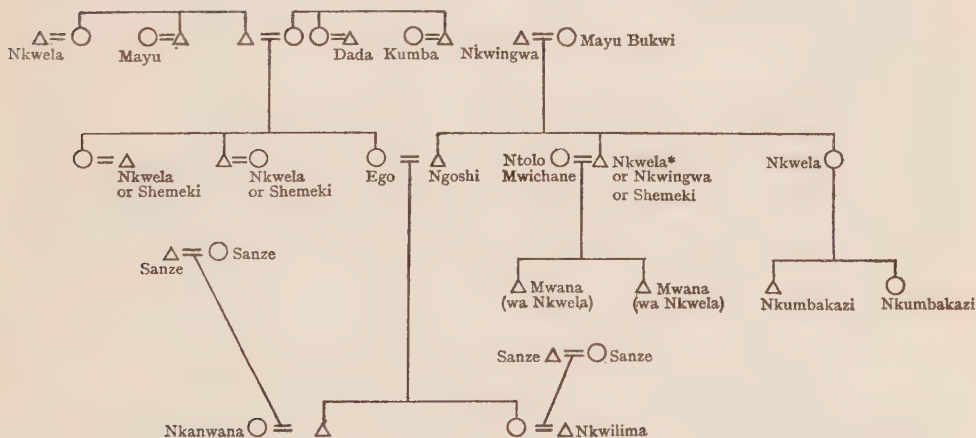
- A. Dada (Uso=your father, Ise=his or her father).
 B. Mayu (Noko=your mother, Nina=his or her mother).
 C. Nkulu if senior, Nzuna if junior to ego.
 D. Ilumbu.
 E. Mami.
 F. Sengi.
 G. Guku.
 H. Mama.
 I. Myala (sibling terms are sometimes used).
 J. Mwana.
 L. Mwizukulu.
 M. Nsengizana.

3

Nyamwezi Affinal Terminology (*Male ego*).

* Wife's brother may be called *Nkwingwa* if he is senior to wife, and especially if wife's father is dead. *Shemeki* is a Swahili term.

4

Nyamwezi Affinal Terminology (*Female ego*).

* Husband's brother may be called *Nkwingwa* if he is senior to husband, and especially if husband's father is dead.

minology for cross-cousins.²²⁵ Among the Kimbu, Nyamwezi, and Sumbwa these are all called by the same term, *mbyala* or *muvyala*, but among the Sukuma patrilineal and matrilineal cross-cousins are sharply differentiated. Father's sister's son is called "father", and father's sister's daughter is called "second father's sister", *sengi wa kabili*. Mother's brother's children are apparently called "child", but whether this is by both male and female ego is not clear. The structural concomitants of these "Crow" features are obscure, and it appears that some Sukuma themselves find the system puzzling.²²⁶

Although kinship is important today in the social life of the peoples of the region, it appears likely that it was both more important and more corporate and complex in the past. There are, in fact, a number of named kinship institutions about which people are mostly ignorant today. Examples are two traditional practices called *ya butina budugu* and *ya butina nsoni*, the names referring respectively to the removal of kinship and the removal of shame. Some of my informants had never heard of these customs and others only knew their names. Some said plausibly that the first concerns the breaking of kinship ties between distant kin who wish to marry, and that the second refers to ceremonies prior to the inheritance by a man of the widow of a kinsman of the senior proximal generation. Others have different views.²²⁷ In addition to these now largely forgotten institutions, others such as fraternal succession and inheritance, a restricted form of blood vengeance with royal sanction, and, as mentioned earlier, widow inheritance and the sororate, are all spoken of as having been widespread in the past.²²⁸ Blood vengeance is no longer condoned and I was told that it had become illegal in at least some northern Nyamwezi chiefdoms before the establishment of European rule. The other three customs are, significantly, only rarely found today outside the ruling families of the chiefdoms and even here they are practised only to a limited extent.

DOMESTIC GROUPS²²⁹

I use the term "domestic group" to refer to the group of people who normally inhabit a single homestead today. Such groups seem rarely to contain more than a dozen members including children, and they are often much smaller than this.²³⁰ They almost always have male heads. The core members of the group typically consist of the head, his wife or wives, and any children they have had who still live with them. Some of these last, and especially sons, may occasionally themselves be married and have children. Sometimes other relatives of the homestead head such as his mother, a married or unmarried younger brother, a sister or a sister's children are also found. Although the male and female members of the group, with the exception of small children, usually eat separately, domestic groups are the largest units in which there is regular commensality throughout the year between members of the same sex.

A domestic group contains one or more households.²³¹ A household is a distinct food-producing, food-owning, and child-rearing unit, though there may be considerable co-operation in these matters between households of the same homestead. The household is the basic economic unit of the area, and the husband-wife relationship, with its well-defined division of labour, is normally the fundamental element in its structure. The term *kaya* is the usual word for both the homestead and the household.

The following table summarizes the main features of the division of labour

²²⁵ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 68), Cory (1953a, 15).

²²⁶ I have seen a letter to a local Sukuma newspaper raising this question.

²²⁷ Cf. Cory (1955a, 22) where *butina nsoni* is said to be concerned with marriage between kin.

²²⁸ On blood vengeance in the past see Ankermann (1929, 300-18), Blohm (1933a, 121, 124-5), Bösch (1930a, 511-2), Kohler (1902, 54-5).

²²⁹ The main source of the material in this section is my own fieldwork in Unyamwezi proper. Members of other tribes of the region living in this area appeared to be similar to the Nyamwezi themselves in the organization of their domestic groups.

²³⁰ Cf. the section on settlement patterns for a discussion of differences between areas.

²³¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 53-4), Blohm (1933a, 26), Cory (1953a, 52-3), Kohler (1902, 23).

between the sexes which was usually followed in Unyamwezi proper in the 1950s.²³² In general, heavy work is done by men, and the more repetitive household tasks and much of the everyday agricultural work is done by women.

<i>Men's tasks</i>	<i>Women's tasks</i>	<i>Tasks of both sexes</i>
Bush clearing.	Ridging of fields.	Harvesting of bulrush millet (done together).
First ground-breaking prior to ridging.	All planting except cassava.	Rice cultivation and reaping (often done together).
First preparation of rice plots.	Weeding.	Clothes washing (usually by individuals).
Cassava planting.	Most harvesting.	Mat-making (done by individuals).
Bulrush millet and sorghum threshing.	Maize pounding.	Herding (sometimes done together).
Looking after cattle. Cutting and bringing of firewood for beer brewing. Cutting of firewood for cooking. Wood-cutting, grasscutting, ropemaking, and all building operations except final smoothing of mud.	Winnowing of grain crops, and shelling ground-nuts. Bringing of firewood for cooking. Beer-brewing. Final plastering in building.	Divination (woman diviners are much rarer than men).
All metal and wood-work. This includes making of spears, bows, arrows, guns, knives, needles, spoons, trays, stools and beds.	Pottery and collection of clay for this. Making gourd ladles and containers.	
Sewing and ironing of clothes.	Making small grass-work vessels for holding liquids especially for rituals (mainly Tusi women).	
The making of brushes for collecting flour laid out to dry.	Collection of relishes, e.g. cassava leaves and mushrooms.	
The making of grass-and wicker-work food containers and trays.	Grinding and drying of flour. Cooking. (At feasts and rituals, meat is cooked by men).	
Consulting diviners.	Washing of pots and sweeping the house.	
Hunting.		

²³² For earlier information on this topic cf. Blohm (1931, 69, 93, 121), Bösch (1930a, 341).

In some of the tasks recognized as theirs, such as ridging, weeding and reaping, the women may occasionally receive help from the men.

Ideally, every adult person in a homestead should be married, and every married woman should have her own household. This should include her own hut, hearth, cooking equipment, fields, food and a part of any cattle herd owned by her husband. When a wife first comes to live with her husband, however, she commonly helps for a time in the household of her husband's mother or that of another wife. Occasionally a man will try to house two wives permanently in a single hut, each with her own section of the hut, including bed and hearth. Such arrangements are acknowledged to be difficult, however, and are rather rare. Women usually bring some of their own household utensils when they marry.

A woman's rights in her household are held more against other women, and especially her co-wives, than against her husband who is said, within the limits of the system of land tenure, to own her hut and fields, and most if not all of the household's food. A husband's exercise of his rights in these matters is, however, somewhat limited by the division of labour, since a woman is technically more capable of organizing her household and budgeting for her domestic needs than is a man. A wise husband will, therefore, usually seek and listen to his wife's advice before coming to any decision about such matters as the sale of crops.

A previously married woman sometimes has her own household in which she receives male help from her brothers or her sons. Should such a woman remarry, it is customary for her husband to buy control over her stock of foodstuffs and some of her household equipment, such as containers for storing food, the payment usually going to one of her kinsfolk. Such a transaction is called *kugula kaya*, i.e. "to buy a household".

There is comparatively little formal ranking between co-wives, although seniority in terms of who was married first is recognized in certain contexts. Co-wives are often jealous of each other and sorcery is said to be common between them. A husband often has no definite rota for sleeping with his different wives, but it is said that he should be careful to treat them all fairly. A variety of cooking arrangements are found, a common system being that the wife with whom the husband is sleeping should cook for him. Much depends on how well co-wives can get on together. If relations between them become strained, a husband may adopt a fixed rotation for sleeping and cooking, in an effort to contain their mutual jealousy. In extreme cases of conflict between co-wives, a husband may establish separate homesteads for them, sometimes in different villages, and he will divide his time between these.

Inheritance customarily follows the divisions between households. Providing that bridewealth has been paid for their mother, or that they themselves have been redeemed by payment, sons normally inherit from their father, and the sons of senior wives in general receive more than those of junior ones.²³³ Brothers have, however, special rights to the inheritance of cattle paid in bridewealth for their full sisters.

A large part of a homestead's productive resources are divided up among its various households. Individual men, however, and occasionally women, in a homestead have their own fields whose produce is recognized as being specifically theirs rather than belonging to a household. These fields and their produce are known as *kilaba* (plural *shilaba*) in Nyamwezi and Sukuma.²³⁴ Cash crops are often grown in the husband's *shilaba*, and are thus not divided among his wives though these may help in their production.

Upon divorce in Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa, a wife may take away the household utensils which she came with and any other property which is her own. This includes personal effects such as clothing, and may also include cattle which she may have inherited if her father had no sons. During her marriage and upon divorce, a wife is also entitled to keep any proceeds which she has obtained from the making of craft goods, such as pots and mats, or from a skill such as

²³³ Cf. Cory (1953a, 153-61; 1955a, 69-74).

²³⁴ Cf. Cory (1953a, 180), Malcolm (1953, 52).

divination, unless her husband has paid for her to acquire the skill or has bought the right to such proceeds either from her or from one of her kinsmen.²³⁵ A Nyamwezi, Sukuma or Sumbwa wife is not entitled by law to any share in the food supplies of her household on divorce from a bridewealth marriage. This rule did not traditionally apply in parts of Usukuma. In contrast, a woman in these three areas has the right to such a share of household foodstuffs upon divorce from a non-bridewealth marriage, but this was not the case traditionally in parts of Usukuma and in most of Unyamwezi proper, and actual practice varies in this latter area.²³⁶

²³⁶ Cf. Cory (1953a, 55, 83-4; 1955a, 21-2, 36).

NEIGHBOURHOOD ORGANIZATION

Relations between neighbours simply as neighbours, rather than in their capacity as subjects of a chief and village headman, are well organized in parts of Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma. There is some evidence that such relationships are also institutionalized among the Sumbwa but details are not available.²³⁷ The situation in Ukimbu and Ukonongo has not been described in the literature. In Unyamwezi proper, neighbourhood relationships appear to be most highly developed in the northern part of Unyamwezi proper, and particularly in Kahama District.²³⁸ I shall first discuss the situation in this northern Nyamwezi area, and I shall then go on to consider other parts of Unyamwezi proper and also Usukuma. It may be mentioned here that, owing to the sexual division of labour, co-operation between neighbours in all areas normally takes place only between persons of the same sex.

Neighbourhood relations in northern Unyamwezi proper are largely organized on a village level. Occasionally, however, members of two villages built on a single area of higher ground co-operate as neighbours, and also smaller clusters of neighbours, drawn from one section of a village, sometimes emerge for the performance of such tasks as millet threshing. In addition, the obligations of neighbourhood relationships may be extended temporarily to embrace members of quite distinct villages. Thus if a person passes by a village in which neighbours are co-operating in some task, it is his duty to stop and help them for a while.

The Nyamwezi term for neighbours is *bazenganwa* which may be roughly translated as those who are built for by each other. A person commonly refers to his neighbours as *bazenganwa bichane*, i.e. my fellow neighbours, rather than as *bazenganwa bane* which means simply "my neighbours", thus emphasizing the fact that neighbours co-operate with one another.

Northern Nyamwezi neighbours collaborate in a wide range of activities. As their name implies, a person's neighbours will commonly help him build his house. They will also often help a man with food if he has guests whom they feel he can ill afford to entertain. In addition, there is much co-operation between neighbours in agricultural work, in ritual and ceremonial activities, and in a system of informal courts.

Agricultural co-operation between neighbours takes place mainly through the medium of local cultivation and threshing teams which do the work of individual members of the team in turn. Neighbours also sometimes get together to eradicate agricultural pests such as wild pigs, though this task is occasionally organized through the chiefdom hierarchy.

Neighbours attend each other's ancestor sacrifices and they are present at the ceremonies which take place at the birth of children. Similarly they attend each other's marriages, and it is neighbours who are chosen to negotiate the amount of bridewealth to be paid. They attend each other's funerals and it is they who dig a person's grave, rather than his kinsfolk and affines. They are expected to refrain from agricultural work for two days after a death in the village, and it is their duty to visit a bereaved homestead in order to comfort its members by their presence and

²³⁵ Cf. Cory (1953a, 83; 1955a, 36).

²³⁷ Own information.

²³⁸ For a more detailed account of neighbourhood organization in this area, see Abrahams (1965).

conversation. They are also expected to convey news of the death, if possible by a personal visit, to relatives of the deceased who live outside the village.

Informal neighbourhood courts are an important institution in this northern area. They are called *mabanza ga banamhala* which simply means "elders' courts", and they deal among other things with failures to fulfil neighbourly obligations and with the settlement of certain disputes between neighbours, kinsfolk and affines. They are different from and complementary to the chiefdom courts in various ways. They possess no specialized staff and have no special meeting place or meeting times. On the whole they handle cases which are not heard by the chiefdom courts and they exact rather different sorts of penalties. A guilty person is normally fined in kind, commonly having to pay a goat or beer, and the fine is typically consumed both by his neighbours and himself. A person who refuses to pay the fine demanded is liable to be ostracized by his neighbours. Ostracism is known as *bubiti*, a word apparently connected with *mbiti*, meaning a hyena. *Bubiti* can thus perhaps be translated as "hyenahood", the notion being that of his exclusion from normal human society. An ostracized person should receive no help from his neighbours in any of the many tasks usually performed with their co-operation. It is a powerful sanction, and I have not seen it resisted for long.

Towards the end of the 1950s, northern Nyamwezi neighbourhood organization, and particularly the millet threshing groups, became involved in the political struggle for Tanganyika's independence. The threshing groups, which are extremely active during the dry season, all began to choose leaders called *batemi ba busiga* (literally "millet chiefs") and these men acted as *de facto* local representatives of the Tanganyika African National Union. Neighbourhood organization, including the court system, began to compete and conflict with the chiefdom system rather than to complement it. The intensity of this conflict had, however, abated somewhat by 1960.

Neighbourhood relationships in the area are said to have been organized more formally in the past. Each larger settlement apparently had a men's club or association, often called *ihane*, in which there was a series of graded positions. Membership appears to have been open to at least all household heads and access to the various ranks was largely based upon the giving of feasts. Each club had a messenger who made sure that everyone was informed of the club's activities. The club was closely connected with a cult of chicken divination, and members learned the rudiments of this upon joining. The exact relationship between the men's club and the organization of neighbourhood courts and co-operation is not clear, though it was undoubtedly a close one. The clubs have not been functioning now for many years.²³⁹

Information on other parts of Unyamwezi proper is more or less confined to the Tabora area, where neighbourhood organization is comparatively weakly developed. Around Tabora, labour is often hired to do some of the tasks which neighbours do together in the north, though an important exception is the participation of neighbours in rituals and especially funerals. Other tasks are performed through the chiefdom hierarchy. Consistent with this is a rarity of neighbourhood court hearings in this area. Neighbours sometimes settle disputes between kinsfolk and affines but they do not enforce their decisions with ostracism. Cases between neighbours are usually dealt with by the chiefdom courts. If a person fails to participate in a local funeral, the only sanction applied against him is apparently a refusal by his neighbours to help him bury his own dead. Neighbourhood organization was not politically significant in this area during the late 1950s. Despite the poor development of neighbourhood relationships around Tabora in more recent years, it seems that a form of local men's association or club was found there in the past. Details are, however, lacking.

Neighbourhood organization in Usukuma appears to be similar in many respects to that found in northern Unyamwezi proper. Neighbours co-operate in a similar variety of economic and ritual contexts and they also participate in a well-developed system of informal courts. Here also, ostracism is the main sanction available

²³⁹ Own information. The literature is poor on this topic.

against recalcitrant offenders, though there is some evidence that rich villagers are economically able to withstand its pressures.²⁴⁰

The main difference between neighbourhood organization in Usukuma and in Unyamwezi proper is the existence in most parts of Usukuma of office-holders known as *basumba batale* (sing. *nsumba ntale*) which literally means "great youths". The details of this institution vary somewhat from one area to another.²⁴¹

The *basumba batale* are the leaders of the younger men, roughly those under 40 years of age, of a community. They must apparently be married and they are chosen by their fellow younger villagers with the advice of older members of the village. The position is usually held only for a few years. There is an elected *nsumba ntale* for each major subdivision of a village-cluster or parish, and one of these is recognized as having some authority over the others. The leaders of different parishes normally act independently of one another. The primary function of the *basumba batale* is the organization of co-operative agricultural work and house-building. In many areas they are also concerned with the distribution of land. To some extent they act as elected representatives of the people *vis-à-vis* the chief and his subordinate rulers. Their power to influence events and to resist the authority of the chief is apparently greatest in the eastern part of the region in Maswa District. It seems, however, that they were also extremely powerful in Shinyanga District in the latter half of the nineteenth century, but they were successfully crushed by the chiefs and have never recovered their former influence there.

In many parts of Usukuma in the past, there were two separate local associations, one for younger men and one for older men, within a settlement. These associations have been described by Cory.²⁴² The main function of the younger men's association, which was commonly called *elika*, was the performance of communal labour tasks under the leadership of the *basumba batale*. The association of older men, which was often called *ihane*, was largely concerned with neighbourhood court hearings, collaboration in rituals, a cult of chicken divination, and feasting. The men's club in Unyamwezi proper seems to have combined the functions of both these associations within a single institution rather less rigidly structured according to age. The local associations of older men in Usukuma were rapidly becoming defunct in the 1940s, and the younger men's associations are also said to have declined in importance in some areas during that period.²⁴³

CHIEFDOM ORGANIZATION

Chieftdom organization appears to be broadly similar throughout the whole of greater Unyamwezi. As with many other topics, the best information is available for Unyamwezi proper and for Usukuma.²⁴⁴ The account which follows is based mainly on my own research in Unyamwezi proper, but reference is made where necessary and possible to the literature on other parts of the region.

Offices within the Chieftdom

Each Nyamwezi chieftdom, *butemi* or *ichalo*, has a hierarchy of territorial offices culminating in the chief, *mtemi*, whose authority covers the whole chieftdom. In smaller chieftdoms there are usually one or more salaried headmen, *banangwa* (sing. *mwanangwa*), who are immediately subordinate to the chief. These salaried headmen are each in charge of a territorial division, *gunguli*, which I call a village cluster, and every village in the chieftdom falls within the boundaries of one of these divisions.

²⁴⁰ Cf. Cory (1954, 85), Malcolm (1953, 39), Tanner (1955a, 164 and *passim*).

²⁴¹ Cf. Cory (1954, 77-84), Malcolm (1953, 34-40), Revington (1938), Waziri Jama (1960).

²⁴² Cory (1954, 64-71, 75-7).

²⁴³ Cory (1954, 71-2, 77, 79).

²⁴⁴ Cf. Abrahams (1967a) for more detailed discussion of this subject for Unyamwezi proper. For earlier organization in this area see the section on history and also Blohm (1933a, 54-74) and Bösch (1930a, 493-521). The best material on Usukuma is in Cory (1951 and 1954 *passim*), Liebenow (1960), Malcolm (1953, 20-43, 82-106 and *passim*), Tanner (1957a). Owing to changes which have taken place since Tanganyika's independence in 1961, it is important to remember that the material in this section refers only to the situation prior to that date.

Individual villages are in the charge of unsalaried headmen who are subordinate to the headman of their village cluster. These unsalaried village headmen are called *bazenga kaya* (sing. *mzenga kaya*) in the north of Unyamwezi proper and *wakubwa wa kipande* (sing. *mkubwa wa kipande*) in the south. Villages are officially called *vijiji* (sing. *kijiji*) in the north and *vipande* (sing. *kipande*) in the south, but the term *gunguli* is also often used. In larger chiefdoms the hierarchy of offices commonly contains a further tier of one or more sub-chiefs between the chief and some or all of his salaried headmen. Like the chiefs, sub-chiefs have officially recognized courts, and appeals from these go to the chief's court. Sub-chiefs are commonly known by the Swahili term *wakili*.

In addition to the hierarchy of territorial officers, there are a number of other office-holders in the chiefdoms. Some of these assist the chiefs and sub-chiefs in their administrative and judicial duties. Thus every chiefdom or sub-chiefdom court has three court elders who assist the chief or sub-chief in the settling of cases. A chief also commonly has a deputy, also called *wakili*, who can hear cases and act otherwise on his behalf. In addition each court usually has two messengers and at least one clerk.

There are also a number of ritual officials in a chiefdom. The most important of these is the *mgabe* whose main task is the supervision of the funeral and installation rites of chiefs. He is helped in this work by a group of men known as *banyikulu* (lit. people of the chief's headquarters) or, in some northern areas, *bagohogoho*. In addition, these men, and to some extent the *mgabe* also, assist the chief in the performance of his ritual duties and look after his regalia. In the past some of these ritual officials also served as secular councillors of the chief, but their role in this respect is much attenuated nowadays. Some of the *banyikulu* are also said to have provided a bodyguard for the chief in the past. Another ritual official, the *kitunga*, has the special function of dressing a chief in his regalia before his installation. A chief's main wives, the *ngole w'ihanga* and *ngole w'ihoho*, may also be mentioned in this context, since they take part in the performance of some royal rituals.

The following points of comparison between Unyamwezi proper and some other parts of greater Unyamwezi may be noted in this context. Among the Sumbwa the chief is known as *mwami*, probably as a result of interlacustrine influence.²⁴⁵ Elsewhere clearly recognizable forms of the term *ntemi* are used. Some regional variations in the terms for headmen and for ritual officials and chief's councillors are also reported.²⁴⁶ Among the Sukuma, according to some of my own informants, village headmen are proportionately more numerous than their Nyamwezi counterparts, being in charge of smaller areas of settlement. Also among the Sukuma, the *basumba batale*, discussed in the section on neighbourhood, play an important part in everyday administration which appears to be unique to that area.

Recruitment to Office

Although matrilineal and patrilineal succession to the chiefship were found in different parts of Unyamwezi proper in the past, chiefship today normally passes within a group of agnates and most chiefs are sons of former chiefs. Both father-to-son and fraternal succession are common and there is no rule of primogeniture. Daughters of former chiefs may succeed in theory, even if there are eligible males, but women chiefs are in fact rare.

Chiefs are elected by the tax-payers of a chiefdom from a group of candidates eligible in terms of descent. Frequently, however, a particular candidate is known to be preferred by Central Government, and this appears in practice to be an important factor in his favour. The qualifications which are especially looked for by the Central Government are formal education and experience in some form of administration. On the whole, successful candidates are much more highly qualified in one or both of these respects than are the large majority of the population of the area.

²⁴⁵ Bösch (1930a, 493).

²⁴⁶ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 35-6, 344), Bösch (1930a, 500-1), Cory (1951, 21-2 and *passim*; 1954, 39, 50 and *passim*), Hailey (1950, 248), Liebenow (1960, 233-7), Shorter (1966).

When a chief is chosen he is formally installed at succession ceremonies which are largely controlled by the ritual officials of the chiefdom. These ceremonies, which include both private and public rituals, appear to have changed relatively little over a long period. The public part of the ceremonies is attended by many subjects of the chiefdom and by a number of neighbouring chiefs. A representative of Central Government is also usually present nowadays.

Chiefs are chosen for life and can only be deposed by Central Government. Two main sorts of reason are considered satisfactory by the Government for the dismissal of a chief. The first is his commission of a breach of the law and the second is his failure to rule efficiently. Unpopularity in itself is not normally considered a sufficient cause, but it may easily lead to the downfall of a chief since it is difficult for him to rule efficiently without popular support.

The situation with regard to headmanships in Unyamwezi proper is rather complex and does not wholly follow the distinction between salaried and unsalaried posts. This is partly because this distinction was only formally established about 1930 and its establishment involved considerable reorganization in some chiefdoms. Some headmanships are held by kinship groups with an agnatic core, and headmen hold these offices by virtue of their membership of these groups. Other headmanships are held by individuals for a variety of reasons. Some are sons of chiefs, others are personal associates of chiefs, and others may have been the first to clear land in the areas they rule. It should be noted, however, that the founding ancestors of kinship groups which nowadays hold headmanships were themselves usually made headmen for reasons similar to those just described. As with the chiefship, women may theoretically hold headmanships but most of these offices are in fact held by men.

Some similarities and differences between salaried and unsalaried headmen may be noted. First, headmanships of either grade may be held by kinship groups which trace descent from former chiefs, or from their personal associates, or from first clearers of the bush. On the other hand, actual sons of chiefs almost always hold a salaried headmanship, and this tends to be true of personal associates as well. People who first clear bush only obtain village headmanships. The reorganization mentioned earlier has been mainly responsible for apparent paradoxes in this situation.

Although the Central Government has said from time to time that headmen should be popularly elected, this seems rarely to happen in practice. Chiefs' sons and personal associates are appointed by the chief himself and succession to a post held by a kinship group is usually decided by the group in consultation with the chief. Succession in such cases is normally patrilineal, as with chiefs, but a sister's son occasionally succeeds. Succession ceremonies for headmen do not appear to be held nowadays, though they are said to have existed formerly. Most headmen of both grades, with the main exception of some sons of chiefs, have educational and occupational backgrounds similar to those of their subjects.

The formal system for deposing headmen follows the pattern described by chiefs. Chiefs, however, sometimes try to dismiss a headman for personal reasons, for example if they have a quarrel with him or if they wish to replace him by a son or personal follower. Such replacement is difficult, however, when the office is vested in a kinship group.

There are two ways in which sub-chiefdoms can arise and these affect recruitment to the office of sub-chief. The first is through the incorporation of a formerly independent unit into another chiefdom. In such cases the sub-chief is normally a member of the ruling family of the former unit. The second way is through the establishment of additional official courts within a larger chiefdom for administrative convenience and efficiency. In cases of this sort sons and personal associates of chiefs are often found as sub-chiefs. Rules for deposing sub-chiefs are similar to those for chiefs and headmen. Sub-chiefs tend to be fairly similar to chiefs in their educational and occupational backgrounds.

Chief's deputies and court clerks are officially appointed at the Administrative District level and are transferable from one chiefdom to another. Chiefs can, however,

exercise some influence over their appointment. The main qualification for a chief's deputy is previous administrative experience, and for a court clerk formal education. Court elders are chosen by the head of the court in which they work and they are always residents of the area served by the court. Often they include a member of the Tusi population of the area, and one of them may sometimes be a headman. Court messengers are similarly appointed by the court head and they are usually local commoners. All the above officials are liable to dismissal for inefficiency or criminal activity.

The ritual office of *mgabe* is normally vested in a kinship group, usually of commoner descent, and succession follows patrilineal lines. Occasionally the *mgabe* also holds a headmanship. The office of *kitunga*, the royal dresser at the installation ceremonies, is also vested in a kinship group. Traditionally a new *kitunga* was chosen for each chiefly installation and was afterwards banished from the chiefdom. This procedure is not normally followed nowadays. The *banyikulu*, or *bagohogoho*, are mostly descendants of royal slaves. It appears that the importance and numbers of the various ritual officials are declining in many chiefdoms. The chief's main wives are usually installed with the chief on his accession to the chiefship. There appears to be no general rule about recruitment of these wives, but the senior wife, *ngole w'ihanga*, is customarily provided by a particular family in some chiefdoms.

Much the same situation appears to obtain in other parts of greater Unyamwezi. At least in Usukuma and Usumbwa, succession to the chiefship and to headmanships controlled by kinship groups is normally patrilineal.²⁴⁷ Adequate published information is lacking for Ukonongo and Ukimbu.²⁴⁸ The Central Government rules, which I have described, concerning the dismissal of office-holders apply throughout the region and beyond. In Usukuma the educational standards of chiefs are in general higher than those of their Nyamwezi counterparts.²⁴⁹ Elsewhere the situation seems roughly similar to that in Unyamwezi proper.²⁵⁰ The position with regard to ritual officials in Usukuma is not completely clear, since the distinction between these and a body of councillors known as *banangoma* or in southern Usukuma *bagon'hogon'ho* (cf. Nyamwezi *bagohogoho*) is uncertain.²⁵¹ It seems that in many Sukuma chiefdoms these men were of royal or noble descent, though mention is also made of *banikuru* (cf. Nyamwezi *banyikulu*) of slave descent forming a royal bodyguard in the past.²⁵² Detailed information on this question is lacking for other areas of the region.

Nobles and Commoners

Nobles, i.e. members of the ruling family of a chiefdom, are called *bisalibe* (sing. *mwalisibe*), and commoners are called *bazengi* (sing. *mzengi*) which literally means builders.²⁵³ The ruling family of a Nyamwezi chiefdom is basically a segmented kinship group, each segment being vested with one or more territorial offices. The most important segment is the one which holds the chiefship itself. The core of each segment is normally a patrilineage, but the links between segments are sometimes traced through matrilineal lines. This is because matrilineal succession to the chiefship was quite common in the past and segments normally trace descent from former chiefs. Various cognates are attached to the patrilineal cores of such segments and these kinsmen count as members of the segments. Usually these cognates or their ancestors have attached themselves to a particular office-holder at some time and the groups they form may be described as office-oriented kindreds. The actual blood relatives

²⁴⁷ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 23), Bösch (1930a, 488, 494), Cory (1951, 4; 1953a, 157-8; 1955a, 72), Liebenow (1960, 238). Rituals of succession to the chiefship in these areas are described in Bösch (1930a, 501-2), Cory (1951, 4-28 and *passim*), Tanner (1957a).

²⁴⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 27). It appears from Shorter (1966), however, that among the Kimbu matrilineal succession to the chiefship was replaced by patrilineal succession under German and British rule.

²⁴⁹ Cf. Liebenow (1960, 249-50, 257).

²⁵⁰ Own information in Usumbwa. Cf. Hailey (1950, 248, 259) on other areas.

²⁵¹ Cf. Cory (1951, 21-2; 1954, 39-43), Liebenow (1960, 236-7).

²⁵² Cf. Cory (1954, 20).

²⁵³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 40), Bösch (1930a, 314).

of chiefs, and to a lesser extent of headmen, are, however, only part of those who call themselves their kinsmen. Thus the descendants of royal slaves, such as the *banyikulu*, and personal associates of a chief and their descendants also may claim membership of the ruling family of a chiefdom, and there is in fact a tendency for any headman to describe himself as the chief's kinsman. This last point is consistent with a common though, according to some informants, inaccurate use of the terms *bisalibe* and *bazengi* simply to mark the distinction between territorial office-holders and the subjects they rule.

Though there is clear evidence of a comparable noble-commoner distinction in other parts of the region, detailed discussions of this topic are lacking in the literature on these areas and, with the partial exception of Usumbwa where nobles are said to be called *bahinda*, indigenous terms for the two classes are not mentioned.²⁵⁴

Commoner Councils

Local commoner councils, with advisory functions, were established in Nyamwezi, Sukuma and Sumbwa chiefdoms, and possibly elsewhere, in the 1950s.²⁵⁵ In Unyamwezi proper, and apparently among the Sumbwa also, these councils have for the most part wielded very little influence during this period, but they have been more powerful and have taken an active part in local administration in some though not all areas of Usukuma.²⁵⁶

Functions of the Chiefdom System

The framework of chiefdom offices so far described serves as a medium through which various important functions are performed. These include the collection of revenue and the maintenance of law and order, and also a variety of regulative, co-ordinative, distributive and ritual functions.

It has always been a part of the Nyamwezi chiefdom system for the chief and his headmen to collect revenue from their subjects. This was in the form of tribute in the past, but nowadays it takes the form of monetary taxes. In the past tribute was paid directly to the rulers but modern taxes are organized on the Administrative District and National level, though they are still collected by the chief and headmen, often with the aid of Government tax-clerks, and are partly redistributed to them in the form of salaries and other grants. Annual taxes are paid by all adult males and by women homestead-heads. Additional annual taxes are collected from the owners of bicycles and guns. A number of occasional taxes, in the form of licence fees, are also levied, e.g. when a person wants to cut down certain types of trees, or to brew beer or slaughter cattle for sale. The courts also levy fees for hearing civil cases and these, along with fines, go like most taxes to the District Native Treasury.

The maintenance of law and order has likewise always been a function of the chiefdom system. Almost all the office-holders previously noted take part in the hearing and settlement of court cases. Usually a person with a dispute, which he either cannot or does not wish to take before his neighbours, takes it to his village headman who passes it on to the village cluster headman if he himself is unable to resolve it. The village cluster headman holds an informal hearing and, if he feels there is a real case which he himself cannot settle, he passes the matter on to the chief's court.²⁵⁷ Here it is heard by the chief, the three court elders, and an *ad hoc* body of village and village cluster headmen. The chief's deputy may also be present and sometimes he will stand in for the chief. The case is recorded by the court-clerk and order is maintained in court by the messenger on duty. The court is held in a special building called *ibanza* but also commonly described by the Swahili term *baraza*. Formal seating arrangements exist and procedure follows a set pattern. The chief or

²⁵⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 314).

²⁵⁵ Own information. Cf. Liebenow (1960, 253).

²⁵⁶ Cf. Liebenow (1960, 254).

²⁵⁷ In a sub-chiefdom, the case will of course move on to the sub-chief's court in which procedure is similar to that in the chief's court.

his deputy presides as judge. The powers of the court are limited by Central Government. Cases which involve homicide, witchcraft, or Christian marriages may not be dealt with, nor may those concerning Indians or Europeans. The court may fine or jail offenders up to a prescribed limit. If the court feels that a severer penalty is called for, it transfers the case in question to a higher court. The courts are used a great deal. In Busangi chiefdom in Kahama District, with a population of 4,711 according to the 1957 census, 103 civil and criminal cases were heard in 1958. 87 cases were dealt with in the same period in Ibili chiefdom in Tabora District where the 1957 population was 2,995. The following table presents information on Busangi cases heard that year.

CASES HEARD IN BUSANGI CHIEFDOM COURT, 1958

I. *Criminal cases* 58

(a) Offences against the state.

Breaches of Native Authority	Tax Laws	17
" " "	Court Procedure	4
" " "	Husbandry Laws	10
" " "	Marketing Laws	4
" " "	Registration Laws	1
Disorderly behaviour in a public place		1
		37 or 62%
 (b) Offences against persons.		
Adultery		8
Theft, fraud and intention of such		6
Infecting a person with venereal disease		1
Running into a person on a bicycle		2
Assault		2
Verbal abuse		2
		21 or 38%

II. *Civil Cases* 45

Suing for inheritance	7
„ „ divorce or restitution of conjugal rights	12
„ „ bridewealth	10
„ „ repayment of debt	8
„ „ custody of children	3
„ „ compensation for crops damaged by cattle	5
	45

Litigation is at its peak in the dry season when people are less occupied with food production.

Chiefs and headmen are empowered, should the need arise, to regulate the day-to-day activities of their subjects by preventing them from doing something which is legal under normal circumstances. Thus chiefs may forbid the sale of crops outside their chiefdom in a year when food is scarce. Similarly, if there has been much violence in a chiefdom, a chief or headman may temporarily forbid the sale of beer after dark within the area under his control. In addition, a chief in the past, but rarely nowadays, might regulate the process of food production and consumption through his control over the performance of a number of rituals, such as a yearly ceremony which allowed the subjects of a chiefdom to start brewing millet beer. I was told that chiefs used to delay this ceremony in years of shortage in order to prevent the use of too much millet for beer-brewing.

Chiefs and headmen also have the right to call upon their subjects to perform such public works as road maintenance, bush clearing, and the hunting of animal pests. Such labour is usually paid for nowadays unless the task is of direct advantage

to those doing it. Formerly, however, rulers could demand that subjects did comparable work as tribute labour.

In the past, chiefs and more important headmen were expected to be very generous and hospitable to their subjects. More recently, with the replacement of tribute and tribute labour by an impersonal tax system, it is difficult for rulers to treat their subjects in this way, though they are to some extent still expected to do so. The distributive role of chiefs is implied in the term *wa nyama* (lit. person of meat) which is often used by subjects in addressing them. As described in the section on land tenure, rulers are in charge of the distribution of land among their subjects.

By means of powers which he obtains on his installation, combined with his ability to influence his ancestors through sacrifice and other rituals, a chief was and to some extent still is held to be able to control those forces such as rainfall which determine the prosperity and well-being of his subjects. An annual series of rituals which cover the main phases of the agricultural cycle exists for this purpose.²⁵⁸ Apart from these regularly recurring ceremonies, a chief and also his headmen are expected to perform rituals on behalf of their subject-body as special need arises. Some chiefs still conscientiously perform traditional rituals and others carry them out simply to please their subjects. Yet others perform hardly any ceremonies at all these days. In general, it appears that the ritual aspects of chiefdom organization have become much less important than they were in the past.

With the exception of Usukuma, where the situation closely mirrors that described above for Unyamwezi proper, detailed information is lacking on at least some of the functions of the chiefdom system in other parts of greater Unyamwezi.²⁵⁹ The available literature on Usumbwa and my own information on that area point to the existence of a broadly similar situation there.²⁶⁰ It is, moreover, clear that the system in Ukimbu has traditionally served the functions of revenue collection and the maintenance of law and order, and that chiefs had important ritual duties.²⁶¹ In addition, the common political heritage of the region and its subjection to the same external influences make it seem extremely likely that the material which I have presented on other functions of the system is in the main applicable to the region as a whole.

LAND TENURE

In Unyamwezi proper and elsewhere, all land is said to belong to the chief.²⁶² Subjects, nevertheless, possess rights in land and enjoy considerable security of tenure. In the past, a chief had the right to expel witches and other undesirable subjects from his chiefdom, but, more recently, permission of the Central Government or of a Federation Court has been required before this can be done.²⁶³ The chiefs themselves, however, are generally anxious to possess as large a body of subjects as they can, and this has helped to ensure that their powers of expulsion, and their other rights concerning land and settlement, are not abused by them.

Every household head has the right to hold land both for cultivation and for habitation.²⁶⁴ There are three main ways in which such land may be acquired.²⁶⁵ First, a person may clear an area of virgin or regenerated bush. Permission to do this need not be obtained, but the person concerned must determine which political authorities control the area he clears, and he is expected to make himself known to them. He must also be careful not to conflict with other persons who may be clearing land in his vicinity. A person who first clears land in a previously unsettled area may be appointed as the headman of that area. When the area is one of regenerated

²⁵⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 19-20), Blohm (1933a, 65-8), Bösch (1930a, 128, 149-53, 263-4, 268-9).

²⁵⁹ On Usukuma see especially Cory (1951, 33-68 and *passim*; 1954, 3-38, 49-63 and *passim*), Liebenow (1960, 232-48 and *passim*).

²⁶⁰ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 21, 242, 344), Bösch (1930a, 149-52).

²⁶¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 18, 242, 344), Shorter (1966).

²⁶² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 225-6), Bösch (1930a, 513), Malcolm (1953, 20).

²⁶³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 335), Malcolm (1953, 26-7).

²⁶⁴ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 225-6), Cory (1953a, 112-3).

²⁶⁵ Cf. Cory (1953a, 111-24; 1955a, 47-51), Malcolm (1953, 50-1 and *passim*).

bush, however, the descendants of the former headmen there, if they are known, are usually recognized as having the right to return and resume the headmanship.

The second main method of obtaining land is through the allocation of an already cleared plot. The chief himself does not distribute such land to his subjects, the task of allocation being delegated to his subordinate authorities, the headmen. In parts of Usukuma, the *basumba batale* (cf. neighbourhood organization) play an important role in the distribution of village land, but they appear generally to do this on behalf of the headman.²⁶⁶ Any person, irrespective of tribe, may apply to the village headman for some land. Although a person may try to settle in a village where he has a relative or friend, this need not necessarily be the case.²⁶⁷ The headman will try to assess the suitability of the applicant and, if satisfied, will allocate a vacant plot of land to him. Such a newcomer will sometimes be lodged temporarily by a member of the village. No fee is normally paid to the headman for the allocation of land to a newcomer.²⁶⁸

The third method of obtaining land is through inheritance from one's father or some other close kinsman. Although Cory states for the Nyamwezi, Sukuma and Sumbwa that inheritance by a son does not require the permission of the headman, Nyamwezi political authorities, in my experience, consider all inheritance of land to be a privilege which depends upon their own tacit consent.²⁶⁹ Where there is a localized shortage of land, I am told, a headman may insist upon an heir surrendering other holdings in the village when he takes over his deceased kinsman's fields and homestead. A person who wishes to inherit a kinsman's land has no right to choose only a part of the holding and leave the rest. The land must normally be inherited as a single lot, and any deductions from it are decided by the headman.²⁷⁰

The relative frequency of these three methods of obtaining land varies both from place to place, and also in accordance with the situation of the individuals concerned. The fact that persons often move from one village or one chiefdom to another, coupled with a tendency of sons to set up separate homesteads from their fathers, limits the incidence of inheritance as compared with other methods of land acquisition. Where uncleared land is scarce, or when an individual cannot command a sufficient labour force for clearing land, the allocation of cleared land predominates.

A person who continues to live on his land and cultivate it, cannot normally be deprived of it by either chief or headman. A person also has a right to keep part of his land in fallow, although some limit, such as three years in Unyamwezi proper and Usumbwa, is usually placed on the period of fallowing permitted.²⁷¹ Should the customary limit be exceeded, the headman may re-allocate the unused land to someone who has urgent need of it. If a person dies with no one to inherit his fields, or if he goes to settle in another village, his land reverts to the headman for redistribution.

Neither chiefs nor subjects have the right to sell land in a chiefdom, though some sale of land occurred in the past in Usukuma. Fields may, however, be borrowed, normally without a fee. In Usukuma, fields are sometimes rented out by individuals for pasture, but, in most areas, pasture land including fields from which the year's crops have been harvested is free to all.²⁷²

Chiefs and headmen have their own fields, many of which are attached to their offices. These fields are often extensive and of good quality. In parts of Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma, the headmen traditionally had the right to cultivate abandoned homestead sites, *matongo*, which are usually extremely fertile.²⁷³ At least in Unyam-

²⁶⁶ Cf. Cory (1953a, 112-3; 1955a, 81, 85), Malcolm (1953, 38, 43).

²⁶⁷ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 43-4). According to Shorter (1966), Kimbu prefer to settle with kinsfolk or affines.

²⁶⁸ Cf. Cory (1953a, 119; 1955a, 48).

²⁶⁹ Cory (1953a, 122; 1955a, 50).

²⁷⁰ Cf. Cory (1953a, 122; 1955a, 50).

²⁷¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 226), Cory (1953a, 114-5; 1955a, 47).

²⁷² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 255-6), Cory (1953a, 116, 129-33, 144; 1955a, 47, 54), Malcolm (1953, 50).

²⁷³ Cf. Cory (1953a, 128), Malcolm (1953, 50, 79).

wezi proper, this right has tended to lapse with the adoption of more scattered forms of settlement.

Rights in houses vary from one area to another. In the Tabora area it has apparently long been customary for a person to be able to sell his house upon leaving a village. In other parts of Unyamwezi proper, and also among the Sumbwa and Sukuma, only houses whose construction has involved the original owner in considerable financial outlay upon labour and materials can be sold.²⁷⁴ Such sales do not, however, automatically entitle the purchaser to the use of the fields cultivated by the seller. These must be re-allocated by the proper authority.

Trees growing in the bush are said to be the property of the chief, as indeed is all wild life, but their use is, in practice, usually only limited by Forestry Reserve regulations.²⁷⁵ In most areas, trees which are planted by a person in his fields and trees which grow there naturally are his property. Trees planted by a previous occupant of the land, however, normally remain the property of the planter, who may dispose of them by gift or sale. This is mainly of importance in the case of mango and other fruit trees. The right to sell fruit trees appears, in most areas at least, to be a fairly recent innovation. Bösch attributes its introduction to the Arabs and Swahili from the coast.²⁷⁶

Wild fruits, wild honey and beeswax, and gum arabic are free to all in Unyamwezi proper and Usumbwa. Similar rules apply in Usukuma, with the exception that strangers must seek permission of the local headman before taking wild honey and beeswax. In all these areas, however, honey and beeswax accumulated in a hive belong to the owner of the hive.²⁷⁷

Water for human use is free to all, whether it is found naturally or in a specially prepared water-hole. Water for cattle is more restricted and can only be obtained from a man-made water-hole with the permission of the owners. This may be refused in time of scarcity.²⁷⁸

SECRET SOCIETIES²⁷⁹

A large number of associations, commonly referred to in the literature as secret societies, flourish in the region. They are secret in the sense that members are believed to attain ritual knowledge and powers through initiation into them and later training, and details of such initiation and training and of the knowledge and powers they confer are normally withheld from the uninitiated. No secrecy is observed, however, with regard to membership itself. Most societies stage public dancing performances and other shows from time to time, commonly at the invitation of a chief, and in some cases members provide medicinal or other services to non-members. Detailed information about these societies has in some cases been obtained from lapsed members, but Cory actually joined two of the societies himself.²⁸⁰ The normal generic names for the societies are *mbina* (lit. dance) or *ngoma* (lit. drum), but the Swahili word *chama* (club or association) is also sometimes used. The societies are of many different sorts. Thus, there are numerous societies of diviners, e.g. *bamanga*, *bachembangoko*, *bakasanda*; spirit possession societies, e.g. *baswezi*, *bamigaba*; societies connected with the birth of twins, *bagota* and *babasana*; societies of snake-charmers, *bayeye* and *bagoyange*; a society of porcupine hunters, *banunguli*, who in addition to this activity offer cures for snake-bite, as do the snake-charmer societies; societies of game-hunters, e.g. *badandu*; and many others including by repute a society of professional thieves,

²⁷⁴ Cf. Cory (1953a, 146; 1955a, 66), Malcolm (1953, 47-9).

²⁷⁵ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 225-6, 231-2), Bösch (1930a, 513), Malcolm (1953, 6, 53-4).

²⁷⁶ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 231-2), Bösch (1930a, 513), Cory (1953a, 134, 145-7; 1955a, 58, 65-7).

²⁷⁷ Cf. Cory (1953a, 134; 1955a, 57-8).

²⁷⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 232-3), Cory (1953a, 131-3; 1955a, 55-6).

²⁷⁹ Good published data on this subject, e.g. Blohm (1931, 101-2, 1933a, 38-50, 165-85), Bösch (1930a, 179-241), Cory (1946; 1955b), Spellig (1927a), are available for Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa. Shorter (1966) notes the former existence of "secret dance societies" in Ukumbu.

²⁸⁰ Cory (1946, 161; 1955b, 923).

basambo, who are said to possess ritual knowledge which aids them in their work.²⁸¹ The forms of neighbourhood association known as *ihane* and discussed in an earlier section might also be included in this list.

A person may and often does belong to more than one society, though some belong to none at all. Some members, probably the majority, join because diviners have advised them to do so, but others enter out of free choice. Some societies, e.g. *banunguli*, *bayeye*, *bagoyangi*, *badandu*, are said to have only male members, and others, e.g. *bagota*, only female members. Most others, including the *baswezi*, *bamigabo* and *babasana*, admit members of both sexes.²⁸² Members of a society are not drawn from a single chiefdom, village or kinship group. Most societies have a wide distribution, and members of a society in one area are readily incorporated into the activities of members in other areas when they move. In view of the statements of Carnochan, however, it should be pointed out that no society, to my knowledge, is formally organized or co-ordinated under a single leader.²⁸³ Rather the societies consist of a number of separate local lodges, of varying extent, which mutually recognize their affinity with each other. In keeping with the multitribal population of most areas, such local lodges usually contain members drawn from a variety of tribes. In some parts of the region, however, Tusi have their own branches of the *baswezi* society.²⁸⁴

Most societies are, as I have said, found over a wide area, but their exact distribution is not clear. The most widespread appear to be the snake-charmer societies, *bayeye* and *bagoyangi*, the porcupine-hunting society, and the societies connected with the birth of twins. These, and perhaps others, are found over most if not the whole of the region. The spirit-possession society of *baswezi* seems to be strongest in Usumbwa and in north and central Unyamwezi proper, although Cory and Malcolm also mention its existence in Usukuma.²⁸⁵ The spirit-possession society of *bamigabo* is, on the other hand, mainly confined to the south and central areas of the region, but Cory also mentions it for Usukuma.²⁸⁶ This and other information strongly suggests that the distribution of the societies has been changing over a long period. Many of the societies are in fact said to have originated outside greater Unyamwezi. Thus the snake-charmer societies, *bayeye* and *bagoyangi*, are both stated to have come into the region from Ufipa in the south-west, and the society of *baswezi* has come from the Interlacustrine area to the north-west.²⁸⁷

People wishing to join a society normally approach one of its local leaders who will make the necessary arrangements. In the past the non-Tusi sections of the *baswezi* sometimes adopted special methods of recruiting initiates. Small bands of their members are reported to have roamed the country seeking for recruits to the society. They are said to have demanded lavish hospitality wherever they went and they appear to have been a considerable nuisance to the villages they visited.²⁸⁸ Their activities in this respect have been very much curtailed in recent years. Other societies do not seem to have acted in this way.

Membership of a society is acquired by initiation coupled with the payment of an entrance fee. The fees appear to vary from society to society and, in some cases, from one area to another. The economic status of a prospective initiate may be taken into account, as may the number of initiates, smaller individual fees being charged for larger numbers. Cory reports that one head of cattle and five shillings is an average fee for entrance into the *bayeye*, and fees of round about 100 shillings were mentioned to me with respect to the *baswezi*, although Cory cites much smaller figures for this

²⁸¹ For a fuller list see Bösch (1930a, 179-80).

²⁸² Cf. Bösch (1930a, 179, 189, 209), Cory (1946, 161), Spellig (1927a, 63).

²⁸³ Carnochan and Adamson (1937, Introduction and *passim*).

²⁸⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 202).

²⁸⁵ Cf. Cory (1954, 87-8; 1955b, 923), Malcolm (1953, 43), Spellig (1927a, 64).

²⁸⁶ Cory (1954, 87-8).

²⁸⁷ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 183), Bösch (1930a, 202), Cory (1946, 160-1; 1955b, 924), Spellig (1927a, 64).

²⁸⁸ Cf. Cory (1955b, 925).

society, especially in Usumbwa. He also notes that entrance fees for the *bayeye* are usually paid in instalments and can partly be replaced by labour carried out for the local leader of the society.²⁸⁹

The prospective initiates pass through the ceremonies of initiation as a group. The rituals may last several days and are controlled by the local head and other leading members of the association. Despite the different aims and origins of the societies, the successive stages of initiation and the terms used for them and for the participants in them are broadly similar in most cases. The terms used for initiation itself are *kuhembekwa* ('to be a pupil'), *kutindikwa* ('to be initiated into a ritual status'), also used of the rituals of installation of a chief), and *kusanwa* ('to have one's umbilical cord cut'). This last term and some of the rituals themselves imply the idea of a second birth and incorporation into a new community of kinsfolk for the initiates. Initiates are called *bahemba* ('pupils'), senior members are known as *banyangogo*, said to derive from their right to sit on logs (*magogo*) during ceremonies, and the leader is known variously as *mtangara* (relating to his possession of a special medicine container *nhangara*), *baba buhemba* ('father of the teaching'), or simply *mtemi* ('chief'). The term *kanumba*, also used in neighbourhood groupings for the local messenger and cook at local feasts, is sometimes used for one of the officials at initiation rituals, and subordinate leaders in the societies may also be referred to as *banangwa* ('headmen').²⁹⁰

Initiation into a society provides certain benefits for an individual in addition to the possible solution of any personal problems which may have led him to join on a diviner's advice. First, of course, there is the knowledge which he acquires in the course of the rituals. This knowledge is, however, almost minimal and further lengthy training under one of the society's leaders is essential for anyone who wishes to understand the secrets of the society in depth. Only a few members in fact undertake such training. Secondly, there are the advantages which the individual obtains through his incorporation into what, in the light of the initiation rituals, may be called the brotherhood of the association. This brotherhood is based upon the common initiation experience of the members of a society, and it is later reinforced by various forms of social interaction between them. As members of a society, individuals take part in its dances, and in many societies mutual help is given among members in times of financial or other difficulty. In the case of the *baswezi*, the unity of the society is further reinforced by the possession and use of a secret language which appears to be made up mainly of distorted forms of Nyamwezi and Sumbwa words.²⁹¹

At least in Usumbwa and in much of Unyamwezi proper, chiefs and other leading office-holders in the chiefdoms appear regularly to have belonged to one or more of the societies, and particularly the *baswezi*, in the past. It seems that some joined after taking up their office, while others were already members at the time of their accession. The reasons for such membership are not completely clear. Some informants told me that it was important for a ruler to know what such societies were doing, but it seems likely that public and private ritual considerations were also involved. The societies do not appear to have been able to wield any political influence through their possession of such members, but they may have gained a certain amount of protection for their activities.²⁹² More recently, many Nyamwezi chiefs, and probably the majority of them, still belong to the *baswezi*, and in some cases to other societies also, but a number of chiefs have refused to join for religious reasons or because they have felt that membership was not consistent with their modern role.

FRIENDSHIP

Men and women often have a few particular friends (Nyamwezi: *banwani*) among non-kinsfolk. In the past, close friendship between men was confirmed through

²⁸⁹ Cory (1946, 162; 1955b, 926-7).

²⁹⁰ Bösch (1930a, 186-222), Cory (1946 and 1955b, *passim*), Spellig (1927a, 62-6).

²⁹¹ Cf. Cory (1955b, 947-8).

²⁹² Cf. Cory (1955b, 924-5). Shorter (1966) mentions that Kimbu chiefs belonged to local secret societies.

a blood-pact, *kunwana*, but this is rare today. The ritual by which a blood-pact was established varied from one area to another, though it always seems to have been a public affair involving witnesses.²⁹³ Incisions were made, commonly on the stomach of the two parties, but sometimes elsewhere, and the blood was mixed together. Sometimes the two friends drank a little of the mixture. A formal declaration of their mutual rights and obligations was made. The relationship appears to have been considered similar to a kinship bond, and should, ideally, be continued in the following generation. In practice, however, it seems often to have lapsed after the death of one of the parties, particularly if they were no longer living near each other.²⁹⁴ In theory also, the relationship is said to have placed a bar on marriage between at least close relatives of the parties, but such marriage does occasionally take place.²⁹⁵ The conclusion of a blood-pact between chiefs is said to have precluded warfare between them.²⁹⁶

According to my own information, friendship between women did not involve a blood-pact, but was concluded by exchange of gifts, particularly foodstuffs, and the fastening of white beads on each other's wrists.²⁹⁷

JOKING RELATIONSHIPS

In addition to the joking mentioned earlier between certain categories of kin and affines, joking relationships between tribes and between dynasties or individual chiefdoms also exist.²⁹⁸ The normal Nyamwezi and Sukuma term for such relationships is *bupugo*, although the term *bugulwe* is also found in northern Unyamwezi proper. The corresponding terms for joking partners are *bapugo* and *bagulwe*. The Swahili terms *utani* and *watani* are also commonly used to refer to joking between tribes.²⁹⁹ Traditionally all these relationships involved privileged horseplay and verbal abuse between members of the groups concerned and there was also some exchange of ritual services, e.g. at funerals.³⁰⁰ Nowadays, however, little more than verbal joking takes place. Intermarriage is permitted between joking partners in the various relationships but the normal rules of respect to senior affines, and to senior kinsfolk in the case of children of the marriage, have to be observed. According to Moreau, an inter-tribal joking partner of the Sumbwa cannot be refused if he desires to marry a Sumbwa girl.³⁰¹

The inter-tribal joking relationships link particular tribes of the region with a number of other peoples, most of whom live at a considerable distance from greater Unyamwezi. Thus the Nyamwezi, Sukuma and Sumbwa are all said to joke with the Zaramo and Zigua who live on or near the coast, and according to Moreau the Nyamwezi and Sumbwa also joke with a number of other tribes who live between their country and the coast. The Ngoni are also mentioned as joking partners of the Nyamwezi and Sumbwa.³⁰² Most of my own Nyamwezi informants, however, only mentioned the Zaramu and Zigua as their joking partners. Apart from the use of joking nicknames, mentioned in the section on nomenclature, there are no inter-tribal joking relationships between one tribe of greater Unyamwezi and another.

In Unyamwezi proper, and apparently in Usukuma also, inter-dynastic joking

²⁹³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 195-6, 202-4), Blohm (1933a, 80-1), Bösch (1930a, 437-40), Cory (1953a, 56), Grant (1864, 108-9), Kohler (1902, 41).

²⁹⁴ Own information. Cf. Bösch (1930a, 438-40) on the nature of the bond.

²⁹⁵ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 439), Cory (1953a, 56).

²⁹⁶ Own information, but cf. Blohm (1933a, 81) whose informant says that chiefs entered into other forms of friendship but not blood-brotherhood. Cf. also Ankermann (1929, 202) for blood-brotherhood between Kimbu chiefs.

²⁹⁷ Cf. also Ankermann (1929, 201), Kohler (1902, 41).

²⁹⁸ Information is only available for Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa. Cf. Ankermann (1929, 237), Bösch (1925, 204; 1930, 74), Cory (1953a, 29-30), Moreau (1941 and 1944), Pedler (1940), Reichard (1890, 277-8).

²⁹⁹ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 74), Cory (1953a, 29-30), Moreau (1941 and 1944), Reichard (1890, 277). Own information re *bugulwe*.

³⁰⁰ Cf. Bösch (1925, 204), Moreau (1944, 391-8), Reichard (1890, 277-8).

³⁰¹ Moreau (1944, 390-1).

³⁰² Moreau (1944, 387-8). Cf. also Reichard (1890, 277-8).

relationships are found between some but not all ruling dynasties whose chiefdoms border on each other.³⁰³ In addition there are, according to Cory, a number of joking relationships between individual Sukuma chiefdoms.³⁰⁴ In some cases the chiefdoms in question are separated by considerable distances, and intervening chiefdoms do not appear to participate in the relationship. In other cases, two or more contiguous chiefdoms are involved. It is not clear whether the chiefdoms concerned must belong to separate dynasties. Inter-chiefdom joking relationships of this kind, as opposed to inter-dynastic links, do not seem to be found in Unyamwezi proper.

According to most informants, inter-tribal joking relationships arose from an earlier state of hostility between the groups concerned, and this suggests that these relationships began in the first half of the nineteenth century when large-scale contact between greater Unyamwezi and the coast appears to have been first established.³⁰⁵ It is possible that inter-dynastic and inter-chiefdom joking is of earlier origin. This too appears to have arisen out of warfare and hostility, though according to Cory allies rather than enemies in such conflict became joking partners.³⁰⁶ It may be added that the earliest reference to a joking relationship in the region is made by Speke, and that the relationship which he records is of a different type from those so far discussed.³⁰⁷ The case he describes involves institutionalized horseplay between two caravan leaders whose caravans meet face to face on a narrow track, the two leaders butting each other head-on to determine who should have right of way. I have not found any reference to a similar practice in the later literature.

The various relationships generally give great pleasure to participants and on-lookers alike. In addition, inter-tribal joking even nowadays serves the function of helping members of the tribes concerned to establish friendly relations when passing through or settling down in other regions. This is especially significant for greater Unyamwezi visitors to coastal areas, though the relationships are also useful in any urban or other strongly multi-tribal situation.³⁰⁸ In my experience, the inter-dynastic relationships in modern times serve mainly to oil the wheels of discussions between chiefs when they meet on official or informal occasions, and this seems likely to be true of inter-chiefdom joking also.

AGE-GRADES AND AGE-GROUPINGS

No formal age-set system, such as that found among Nilo-hamites, appears to exist among the main tribes of the region. A series of age-categories through which an individual passes in the course of his or her life-time, e.g. baby, young boy, young girl, young man, young woman, old man, old woman, is recognized in Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma (and one may safely assume elsewhere).³⁰⁹ Organized and exclusive co-operation, however, between those who happen to belong to the same category at a particular point in time is, in general, not highly developed. The main reported exceptions, apart from children's play groups, are the separate local associations of younger and older people in parts of Usukuma, the organization of the activities of Kimbu boys under the authority of the chief, and the neighbourhood 'elders' courts', *mabanza ga banamhala*, in Unyamwezi proper, though the term *banamhala* in fact tends to include a relatively wide age-range in this context.³¹⁰ In addition, dance societies normally consist of younger people. In my experience in Unyamwezi proper, there is also a loose division of labour between older and younger people, e.g. it is the younger men who rearrange the piles of millet at threshing parties while the older

³⁰³ Own information in Unyamwezi proper. On Usukuma cf. Cory (1953a, 29-30) and map in Malcolm (1953, facing 83).

³⁰⁴ Cory (1953a, 30).

³⁰⁵ Cf. Moreau (1944, 388).

³⁰⁶ Cory (1953a, 30).

³⁰⁷ Speke (1864, 271-2).

³⁰⁸ Cf. Leslie (1963, 2, 35-7), Moreau (1944, 388-9).

³⁰⁹ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 34).

³¹⁰ Cf. Abrahams (1965, 177-84), Ankermann (1929, 65), Cory (1954, 63-83), Malcolm (1953, 34-43).

men rest in the shade, and persons of roughly similar age and experience often find each other's company the most congenial. With the main exception of kinsfolk of the grand-parental generation, senior people are in general treated with respect.

SLAVERY

Slavery (*busese*), which was formally abolished in Tanganyika in 1922, appears to have been an important institution in the region.³¹¹ According to an estimate by Reichard, slaves (*basese*, sing. *msese*) constituted between 70 and 75 per cent of the total population in Unyamwezi proper in the 1880s.³¹² It seems probable, however, that he was writing of the area around Tabora and that the proportion of slaves to freemen was much smaller in other parts of the region.

A number of writers distinguish between the position of domestic slaves and that of those who were sold in the coastal slave trade. Domestic slaves appear to have had an easier and relatively more secure life than the latter group, though it is not clear to what extent they were themselves liable to be sold outside the region.³¹³ The following account refers particularly to domestic slavery.

The largest numbers of slaves were owned by chiefs and their subordinate authorities. Female slaves are said to have outnumbered males.³¹⁴ Slaves were acquired as a result of trading and raiding expeditions outside greater Unyamwezi and as a result of warfare between chiefdoms. Internal trading in slaves also took place. In addition people could become slaves as a result of debts incurred by them or by their guardians, if they themselves were children, and some people voluntarily became the slaves of rulers, especially if they wished to escape retribution for an offence against a neighbouring authority. A person who wished to become the slave of the chief could signify his wish by such means as hanging from the drum stand at the chief's headquarters or by splitting open one of the royal drums.³¹⁵

Legally a slave could make no claims against his or her owner. Owners had the right to sell slaves, but they do not appear to have had the right to kill them, at least without permission of the chief.³¹⁶ In practice the treatment of slaves appears to have been generally humane. Slaves often lived and ate together with their owners and were normally referred to by kinship terms.³¹⁷ Although slaves worked for their owners, they were also allowed to do work on their own account and sometimes even possessed their own livestock and their own slaves. Some slaves are said to have been formally adopted as children by their masters.³¹⁸ At least in Unyamwezi proper royal slaves formed the chief's bodyguard and carried out ritual functions for the chief.³¹⁹ Some Nyamwezi royal slaves achieved considerable status and could even be given part of the chiefdom to rule as a subordinate authority to the chief.³²⁰

Slaves sometimes married other slaves but sometimes they were married to their masters or members of their master's family. The status of the children of slaves is not completely clear. According to some sources, they too were slaves but according to a number of other writers, and many of my own informants, such children were known by the special term *babyaliwa* and enjoyed free or semi-free status.³²¹ It is

³¹¹ The most detailed information on this subject is in Ankermann (1929, 208-19) and Bösch (1930a, 440-6).

³¹² Reichard (1890, 277).

³¹³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 214-5), Blohm (1933a, 36), Bösch (1930a, 440, 446), Grant (1864, 72, 78), Spellig (1927b, 212).

³¹⁴ Bösch (1930a, 441).

³¹⁵ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 209-10, 212, 264-5, 267), Bösch (1930, 442, 444-5), Broyon-Mirambo (1878, 35), Spellig (1927b, 213).

³¹⁶ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 214-5), Bösch (1930a, 440).

³¹⁷ Cf. Andermann (1929, 212-3), Blohm (1933a, 36), Bösch (1930a, 440, 445-6), Spellig (1927b, 212).

³¹⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 212-3), Blohm (1933a, 36-7), Bösch (1930a, 441), Spellig (1927b, 212).

³¹⁹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 218), Bösch (1930a, 443) and also Liebenow (1960, 234).

³²⁰ Own information.

³²¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 218-9), Blohm (1933a, 36), Bösch (1930a, 441-2), Spellig (1927b, 212).

possible that a favourable change in the status of the children of slaves took place at the turn of the present century.³²² Slaves could not apparently redeem themselves from slavery but it was possible for their kinsfolk to redeem them.³²³

MAIN CULTURAL FEATURES

DRESS

The people are said to have originally worn skins and bark-cloth, but although men still wear skins on journeys or in the fields, locally woven and imported cloths appear to have become the main form of clothing by the second half of the nineteenth century. Beads and brass or copper wire bracelets and anklets were popular among women, and solid brass or copper rings were sometimes worn by men during this period.³²⁴

Nowadays a considerable variety of clothing styles are found, especially for men. Many men wear cheap imported cloths as sarongs about their waists, sometimes over a pair of shorts. Sometimes a European-type shirt or vest is also worn. Arab-style long white shifts, *kanzu*, are also popular, though relatively few men can afford to wear them regularly. A jacket is sometimes worn on top of these, especially by more important men such as chiefs, and such men also sometimes wear good quality European-style clothing. Large and expensive patterned cloths imported from the coast are also popular with chiefs. Among the more common types of hat are white brimless caps, which are often embroidered, and red fezzes. Some European-style hats, e.g. army bush hats, are also found. European-style shoes are rather rare, and most men go barefoot or wear sandals cut from car or lorry tyres.

Most women in the region wear imported cloths, though some European-style frocks are also found. Cloths are usually bought in pairs, one being worn about the body and the other often being draped over the head. Sometimes the cloths are plain and dark, but more colourful cloths, *kanga*, are also popular. These have flamboyant designs in bright colours and they have Swahili mottoes printed on them. Strings of beads are worn next to the skin around the waist.

Young children usually wear little if any clothing. Little girls often wear a small bead square which covers the *pudenda*.³²⁵

BODILY MARKINGS

Various forms of scarification on the face and body are practised in the region. Facial markings seem usually to be made with a small number of light incisions which are carefully treated so as to leave a slight discoloration of the skin where the cuts have been made rather than an obvious scar. Marks on the body sometimes leave clear scars. Some marks are apparently made simply for decoration, while others are the result of indigenous medical treatment or of initiation into the cult life of some secret societies.³²⁶

Throughout the area, the chiselling or filing of a triangular gap between the middle upper incisors was regularly performed on children of both sexes after about the age of ten, but this seems to be less common nowadays. It appears that important members of the ruling families of chiefdoms have always been exempted from this treatment. In addition, the Kimbu, Sumbwa, Nyamwezi, and some Sukuma are said also to have knocked out the two middle lower incisors in the past.³²⁷

Circumcision of boys is recorded for Ukimbu in the earlier literature and it is said to have been borrowed from the Arabs or from neighbouring tribes who practise it. With the exception of Muslim members of the population, circumcision has never been customary among the other peoples of the region.³²⁸

³²² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 219), Spellig (1927b, 212).

³²³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 217), Blohm (1933a, 36), Bösch (1930a, 445).

³²⁴ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 85), Speke (1863, 85-6, 617-8).

³²⁵ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 21), Bösch (1930a, 477-8).

³²⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 20, 219-20, 236, 240), Kohler (1902, 39), Kollmann (1899, 154-5).

³²⁷ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 184), Blohm (1933a, 89), Bösch (1930a, 20), Speke (1863, 86).

³²⁸ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 173), Dahl (1915, Introduction).

TOTEMISM AND FOOD PROHIBITIONS

Bösch describes totemic beliefs and customs among the Nyamwezi which include the symbolic association of some ruling families with particular species of animals and plants and some prohibitions on eating them.³²⁹ Such particular associations appear to be only very vaguely if at all recognized by the people today. Ankermann reports that certain Kimbu clans claim to be descended from particular animals and plants.³³⁰ Tusi in the region appear to retain their own totemic beliefs and avoidances.

Bösch also describes how an individual domestic animal, e.g. a cow or goat or even a chicken, may be consecrated among the Nyamwezi in memory of a particular ancestor whom the animal is then felt to represent.³³¹ The particular beast chosen should then not be killed, and it should not be eaten by the descendants of the ancestor in question when it dies. These prohibitions apply only to the particular beast consecrated and not to other members of the species including its own offspring. Such animals, which Bösch calls "totems by consecration", can still be found in the area.

Various other food prohibitions, which are often inherited but which are found among unrelated people over a wide area, also exist. Nowadays at least, inherited prohibitions appear to pass most commonly from father to child.³³² The most frequently forbidden animals in Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma are spotted or striped, e.g. bush-buck, and are associated with leprosy by the people.³³³ Chiefs and their wives are warned upon their installation to refrain from eating a wide range of such animals, but most people simply inherit a prohibition against eating only one or two of them.³³⁴ Some food prohibitions are connected with membership of a secret society. Yet others apply only to people at particular stages of their lives, e.g. to pregnant women, and sometimes a diviner will recommend that a person abstains from certain foods either temporarily or permanently as part of his treatment of a sickness.³³⁵

The observance of similar food prohibitions is not in itself a bar to marriage in the region.³³⁶

NAMES

Children appear generally to be given a name within a few days of their birth, although Ankermann's informant on Usumbwa says a child receives his name when he begins to crawl, and his informant on Usukuma says a name is given in the child's second year.³³⁷ Often a paternal or maternal grandparent's name is chosen, but names recalling either the circumstances of the birth, e.g. Misana for a boy born in the morning, or an event which took place at about that time are common. Children are not normally named after kinsfolk in the parental generation, and especially their own parents, but Ankermann reports that a girl in Ukimbu is given her mother's name if the mother dies in giving birth to her.³³⁸ In most cases the names for boys differ from those for girls although the names may be related, e.g. Mabula for a boy and Kabula (a diminutive form) for a girl. At least in Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa, special names which do not vary according to sex are given to twins, the first two children following these, and breech-born children.³³⁹

At least in Unyamwezi proper, and especially in the case of males, names are changed quite often in the course of a person's life. A child who has not been named after a grandparent may be given such a name on the advice of a diviner if the child

³²⁹ Bösch (1929; 1930a, 70-80).

³³⁰ Ankermann (1929, 9).

³³¹ Bösch (1930a, 92-100). Cf. also Blohm (1933a, 154-6). Tanner (1958b, 54) reports a similar practice for Usukuma.

³³² But cf. Ankermann (1915, 160-1) where inheritance through the mother is recorded.

³³³ Cf. Grant (1864, 90) for an early mention of this.

³³⁴ Cf. Abrahams (1966, 138), Cory (1951, 16).

³³⁵ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 52-69), Cory (1949, 28; 1955b, 941).

³³⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 78).

³³⁷ Ankermann (1929, 148-51). Cf. Blohm (1933a, 15), Bösch (1930a, 455).

³³⁸ Ankermann (1929, 151). Cf. Bösch (1930a, 455-8), Spellig (1927b, 217).

³³⁹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 149), Blohm (1933a, 15, 18, 19), Bösch (1930a, 456-7), Cory (1944, 37; 1951, 56-7).

is sick or cries a lot in its early days. A comparable custom is reported for Usumbwa. In addition, a man may take on one or more names at different times of his life, e.g. when going to the coast, and these names may replace earlier ones or be used concurrently with them in different contexts.³⁴⁰ Throughout the region, chiefs take one or more new names upon their installation, and converts to Christianity or Islam also assume suitable new names.³⁴¹

Senior kinsfolk often call a junior by his personal name, and such names may also be used by people who are familiar with and equal in status to each other. Otherwise it is most common for a person to be addressed as "child of so and so". The names of senior and junior affines of the opposite sex are avoided.³⁴²

MAJOR PHASES OF THE LIFE CYCLE

BIRTH AND EARLY CHILDHOOD

Detailed information on most aspects of this topic is available for Unyamwezi proper only, and the following account refers especially to that area.³⁴³ There, if a woman delays to become pregnant she seeks ritual help from her mother's people, who should present her with a sheep, and she may go with her husband to a diviner who may give her medicines to help her to conceive.³⁴⁴ Once a woman has become pregnant she must observe a variety of food and other taboos.³⁴⁵ Ankermann reports such prohibitions for Ukimbu also.³⁴⁶ She should refrain from sexual intercourse when her pregnancy has become advanced, though she may continue with her ordinary work until more or less the last moment. A woman will normally try to have her first child at her parents' home, but subsequent children are usually delivered at her husband's home. The husband should not be present at the birth which is assisted by senior female kinsfolk and/or neighbours of the mother.³⁴⁷ The mother sits upon the ground for the actual delivery of the child. Difficult deliveries are commonly believed to be due to adultery on the part of the mother.³⁴⁸

The umbilical cord is cut with a piece of millet stalk.³⁴⁹ Once the cord has fallen, the child can be brought out of the hut for the first time.³⁵⁰ The cord itself may be buried or kept in a special calabash, but according to some informants it is simply thrown away. The afterbirth is buried.³⁵¹ When the child is brought out of the hut, usually about five days after its birth, special ceremonies are performed which symbolically represent its future role as a male or female member of the society.³⁵² It is also given a name during these first few days.

A child may be given food once the umbilical cord has been cut, but it may not be suckled by its mother until her breasts have been ritually cleansed a few days later.³⁵³ In the meanwhile the child may be fed with cow's milk or with a little light porridge made with millet flour. It may also be breast-fed by a woman other than its mother. After purification, the mother normally suckles the child herself, though other women may occasionally help in this, and the period of suckling lasts for two or three years. During this period the child is gradually introduced to other foods. If

³⁴⁰ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 149, 151), Bösch (1930a, 283-4, 455), Spellig (1927b, 217).

³⁴¹ Cf. Abrahams (1966, 139), Ankermann (1929, 29), Cory (1951, 27).

³⁴² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 162-3, 165), Bösch (1930a, 391).

³⁴³ The most detailed published accounts are in Ankermann (1920, 148-50), Blohm (1933a, 11-20), Bösch (1930a, 449-67). Ankermann (1929, 150-1) gives a little information on Usumbwa and Ukimbu. Cory (1944 and ms) shows the situation in Usukuma to be closely similar to that in Unyamwezi proper.

³⁴⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 449-50).

³⁴⁵ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 60-5).

³⁴⁶ Ankermann (1929, 151).

³⁴⁷ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 12-3), Bösch (1930a, 452). Ankermann (1929, 151) reports that Kimbu fathers are not present at the birth.

³⁴⁸ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 12), Bösch (1930a, 452).

³⁴⁹ Cory (ms.) reports the use of a piece of shell in Usukuma in the past.

³⁵⁰ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 14-5), Bösch (1930a, 459).

³⁵¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 148), Blohm (1933a, 14), Bösch (1930a, 459).

³⁵² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 150), Blohm (1933a, 15-6), Bösch (1930a, 459-62).

³⁵³ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 453-4).

it is found difficult to wean the child, the mother may put pepper on her breasts.

According to some informants, the parents of the child should abstain from sexual intercourse with each other until the child is able to walk, but others say that the period of abstinence should extend up to weaning. Similar restrictions are reported for Usumbwa.³⁵⁴ Unweaned children are said to suffer from a sickness known as *lusi* if their mother becomes pregnant. At least in Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma, sexual intercourse outside of marriage by either spouse is also felt liable to harm a child while it is young, and special precautions should be taken to cleanse the parent involved.³⁵⁵ At least up to the time of weaning, a child is commonly decked with numerous amulets and charms designed to protect it from various evils and sicknesses. Important among these is the danger of the upper teeth appearing first. Children in whom this occurred are said to have been killed in the past in Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma.³⁵⁶

Mothers and other female kinsfolk carry quite young babies on their backs, and a mother will take a child in this way to the fields to cultivate, the child often sleeping through the work. Toilet training does not appear to begin until the child can walk and has begun to talk. Once children have started to talk properly, they begin to imitate the behaviour of adults of their own sex. This is especially true of little girls who are introduced into the various domestic tasks appropriate to their sex at a rather earlier age than boys.

In Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa, twins and breech-born children are the subject of special rituals which are performed by members of the *bagota* or *babasana* secret societies.³⁵⁷ According to Ankermann, such children were not usually killed in the region in the past, except in Ukimbu.³⁵⁸ Cory reports the killing of twins in the past in Usukuma.³⁵⁹ Their birth should be announced to the political authorities of the chiefdom, and at least traditionally a payment used to be made to the chief or headman by the parents. Should such children die, special calabashes are kept in their memory, and their spirits, unlike those of ordinary dead children, are believed to be able to trouble their surviving kinsfolk.³⁶⁰

LATER CHILDHOOD AND ADOLESCENCE

With the possible exception of the Kimbu, who at least traditionally held formal and comprehensive initiation ceremonies for boys and for girls, the period of later childhood and adolescence in the region appears mainly to be one in which adult skills, knowledge and experience are gradually acquired.³⁶¹ Tooth filing, mentioned in an earlier section, was the only form of 'initiation' practised outside the Kimbu area in the past, and even this seems to be dying out. Informal instruction by a senior kinswoman is given to a girl, at least in Unyamwezi proper, when she first menstruates.³⁶²

Youths and girls appear to enjoy a considerable amount of sexual freedom, and this was facilitated in the past by the widespread custom of allotting separate houses to them in a settlement.³⁶³ If an unmarried girl became pregnant, the father of the child had in the past to make a compensatory payment to the girl's father or other guardian. This rule is reported for Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa.³⁶⁴ It no longer applies in Unyamwezi proper but it is still apparently enforced in Usukuma. Should an unmarried girl in Usukuma die in pregnancy, or indeed a mar-

³⁵⁴ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 159, 151), Bösch (1930a, 463, 539).

³⁵⁵ Cf. Cory (1949, 23).

³⁵⁶ Cf. Cory (1944, 34).

³⁵⁷ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 150-1), Blohm (1933a, 17-8), Cory (1944).

³⁵⁸ Ankermann (1929, 169).

³⁵⁹ Cory (1944, 34).

³⁶⁰ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 17-9), Bösch (1930a, 119, 465-7).

³⁶¹ Cf. Ankerman (1929, 173, 179), Blohm (1933a, 25).

³⁶² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 179), Bösch (1930a, 478).

³⁶³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 186-8), Blohm (1933a, 25-6), Bösch (1930a, 538), Cory (1953a, 39-40).

³⁶⁴ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 186-8).

ried girl for whom no bridewealth has been paid, the man responsible must make a blood payment to her father or guardian.³⁶⁵ A similar rule existed in the past in Unyamwezi proper, but it was abolished there before the period of British rule.³⁶⁶

Girls are in general more involved than youths in household work and cultivation prior to marriage. Youths help in cattle-herding, agriculture, and such tasks as house-building, but they usually have rather more free time for such activities as dancing than do girls.

MARRIAGE

An outline of the system of marriage in the region has been given in the sections upon kinship and affinity and domestic groupings. Here I shall concentrate mainly upon a discussion of the ceremonial and other customary procedure involved. The situation with regard to the details of such procedure is rather complex, since apart from differences between tribes, there is considerable variation to be found within the customs of a single tribe. Thus Cory describes five main forms of marriage, some with bridewealth and some without, for the Nyamwezi alone; and in my own experience of this group, variations of detail within a single form are found and new patterns are apparently emerging.³⁶⁷ In addition, Christian and Muslim marriages within the region have their own distinctive characteristics.

Information on traditional forms of bridewealth marriage is available for all the tribal areas of the region, although material on the Kimbu and Konongo is not very detailed.³⁶⁸ In Unyamwezi proper, such marriage appears typically to have involved the following six main stages.³⁶⁹

(i) *Courtship*. Commonly a father would tell his son to seek out a wife for himself, and the son would look around until he found a suitable girl. He then took one or two male friends to visit the girl at her home and discuss the possibility of marriage with her. Usually a number of such visits were necessary before the girl, after consultation with a grandmother or other friendly kinswoman, agreed to the proposal. If the girl refused the suit, negotiations normally had to start afresh elsewhere.

(ii) *Agreement over bridewealth*. When a girl agreed to marry, the parents of the couple were informed, and if they considered the match to be a satisfactory one, e.g. if the couple were not known to be related to each other and if neither family had a reputation for sorcery, negotiations about bridewealth would begin. Two male neighbours of the young man's father visited the girl's home as his agents, *bakombe*, and discussed the amount to be paid with two male neighbours, also called *bakombe*, of her father. These agents acted on instructions from the father whom they represented. Once again, several visits might be made before agreement could be reached, and sometimes the negotiations proved abortive.

(iii) *A feast at the girl's home*. Once the bridewealth had been agreed, the father of the bride gave a feast for the people on the groom's side, and arrangements were made about the collection of the bridewealth.

(iv) *Collection of the bridewealth*. A delegation from the girl's side visited the boy's father on the appointed day and the actual bridewealth cattle or other goods were chosen. After this had been completed, the visitors were feasted and they then returned home with the bridewealth. The actual day of the wedding was fixed.

(v) *The wedding*. What may be called the actual wedding ceremonies took place at the girl's home and lasted about three days. Representatives of both sides were present, and they and anyone who happened to attend were liberally feasted. There was

³⁶⁵ Cf. Cory (1953a, 93-9; 1955a, 38).

³⁶⁶ Cf. Cory (1955a, 39).

³⁶⁷ Cory (1955a, 15-7), Bösch (1930a, 405) records changing patterns in his day also.

³⁶⁸ Ankermann (1929, 72, 90-1, 94) appears to be the only source on Kimbu and Konongo marriages.

³⁶⁹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 89-90), Blohm (1933a, 90-5), Bösch (1930a, 361-400). For convenience of description I have assumed in this account of Nyamwezi bridewealth marriage that the marriage is a first one, at least for the husband, and that the couple are both living with their parents.

also much singing and dancing. The main events were the arrival of the young man with a group of friends, the hunting out of the bride who was hidden in the homestead, a ceremonial meal eaten by the bride and groom either alone or in the company of an older kinswoman of the bride, and an important ceremony in which the bride and groom received the public blessings and admonitions of their parents. After this, the young man and his companions were given work to do by the bride's father. The sexual consummation of the marriage sometimes took place at the time of the wedding, but it was also sometimes delayed till some days afterwards.

(vi) *The removal of the bride.* It appears to have been common in the past for the newly married couple to spend as much as a year at the girl's home. When eventually the husband took his wife to his own home, she was accompanied by a large number of companions, both male and female, who delayed the journey at regular intervals by stopping and demanding payment before they would proceed. Once the procession reached the husband's homestead, the bride and some of her female companions refused to eat until a further payment, *bugila*, had been made to them. They were also given a number of small tasks to do, e.g. to fetch water and to cook, and they refused to do these without payment. The bride and some of her female companions also paid respect to the father and the mother of the groom in turn, advancing towards them in a line on their knees and giving them food. This was accompanied by an exchange of presents.

The type of marriage just described is known as *winga wa limi*, i.e. daylight wedding, in Unyamwezi proper, and it is very similar to the main form of bridewealth marriage, *kulunja*, described by Cory for Usukuma.³⁷⁰ Cory also describes a form of bridewealth marriage, called *kugumira*, which was formerly found in Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma.³⁷¹ This type of marriage was a prerogative of rich and important men, and it mainly differed from the form described above in its preliminary procedure. The prospective husband, or one of his followers if he was a chief, would publicly throw a string of beads or a cloth or skin over the head of the chosen girl. If her father accepted this, and such acceptance was apparently usual, the procedure of an ordinary bridewealth marriage would then be followed from that point.

The best account of traditional bridewealth marriage among the Sumbwa is given by Bösch.³⁷² Although similar in many respects to the Nyamwezi *winga wa limi*, it differed from it in a number of procedural details. Thus after obtaining the girl's agreement to the marriage, the future Sumbwa son-in-law himself approached her father and asked for his permission to marry her. Again, although intermediaries were used to discuss the bridewealth as among the Nyamwezi, the discussions about the amount to be paid took place at the young man's home, and this is also true of much of the ceremonial of the wedding itself which took place at the girl's home in Unyamwezi proper and in Usukuma. It may also be mentioned here that infant betrothal appears to have been much more frequent among the Sumbwa than among the Nyamwezi and Sukuma, and marriage between certain categories of kinsfolk was allowed.³⁷³

Information on the Kimbu and Konongo points to broad similarities between their traditional bridewealth marriages and those of the Nyamwezi, but it is not sufficiently detailed to allow proper comparison. The marriages of the Konongo are said to have been simpler in form than those of the Nyamwezi, and a special custom is reported whereby the father of the bride thrusts a spear into the ground at the feet of his son-in-law and admonishes him to kill an adulterer if he meets one.³⁷⁴ Among the Kimbu, as among the Sumbwa, infant betrothal appears to have been very common, and marriages between some kinsfolk were permitted.³⁷⁵ The actual wedding ceremonies there seem to have been completed in one day, as opposed to three among

³⁷⁰ Cory (1953a, 41-4). Cf. also Pfister (1962).

³⁷¹ Cory (1953a, 120-30; 1955a, 17).

³⁷² Bösch (1930a, 420-8). Cf. also Ankermann (1929, 92-4).

³⁷³ Bösch (1930a, 417, 419).

³⁷⁴ Ankermann (1929, 90-1).

³⁷⁵ Ankermann (1929, 72, 94). Cf. Bösch (1930a, 355).

the Nyamwezi, and the bride was not allowed to speak at all upon the wedding day.³⁷⁶

Information about modern practices in bridewealth marriage is not available for Ukimbu, Ukonongo and Usumbwa. Cory's account of *kulunja* marriage in Usukuma implies that it is still found in the area.³⁷⁷ In Unyamwezi proper, the full-scale *winga wa limi* appears to be only rarely practised nowadays and even when it does take place, the order of events is slightly different from that which I have described. Whereas traditionally a feast was given at the girl's home prior to the collection of the bridewealth, this feast now takes place after the bridewealth has been chosen and collected. I was told that this change was introduced in order to avoid unnecessary expense on the part of the girl's family if the marriage was broken off before the bridewealth had been transferred. In general, modern bridewealth marriages in Unyamwezi proper are rather shorter and less complex than the type I have described. Often they commence with the abduction of the girl by her husband to be, and this is followed by negotiations over bridewealth which are commonly instigated by the girl's father. Agents, *bakombe*, of the two sides are still normally used in such negotiations. Once bridewealth has been agreed and transferred, a more or less curtailed form of the traditional procedure usually takes place, and in a few extreme cases no further ceremonial appears to be involved. A common name for such modern bridewealth marriages is *kutwinija*. It may be added that a number of separately named parts of the bridewealth payments were recognized in the traditional *winga wa limi*, but a single lump sum is commonly agreed upon in *kutwinija* marriages, and the separate components are only relatively rarely named and discussed.³⁷⁸ A comparable modern and simplified form of bridewealth marriage, called *harusi ya kabunga*, is also noted by Cory for southern Usukuma.³⁷⁹

Ceremonial procedure is largely lacking in non-bridewealth marriages. Traditionally in Unyamwezi proper the young man is said to have left a token payment, *shileka mu ndalo*, on the girl's bed when he eloped with her, and a similar custom is reported for Usumbwa.³⁸⁰ This payment is now sometimes given before or after such a marriage to the girl's father or other guardian, though the traditional practice is also occasionally found. Cory reports the necessity for the husband to make a payment called *ngwekwe*, or *ng'ombe ya kupeleja* in Usukuma to the wife's father or other guardian if she is living with the guardian at the time of the marriage.³⁸¹ At least in Unyamwezi proper, the husband in a non-bridewealth marriage commonly has to give the wife a present, called *bugila* as in bridewealth marriage, before she will agree to eat at his homestead.

DEATH

According to Desoignies, only chiefs and other nobles were traditionally buried in north-western Unyamwezi proper, other people being left unburied in the bush.³⁸² My own information on this area confirms this statement, and a similar practice is reported for Usumbwa.³⁸³ In other parts of Unyamwezi proper procedure appears to have varied but it is clear that burial was not provided for all classes of the population. Stuhlmann mentions that chiefs and persons who had kinsfolk to look after them were buried, while other people were exposed.³⁸⁴ Grant records that chiefs and "most of the respectable classes" were buried, but not slaves and witches.³⁸⁵ Bösch reports that slaves, witches, people struck by lightning, people who died of such

³⁷⁶ Ankermann (1929, 94).

³⁷⁷ Cory (1953a, 41).

³⁷⁸ For a discussion of these components in Unyamwezi proper, cf. Blohm (1933a, 90-1), Bösch (1930a, 365, 372-5). Cary (1953a, 19) discusses various components parts of marriage payments in Usukuma.

³⁷⁹ Cory (1953a, 46-7).

³⁸⁰ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 402, 419).

³⁸¹ Cory (1953a, 54-5).

³⁸² Desoignies (1903, 275).

³⁸³ Baumann (1894, 236).

³⁸⁴ Stuhlmann (1894, 90).

³⁸⁵ Grant (1864, 84).

diseases as leprosy, smallpox and elephantiasis, and possibly other persons were not buried in the past.³⁸⁶ In Usukuma, however, burial for all is said to have been the general rule in the past and, as far as can be seen, this is nowadays the case for the whole region.³⁸⁷

Detailed accounts of the burial of ordinary people are available for Unyamwezi proper. Although they differ upon various points of detail, the general pattern is the same and it appears to have changed relatively little over the years.³⁸⁸ In my own experience, the following procedure takes place.

When a person dies the women of the homestead cry out loud so that people living close by come to find out what has happened. A man is sent to carry the news throughout the village, and the body is buried within the homestead compound as soon as possible. While some neighbours dig the grave, inquiries are made as to whether the deceased belonged to certain secret societies, e.g. one of those connected with the birth of twins. If he or she did so, members of these societies are summoned and they privately dress the corpse with special medicines. The person is then buried in a new white cloth which is paid for by relatives and neighbours who are present. The mats or skins on which the dead person has lain, and also some clothing, are buried with the body. The grave is normally a rectangular trench, and the corpse is laid on its side looking into the homestead. Sometimes a shelf is hollowed out to one side at the bottom of the grave to receive the body. Neighbours fill the grave after relatives have lightly cast a little soil upon the corpse. Only adult men take part in the proceedings, the women remaining indoors and wailing. All who have been involved in the actual burial then ritually cleanse themselves by sprinkling water on their bodies. The water is contained in a gourd dish, and leafy twigs from a plant called *malumba* are dipped in this and shaken over themselves by the participants. The gourd dish and a hoe used in the digging of the grave are broken and left on the grave along with a stone marker. Some tufts of roofing grass from the hut of the deceased are also stuck into the top of the grave. A meal is then given to those who have helped, and arrangements are made to send news of the death to kinsfolk outside the village who have not yet been informed.

Agricultural work in the village ceases when a death occurs. Two or three days later, a ceremony called *koga mapande* or *koga maseswa* is carried out at a cross-roads to purify the close kin and the widow or widower of the deceased. These people have their heads shaved prior to the ceremony, and after the ceremony agricultural work may be resumed in the village. After a few days a further ceremony, *kweja ikungu*, is held to cleanse the village of the death. Commonly this is followed, either immediately or after an interval of days or even weeks, by a divination to determine the cause of death. If the deceased is a man, a further ceremony, *isabingula*, is performed at which the dead man's debts are settled and the inheritance of his property arranged.

Cory gives a little information on comparable Sukuma funerals, and as far as can be seen the general pattern there is broadly similar to that described above for Unyamwezi proper.³⁸⁹ The term *isabingula* appears to refer in Usukuma to the ritual cleansing of those who have participated in a funeral. No information is available upon the procedures followed in other parts of the region when ordinary people are buried.

Material upon the traditional procedures at the death and burial of chiefs is available for all parts of the region except Ukonongo. In Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma, an ailing chief is said to have been killed by the ritual officers of the chiefdom and the death was kept secret, in Unyamwezi proper for a month or more, until a successor had been chosen.³⁹⁰ In Usumbwa secrecy is said to have been maintained for a few days, but in Ukimbu it appears that an immediate announcement was often

³⁸⁶ Bösch (1930a, 482-3).

³⁸⁷ Cf. Baumann (1894, 236), Kollmann (1899, 173).

³⁸⁸ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 100-9), Bösch (1930a, 481-3).

³⁸⁹ Cory (1953a, 152-3).

³⁹⁰ Cf. Aikermann (1929, 30), Bösch (1930a, 487), Cory (1951, 7-9; 1954, 4), Stuhlmann (1894, 90).

made.³⁹¹ In all four areas the chief is said to have been buried in a sitting position and to have been wrapped in a black cow-skin.³⁹² Human victims are reported to have been buried with him in Ukimbu, Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma, and he is also said to have been buried headless with the skull of his predecessor in Usukuma.³⁹³ Nowadays chief-killing and human sacrifice appear to have been abandoned, and the death of a chief is no longer kept secret.

RELIGION AND MAGIC

Information on most aspects of this topic is available for Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa only, and the following account refers particularly to these three areas.³⁹⁴ Inter-tribal and intra-tribal differences of detail are found, and reference will be made to the more important of these, but the general pattern appears to be the same throughout the region.

ANCESTOR WORSHIP

Ancestor worship appears to be the most important single element in the religious complex of the area.³⁹⁵ With the main exception of the ancestors of chiefs and their subordinate rulers, whose influence is territorially defined, ancestral spirits, *misambwa* or *mizimu*, normally affect only their own descendants or, occasionally, those of their siblings.³⁹⁶ The spirits of dead twins and breech-born children, especially, are believed to be able to affect the lives of kinsfolk who are not directly descended from them.³⁹⁷

Offerings to the ancestors are made on a variety of occasions.³⁹⁸ Mostly they are given on the advice of a diviner in response to a particular misfortune, such as sickness, but some offerings are made regularly at points in the agricultural cycle, e.g. planting and harvesting, and they may also be made at events such as a marriage or birth, and upon embarking on or returning from a journey. The forms of offering vary from simple libations of *lwanga*, a mixture of millet flour and water, through offerings of grain, beer or porridge to blood sacrifice.³⁹⁹ The most common sacrificial victims are goats and sheep, the slaughter of cattle being mainly reserved for sacrifices to royal ancestors. The particular form of offering chosen usually depends upon the advice of a diviner, but some offerings, and especially those of *lwanga*, may be made without such external prompting. Most offerings are made at the homestead of the offerer, though offerings to royal ancestors appear generally to be made at the royal graves. In Unyamwezi proper and Usukuma, shrines, *makigabilo*, in the form of small huts, about two to three feet in height, are erected for the ancestor to whom the offering is made. Among the Sumbwa simpler shrines, consisting of a small number of short wooden stakes stuck in the ground, are used.⁴⁰⁰

At least in Unyamwezi proper, offerings are usually made only to male ancestors. The ancestors in question may be either on the father's or the mother's side, but paternal ancestors appear to be most often worshipped. The ancestors are generally considered to be well disposed to their descendants, providing that the latter pay them due respect. It is believed, however, that an ancestor who feels he is neglected will bring misfortune, typically in the form of sickness or death, upon the negligent descendant or his children. The ancestors do not normally appear to punish offences

³⁹¹ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 30).

³⁹² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 32), Baumann (1894, 236), Blohm (1933a, 107-8), Bösch (1930a, 487), Cory (1951, 9, 11), Cunningham (1905, 307), Kohler (1902, 11), Stuhlmann (1894, 91).

³⁹³ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 32), Blohm (1933a, 108), Bösch (1930a, 487), Cory (1951, 6, 10), Grant (1864, 55), Kohler (1902, 11). Human sacrifice in other contexts is reported for Usumbwa by Bösch (1930a, 299-301, 502).

³⁹⁴ The most detailed sources are Blohm (1933a, 150-94), Bösch (1930a, 26-310), Cory (1944; 1949; 1960), Tanner (1956a; 1956d; 1956e; 1957b 1958a 1958b).

³⁹⁵ Cf. Malcolm (1953, 67), Spellig (1927b, 227).

³⁹⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 44).

³⁹⁷ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 118-23, 131, 223, 465-7), Cory (1944, 37 and *passim*).

³⁹⁸ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 158-65), Bösch (1930a, 131-2), Tanner (1958a; 1958b).

³⁹⁹ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 141-63), Tanner (1958a, 229 and *passim*).

⁴⁰⁰ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 108-14), Tanner (1958b, 54).

of their descendants against the moral code as it affects relationships between the living, but I was told that they may do so if they are invoked in indignation by one of their descendants.⁴⁰¹ It is mainly the failure to make sufficient offerings to them which they punish.

Although details are lacking it seems clear from the literature that an ancestral cult is found among the Kimbu, and it is likely that a similar cult exists in Ukonongo.⁴⁰²

GOD AND NON-ANCESTRAL SPIRITS

Beliefs in a high god are reported for Unyamwezi proper, Usukuma and Usumbwa, and they almost certainly exist throughout the whole of greater Unyamwezi.⁴⁰³ No special cult is addressed to him, but he is invoked before sacrifices to the ancestors. A large variety of terms are used to describe him, e.g. Likube (identifying him as supreme being), Limatunda (identifying him as creator of the world), Limi (identifying him as the sun), and Liwelelo (identifying him as the universe). The term Mulungu is also used and may have been borrowed from Swahili.⁴⁰⁴

A number of non-ancestral spirits are also believed to influence the lives of men. The most important of these appear to be Katabi, who is generally believed to be an evil spirit, Limudimi, who as guardian of the bush is normally said to be benevolently disposed to mankind, and Lyangombe, the founder of the Swezi cult, who gives help in situations of great distress in return for worship and who is said to be believed by some to be more powerful than the high god.⁴⁰⁵ The belief in Katabi is reported to be most highly developed in Ukimbu and in Ukonongo, and a cult apparently exists there to appease him. The belief in Limudimi is said to be strongest in the west and south of the region. He gives help to hunters and travellers but he does not normally appear to demand worship. The cult of Lyangombe appears to extend well beyond the boundaries of the *baswezi* secret society. Katabi is sometimes said to be associated with the *bamigabo* secret society.⁴⁰⁶ It appears that Katabi, Limudimi and Lyangombe are sometimes considered as god himself rather than as separate spirits.⁴⁰⁷

In addition, various *swezi* and *migabo* spirits, and spirits connected with other spirit possession societies, are believed to attack and possess people who must join the societies in question in order to obtain relief from their disturbing influence.⁴⁰⁸ A belief in lion-men is also found at least in Unyamwezi proper.⁴⁰⁹

SORCERY

Beliefs in sorcery, *bulogi*, appear to be found throughout the whole of greater Unyamwezi, but detailed information on most aspects of them is available for Unyamwezi proper only.⁴¹⁰ There sorcerers are believed to use a variety of techniques against their enemies ranging from the casting of spells upon them to the actual insertion of poison in their food. The misfortunes most commonly attributed to sorcery are human sickness and death, but sorcerers are also sometimes held to attack a person's crops and livestock. In my own experience, it is usually close kinsfolk who are believed to bewitch each other, but affines and neighbours may also be accused or feared. Fear of sorcery appears to be a common motive for movement from one village or chiefdom to another.⁴¹¹ Both men and women alike believe that the very large majority

⁴⁰¹ Cf. Tanner (1958b, 60-1 and *passim*).

⁴⁰² Cf. Ankermann (1929, 18) where the Kimbu cult is, however, said to involve only the ancestors of chiefs.

⁴⁰³ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 186-8), Bösch (1930a, 26-42, 158-9), Cory (1960, 15), Tanner (1956a).

⁴⁰⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 31), Spellig (1927b, 226).

⁴⁰⁵ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 179-81, 185-6, 189-91), Cory (1960, 15-6), Spellig (1927b, 226-7).

⁴⁰⁶ Cf. Cory (1954, 87), Spellig (1927b, 227).

⁴⁰⁷ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 189), Bösch (1930a, 26-34), Spellig (1927b, 226).

⁴⁰⁸ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 181-5), Cory (1954, 87-8; 1955b), and the section on secret societies.

⁴⁰⁹ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 241-5).

⁴¹⁰ Cf. Ankermann (1929, 360), Blohm (1933a, 130-2, 145-50), Bösch (1930a, 223-33), Cory (1949, 21-2), Malcolm (1953, 26), Shorter (1966), Tanner (1958b, 52).

⁴¹¹ A similar situation with regard to movement appears to exist in Ukimbu and Usukuma. Cf. Malcolm (1953, 49) and Shorter (1966).

of sorcerers are women, but actual accusations recorded in the field are more evenly divided between the sexes. Owls and hyenas are associated with sorcery by the Nyamwezi, and Bösch records a similar association with owls among the Sumbwa.⁴¹²

THE DIVINER AND MEDICINE-MAN

The diviner, *mfumu*, is a key figure in the magico-religious system of the region.⁴¹³ It is he, or occasionally she, who interprets the system for an individual or group and decides which forces are impinging on their lives in a particular situation. Thus it is a diviner who informs people whether a particular sickness or other trouble is the result of ancestral anger or of sorcery, or again perhaps of attack by *swezi*, *migabo* or other spirits. Once he has identified the influence of such forces for those who consult him, the diviner then goes on to tell them how to deal with them, giving detailed instructions about the form of ritual which is necessary. A second diviner commonly helps the person or persons concerned to carry out the ritual in question. In addition to all this, diviners often provide medicines or their formulæ for people who consult them, and they may also be consulted on such matters as the whereabouts of stolen cattle.

Divination takes a wide variety of forms. Probably the most widespread is chicken divination, for which the fowl is first killed, but other techniques, such as the throwing of lots, the examination of the movement of objects in stirred water, and the interpretation of the form taken by a lazy-tongues device known as *kasanda*, are also found.⁴¹⁴ In my experience, before a consultation may begin the diviner must first tell the persons concerned why they have come to consult him. At least in Unyamwezi proper, a diviner cannot divine for himself or his own family, but he must consult another diviner. Diviners provide their services free to one another, but ordinary people must pay them for a consultation.

It has been noted that diviners often provide medicines or their formulæ for their clients. A large variety of medicines are available for different purposes, e.g. love magic, the inducement of pregnancy, the protection of crops and livestock, and the alleviation of human and animal diseases.⁴¹⁵ Harmful medicines are also said to be obtainable for use against one's enemies. Most though not all diviners provide medicines for clients, and some medicines are obtainable from knowledgeable individuals who are not diviners. There is a certain amount of specialization in particular medicines by individual practitioners.⁴¹⁶

Cory has given a good account of the constitution of different sorts of medicines in Usukuma, and his discussion appears to hold at least for Unyamwezi proper also.⁴¹⁷ Two main sets of constituents are commonly combined. The first consists of herbal and other ingredients which symbolically represent the client, and the second, called *shingira*, contains ingredients which symbolize the character of the complaint or the desired end. Although the logic of the medicinal system is typically expressed in symbolic terms, e.g. baobab bark is used in medicines to induce pregnancy because of the 'fatness' of the tree, certain medicines do appear to possess curative properties. It is interesting to note in this context that an indigenous form of vaccination against smallpox was apparently known in the region.⁴¹⁸ The presence and use of hospitals and local dispensaries has to some extent begun to undermine the medical services provided by indigenous practitioners, but most people in my own experience prefer to make use of both sorts of service rather than to place their faith in only one of them.⁴¹⁹

⁴¹² Bösch (1930a, 224, 232-4).

⁴¹³ Cf. Blohm (1933a, 165-72), Bösch (1930a, 169-86), Cory (1960, 17 and *passim*), Tanner (1957b).

⁴¹⁴ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 180-6), Cory (1960, 17 and *passim*).

⁴¹⁵ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 257-97), Cory (1949).

⁴¹⁶ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 169, 286-9).

⁴¹⁷ Cory (1949). Cf. Bösch (1930a, 257-97).

⁴¹⁸ Cf. Bösch (1930a, 289-91, 293), Cory (1951, 63).

⁴¹⁹ Cf. Tanner (1957b, 350).

CHRISTIANITY AND ISLAM

Christian missions have been working in the region since the middle of the second half of the last century, and nowadays both Protestant and Catholic missions are well distributed throughout the area. Exact figures are not available, but it is clear that at least in Unyamwezi proper, only a small proportion of the population consider themselves as Christian, and relatively few of these are practising Christians in the eyes of the missions. Blohm cites the rules of behaviour demanded by the missions with regard to sexual relations, marriage and alcohol as important obstacles in the way of conversion, and my own material supports this view.⁴²⁰ According to my own information, five Nyamwezi chiefs claimed to be Christian at the time of my fieldwork, but Liebenow gives a much higher figure of 16 out of the 25 Usukuma chiefs in his sample.⁴²¹ This may reflect a greater influence of Christianity among the total population in this latter area, compared with that in Unyamwezi proper.⁴²² In addition to their formally religious work, the missions provide important auxiliary medical services and educational services in the region. At least in Unyamwezi proper, the missions appear to have exercised very little political influence until recent years when some of them began to give considerable help to local branches of the Tanganyika African National Union.

Islam is mainly of importance in the rural areas around Tabora where many villages have predominantly Muslim populations. There are no Muslim missions in the rural areas. The spread of Islam in the villages around Tabora appears to have been due more to the influence of certain chiefs such as Saidi Fundikira, a former chief of the large Unyanyembe chiefdom, than to direct contact with the Arabs. Contact with the predominantly Muslim population of Tabora town, and travel to the Islamic coastal regions also appear to have had their influence. The acceptance of polygamy by Islam and the absence of Muslim missionaries to exercise discipline with regard to beer drinking, which is very popular in Muslim villages as elsewhere, have facilitated the acceptance of the religion in the area. According to my own information, 12 Nyamwezi chiefs were Muslims at the time of my fieldwork, and 9 of these were in Tabora District. Liebenow reports that 2 of the 25 Sukuma chiefs in his sample were Muslims.⁴²³

⁴²⁰ Blohm (1933a, 193-4).

⁴²¹ Liebenow (1960, 242-3, 257).

⁴²² But cf. Liebenow (1960, 243), where the majority of the population are said to be pagans.

⁴²³ Liebenow (1960, 242-3, 257).

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ABBREVIATIONS

DKB	<i>Deutsches Kolonialblatt</i>
JRAI	<i>Journal of the Royal Anthropological Institute</i>
MAGD	<i>Mitteilungen der afrikanischen Gesellschaft in Deutschland</i>
MDS	<i>Mitteilungen aus den deutschen Schutzgebieten</i>
MSOS	<i>Mitteilungen des Seminars für orientalische Sprachen an der Universität Berlin</i>
PM	<i>Petermanns Mitteilungen</i>
TNR	<i>Tanganyika Notes and Records</i>
ZE	<i>Zeitschrift für Ethnologie</i>
ZK	<i>Zeitschrift für Kolonialsprachen</i>
	* Items of linguistic importance.

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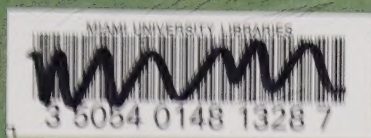
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